When Does Crime Enter House Prices? Evidence from Chicago

Nency Dhameja[*†]

This version: October 18, 2026

Click here for the latest version

Abstract

I estimate how crime affects housing prices in Chicago. Although homebuyers presumably care about crime, most offenses have a near-zero effect on sale prices or rents. I argue that this is consistent with limited information: crime only changes buyers' valuations if they learn of an incident and revise their expectations about future exposure. First, price effects are hyperlocal even though the predictive value of crimes is not. Second, price effects strengthen with real estate agents' local experience. Third, even within an offense, the effect depends on where at the property the incident occurred. These patterns are consistent with buyers responding to incidents they learn about rather than to the crime those incidents forecast.

JEL classification: R31, K42, D83, L85

Keywords: Crime; repeat sales; housing prices; neighborhood amenities; information frictions; real estate agents; hedonic pricing.

1 Introduction

A home is most homeowners' largest asset and an important consumption good. Neighborhood crime threatens both dimensions: it undermines the safety of the environment in which families live and the value of the asset they hold. In a 2025 Redfin survey, personal safety and a low crime rate were the two most cited non-negotiables among prospective homebuyers.[1] Because economists often use house prices to infer how residents value neighborhood safety (Thaler, 1978; Gibbons, 2004; Linden and Rockoff, 2008), whether prices reflect nearby crime also matters for policy. If some crime-related costs are not reflected in prices, valuations based on housing markets may miss part of the benefits of crime reduction: the absence of a price discount does not imply the absence of a cost.

[*]Binghamton University, New York. Email: ndhamej1@binghamton.edu

[†]I am deeply indebted to David Slichter for his guidance, insightful feedback, and continued support. I am grateful to Solomon Polachek, Andreas Pape, Christopher Hanes, and Ivan Korolev for discussions and valuable suggestions.

[1]A 2025 Redfin/Ipsos survey of 1,224 prospective homebuyers finds that personal safety (78%) and a low crime rate (74%) are the two most frequently cited "must-have" attributes among eighteen home and neighborhood features (Anderson, 2025).

This paper studies which crimes affect house prices, why some do and others do not, and how crime changes whether and how quickly homes sell.

I answer these questions using data from Chicago. I link 530,395 single-family, condominium, and residential-income transactions on 337,461 properties from the Chicago Multiple Listing Service, spanning 2007 to 2025, to 5.59 million geocoded crime incidents, analyzing twenty-two offense categories. The listing data track properties from initial listing to sale or withdrawal, so I observe the asking price, the final sale price, time on market, and withdrawals; rental listings provide asking rents and listing outcomes for leases.

My identification strategy compares the same property across sales. Parcel fixed effects absorb permanent differences across properties, and tract-by-month fixed effects absorb time-varying shocks shared by the surrounding neighborhood, such as local price trends. Within this comparison, I contrast crime within 0.05 miles of the property, roughly the same block, with crime 0.20 to 0.30 miles away in the same neighborhood; nonparametric distance profiles motivate these bands (Section 4). I estimate this design for all twenty-two offenses and assess it using post-sale crime placebos, which cannot causally affect a price already set.

I find that some crimes affect housing prices, while most have near-zero effects. Of the twenty-two offenses, four carry a sale-price discount across multiple exposure windows (homicide, burglary, narcotics, and vandalism), and two more are statistically significant at a single long-horizon window (disorderly conduct and sex offenses). One of the rarest offenses carries the largest discount, about three percent per incident (homicide), while several common or widely feared offenses show no detectable discount (theft, motor-vehicle theft, assault, and robbery). An offense can therefore be severe, frequent, or widely feared and still show no detectable discount.

Why, then, are effects confined to particular offenses, when buyers are presumably averse to crime in general? A simple framework helps us think about this question. For an incident to affect the house price, three conditions must hold: (a) buyers must learn of the incident; (b) learning of it must raise their expectation of future crime of that type at the property; and (c) buyers must be willing to pay to avert that crime at the property. The first condition concerns whether information arrives, the second what it implies about future crime, and the third what avoiding that crime is worth: a buyer who sees a car stolen from the curb may expect more car thefts on the block and still pay no less for the house.

Three patterns inform this interpretation. The first concerns how buyers use crime information. Price effects are hyperlocal, whereas the predictive content of crime extends beyond the immediate vicinity of the property. Crime a few blocks away predicts future crime near the property for nearly every offense, yet it does not lower prices. Nor do discounts rise with how well an offense predicts its own recurrence: the most predictable offense carries a small discount (narcotics), and an offense more predictable than burglary carries none (non-domestic assault). The second concerns observability. For the same offense, incidents at a home's frontage lower prices, while incidents inside the dwelling do not (burglary and narcotics; Table 3). Discounts are significant for incidents on the street but not at residential addresses, although the two estimates cannot be statistically

distinguished (homicide and narcotics; Table A5).[2] Agents may help this information travel: the discount is larger when the buyer's agent has more experience in the neighborhood, even after controlling for total experience (homicide; Tables A13 and A14). Because agents are not randomly assigned to transactions, this relationship is descriptive. The third concerns relevance. An offense about as frequent near homes as burglary has a discount precisely estimated at zero (motor-vehicle theft). Car thieves on the block do raise the risk to a parked car, but the loss falls on a movable, insurable asset rather than on the home, and a stolen car leaves no trace at the property; the null is consistent with low relevance, low observability, or both. Similarly, vandalism that damages property carries a discount at every window from seven months on, while vandalism that damages a vehicle does not (Section 5.2). Together, these patterns are consistent with buyers responding selectively to information about risks attached to a property and its immediate surroundings.

The transaction results show that sale-price discounts generally emerge after listing rather than in the initial asking price. Asking prices respond little on average, while closing prices show discounts. Other margins vary by offense: some offenses also lower the sale-to-list ratio (narcotics); there is some evidence that some lengthen time on market, by roughly 12 to 17 percent, or about two to three days against a median of 16 in the estimation sample, under parcel-by-era fixed effects (homicide); and some increase withdrawals despite showing no consistent closing-price discount (weapons violations). For ten of the twenty-two offenses, including all four that are priced, nearby crime raises the probability that a home is listed more than the probability that it sells. Crime therefore affects whether and how quickly a home sells as well as its price, so closing prices alone give an incomplete account of the market's response.

Finally, the offenses that lower asking rents are not always those that lower sale prices. Asking-rent reductions appear for offenses with consistent sale-price discounts (burglary) and for offenses with weaker or no detectable sale-price discounts (sex offenses and liquor-law violations), although the rental evidence varies across specifications (Section 5.4). Several reasons could make rental estimates differ from the sale estimates: tenants face no resale exposure, sale prices are negotiated while asking rents are posted, and the participants in the two markets differ.

The estimates are robust to time-varying block characteristics and the choice of distance bands, and inference is robust to Conley spatial standard errors. Adding building permits, vacant buildings, business licenses, tree canopy, and total 311 service requests, each measured as a near–far difference before the sale, moves the coefficients by hundredths of a percentage point, although with all five controls burglary and narcotics are significant only at ten percent, so the discount does not appear to reflect these measured block characteristics correlated with local crime. Conley standard errors at 0.5 and 1.0 km are close to the clustered standard errors: at 0.5 km they are below them for every priced offense, and at 1.0 km they are equal for homicide, burglary, and vandalism and larger for narcotics; inference uses the clustered ones (Conley, 1999). With 77 community-area clusters, homicide and burglary remain significant at five percent and vandalism at ten percent, while the

[2]Homicide is also the most heavily reported offense: it receives roughly fifteen times as many news stories per incident as the next-highest offense in Media Cloud and the largest article volume in GDELT (Section 7). Incidents in public space are more widely seen, although I do not measure coverage by incident location.

narcotics estimate is less precise ($p = 0.12$; Section 6). For three of the priced offenses, the discount is concentrated in the innermost ring across nine near–far ring definitions (burglary, narcotics, and vandalism; Appendix Table A2), so the contrast is not an artifact of the chosen cutoffs.

This paper makes two main contributions.

First, I show that house prices reflect crime selectively, estimating offense-specific price responses to nearby incidents across twenty-two categories under a common empirical design. This lets me examine not only which crimes are priced but why, and test implications of the conjecture in Gibbons (2004) that hard-to-observe crimes have weak price effects because buyers rarely learn of them. To my knowledge, this is the first test of that conjecture that holds the offense fixed and compares where incidents occur (Table 3). Moreno-Medina (2026) finds that news coverage of nearby homicides lowers house prices, identifying one channel through which buyers learn about crime. I examine observability more broadly across twenty-two offenses, for which the channels through which buyers learn about incidents may differ. Earlier work measures either many offenses at aggregate geographies, where estimates depend on the spatial unit (the modifiable areal unit problem) and cannot separate crime on a property's own block from broader neighborhood conditions (Thaler, 1978; Schwartz et al., 2003; Gibbons, 2004; Ihlanfeldt and Mayock, 2010), or a single crime at point resolution (Linden and Rockoff, 2008; Pope, 2008a; Congdon-Hohman, 2013; Tang and Le, 2023; Bhattacharya et al., 2021). Braakmann (2017) studies six offense categories at the street level using street fixed effects; I extend this to twenty-two offenses at the incident level with repeat sales, and test why offenses differ.[3] Parcel fixed effects remove permanent differences across properties. In these data, cross-sectional hedonic estimates yield larger discounts for burglary, narcotics, and vandalism and a smaller one for homicide (Table A19).

Second, I show that crime affects whether and how quickly a home sells, not only its closing price, by tracing each stage of the transaction. I examine asking prices, time on market, withdrawal, and the sale-to-list price ratio, allowing me to distinguish whether crime is incorporated into the seller's initial asking price or emerges through subsequent market adjustment (Table 4). Boggess et al. (2013) find that higher crime is followed by higher housing turnover, Wentland et al. (2014) estimate price and time-on-market effects of registered sex offenders from MLS data, and Dentler and Rossi (2024) show that the density of sales changes within 30 to 60 days of an incident. I extend this analysis to each stage of the transaction and hold the property fixed with repeat sales, so the price estimates compare the same property across sales rather than different properties sold before and after an incident. Crime can affect whether a sale proceeds, not only its price: weapons violations increase withdrawals despite showing no consistent closing-price discount.

I also extend the design to rental listings, a market studied far less in this literature. Most rent studies use aggregate crime rates (Rizzo, 1979; Koirala et al., 2023; Donovan et al., 2024), and property-level studies examine one or two offenses (Carrillo and Yezer, 2021; Klimova and Lee, 2014). I estimate effects of all twenty-two offenses on asking rents, time on market, withdrawal, and relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) under the same design as the sale estimates

[3] Table A20 summarizes prior estimates.

(Table 6).

The remainder of the paper proceeds as follows. Section 2 develops the conceptual framework, which links crime capitalization to the information available to market participants and to belief updating about exposure relevant to the housing transaction. Section 3 describes the property-sale, rental-listing, and geocoded crime data and the construction of property-level crime exposure. Section 4 presents the empirical strategy for estimating the effect of an additional nearby crime incident on housing-market outcomes. Section 5 reports the main results and examines heterogeneity across offenses and incident locations. Section 6 assesses robustness. Section 7 interprets the results: why asking prices respond little, who carries the information, what the estimates mean for welfare, and how they bear on valuing crime reduction. Section 8 concludes.

2 Conceptual framework

The observed crime discount is the price consequence of a change in expected crime exposure. To make this explicit, suppose first that a household values occupancy at a property over a fixed horizon (thereby allowing us to ignore resale value). Let q_k denote the buyer's subjective expected number of future incidents of offense k near the property over that horizon, and let w_k denote willingness to pay to avoid one expected incident, expressed as a fraction of the property's value before the incident. Expected crime exposure therefore carries value $w_k q_k$.

Buyers enter the market with prior beliefs about q_k, formed from information already available about the location. A newly realized incident can affect valuation through two additional margins. First, information about the incident must reach the relevant market participant. Let $S_k \in [0, 1]$ denote the probability of information arrival: $S_k = 0$ means that the participant never learns of the incident, while $S_k = 1$ means that information about it reaches the participant with certainty. Second, conditional on information arrival, the incident may change the participant's subjective expectation of future exposure. Define

$$b_k(S_k) \equiv \frac{\partial q_k}{\partial C_k^o}, \tag{1}$$

where C_k denotes realized incidents of offense k and C_k^o those whose information reaches the participant. Thus $b_k(S_k)$ measures the change in expected future incidents generated by one additional observed incident. Writing b_k as a function of S_k allows the update per observed incident to differ across offenses with how often such incidents are learned of. Housing markets price what buyers can observe: asymmetric information about a property's condition and its surroundings shows up in prices and in who buys (Garmaise and Moskowitz, 2004; Kurlat and Stroebel, 2015; Stroebel, 2016), and disclosure of a hazard moves prices only once buyers learn of it (Pope, 2008b; Bernstein et al., 2019; Hino and Burke, 2021; Bakkensen and Barrage, 2022; Gourevitch et al., 2023). In the crime setting, Gibbons (2004) argues that visible offenses such as vandalism are priced because they are hard to conceal from buyers, while information about other crimes stays with sellers and

neighbors. Where crime information is put in front of buyers, prices respond: house prices fall when a sex offender's address enters a public registry (Linden and Rockoff, 2008) and rebound when the offender moves away (Pope, 2008a), fall near registered gun offenders without any rise in crime (Tang and Le, 2023), and carry large, persistent discounts where deaths in a home must be disclosed (Bhattacharya et al., 2021). Most crime, by contrast, is publicly recorded but not shown where buyers search for homes. The availability of information does not ensure that it enters a decision. Chetty et al. (2009) show that consumers respond more strongly to taxes included in posted prices, even when they know that additional taxes apply. Bordalo et al. (2012, 2013) show how salient payoffs and attributes receive disproportionate weight in choice. These mechanisms motivate distinguishing information arrival from the response to information, but salience need not operate through belief updating alone. The comparisons below do not separately identify information arrival, belief updating, and valuation.

Unlike S_k, $b_k(S_k)$ is not bounded between zero and one. If $b_k(S_k) = 0$, the participant learns about the incident but does not revise expected future exposure. A value between zero and one means that one additional realized incident raises expected future exposure by less than one incident; a value of one implies a one-for-one increase; and a value greater than one means that one realized incident leads the participant to expect more than one additional future incident over the relevant horizon. Importantly, this is a subjective belief update, not the objective recurrence rate of the offense.

The update concerns counts, not value. A buyer can expect more incidents and attach no value to avoiding them, so $b_k > 0$ with $w_k = 0$ and $\kappa_k = 0$. This is why relevance and updating enter as separate terms.

Following Rosen (1974), define the per-incident discount as the implicit price of an incident: the proportional change in the value of the property, P, per additional realized incident of offense k nearby, C_k,

$$\kappa_k \equiv -\frac{\partial \ln P}{\partial C_k}. \tag{2}$$

This is the capitalization effect in the terminology of Kuminoff and Pope (2014).[4] The framework assumes that it equals the product of three terms,

$$\kappa_k = \underbrace{w_k}_{\text{WTP to avoid one expected incident}} \times \underbrace{S_k}_{\text{information arrival}} \times \underbrace{b_k(S_k)}_{\text{expected incidents per observed incident}}, \tag{3}$$

where w_k captures the location-specific value of avoiding expected exposure to offense k. An offense may impose substantial costs on its victims yet carry little location-specific valuation if those costs are not associated with occupying or owning property at that location.

Written in units, w_k is a fractional price change per expected future incident, S_k is the share of realized incidents that reach the buyer, and $b_k(S_k)$ is expected future incidents per observed

[4] κ_k is the marginal effect of one additional incident at the property's current exposure. The linear specification in Section 4 estimates a regression-weighted average of this effect across counts, with weights set by the residual variation in exposure; Table OA5 reports how it varies with the count.

incident, so the three terms multiply to the log-price discount per realized incident estimated empirically:

$$\underbrace{\frac{\Delta \ln P}{\text{expected incident}}}_{w_k} \times \underbrace{\frac{\text{incidents observed}}{\text{incidents realized}}}_{S_k} \times \underbrace{\frac{\text{expected incidents}}{\text{observed incident}}}_{b_k(S_k)} = \frac{\Delta \ln P}{\text{realized incident}}. \tag{4}$$

Consider a buyer who would pay 1 percent of a property's value to avoid one expected future burglary, so $w_k = 0.01$. If one realized burglary reaches the buyer ($S_k = 1$) and raises expected future burglaries over the horizon from 0.5 to 2.5, the belief update is $b_k(S_k) = 2$ and, since the incident is observed ($S_k = 1$), the implied discount is $\kappa_k = w_k\, b_k(S_k) = 0.01 \times 2 = 0.02$, or 2 percent per realized burglary. The framework expresses κ_k as a positive magnitude. The estimate δ_k in the empirical sections is a signed price change, so a 2 percent discount appears as $\delta_k = -2$. A value of $b_k(S_k)$ above one simply means one realized burglary leads the buyer to expect more than one additional future burglary; it is not a probability. Had the incident not reached the buyer, or reached the buyer without changing expected exposure, this channel would generate no price response.

A zero observed discount can therefore arise through three distinct channels: willingness to pay to reduce expected exposure may be zero ($w_k = 0$); information about the realized incident may not reach the participant ($S_k = 0$); or the incident may be fully observed but leave expected future exposure unchanged ($b_k(S_k) = 0$). The last case is particularly important. A buyer may place a high value on avoiding future homicide and learn that a homicide occurred nearby, yet view the incident as isolated and therefore not revise the expected risk of future homicide. The price response is then zero despite high willingness to pay and full information. Thus, full information ensures that the incident is known, but not that it changes beliefs about future exposure; a zero capitalization estimate therefore need not imply low willingness to pay.

Equation (3) is an accounting decomposition, not a structural model. Equation (3) assumes that the buyer's entire valuation change is reflected in the sale price. Online Appendix N examines whether the price responses vary with market tightness, contract timing, and distressed-sale status, providing evidence on possible bargaining channels. Prior hedonic estimates of crime report the price response to a realized incident and interpret it as a willingness to pay. With $S_k = 1$ and $b_k = \rho_k$, the discount per realized incident is $w_k\rho_k$: willingness to pay per expected future incident, scaled by how many such incidents one realized incident implies. It equals w_k only when $\rho_k = 1$. The decomposition here keeps the two apart and asks what the data say about each term. Kuminoff and Pope (2014) note a further wedge even then, re-sorting of heterogeneous buyers and sellers, so a capitalization effect recovers marginal willingness to pay only absent that sorting (Rosen, 1974; Bishop and Murphy, 2011). The tests in Section 5.2 use only that the three terms are separable.

Prediction 1: Observability and Relevance. An incident is capitalized only if it reaches the buyer and bears on what the buyer is purchasing ($S_k > 0$ and $w_k > 0$). Holding the offense fixed, incidents that are more likely to be observed should carry larger discounts than incidents that go

unseen.[5] Across offenses, discounts should be concentrated among offenses anchored to the address, whose harm stays with the property and its immediate surroundings. I test the first condition by splitting incidents of the same offense by where they occurred and whether they are visible from outside the dwelling, and the second by classifying offenses by what the harm attaches to.

Prediction 2: Recurrence. The belief update $b_k(S_k)$ is subjective and is not observed directly. I therefore ask whether capitalization tracks how well each offense predicts future crime. Holding valuation and information arrival fixed, stronger predictive content should generate a larger discount; across offenses these other components may differ, so recurrence alone need not determine the ranking of discounts. I use a forecasting regression of whether current crime predicts recurrence to measure what an incident objectively implies about future crime, not what buyers believe it implies. If discounts do not rise with recurrence, recurrence alone does not determine which offenses are priced.

Prediction 3: Price Formation. The framework describes a change in buyers' valuation but does not say where in the transaction that change appears. If sellers anticipate the effect on buyers' willingness to pay, asking prices should adjust. If they do not, the valuation change can still appear after listing: in a lower sale-to-list ratio, or in non-price margins such as a longer time on the market or a greater chance the listing is withdrawn. I use these margins to trace where capitalization enters the transaction.

3 Data

The analysis combines three sources: residential listings from the Chicago Multiple Listing Service, incident-level crime reports from the Chicago Police Department, and measures of neighborhood conditions matched to each parcel. This section describes each source and the construction of the estimation sample.

Chicago is well suited for this analysis because it provides variation along both dimensions the design requires. First, the volume and breadth of crime incidents allow effects to be estimated separately across the 22 offense categories reported here: the data contain 10,766 homicides alongside more than 1.3 million thefts over the sample period. Second, crime varies substantially at fine spatial scales: roughly 55 percent of the variation in crime exposure within 0.05 miles occurs within tract-months, against 14 percent for crime in the surrounding 0.20–0.30 mile ring. Near-ring crime therefore provides substantially more within-neighborhood variation than crime in the surrounding ring.

[5] This comparison assumes that where an incident occurs does not change what it implies about future crime or what avoiding it is worth. Interior burglary is, if anything, more costly to the occupant, which would work against finding a smaller interior discount.

Housing transactions. The housing data are the universe of Chicago Multiple Listing Service (MLS) closed transactions in single-family, condominium, and residential-income properties. I keep transactions closing between 2007 and 2025 with a recorded close price between $10,000 and $10,000,000, and parcels whose recorded parcel count is the same at every sale, which excludes properties that were split or consolidated between sales. The resulting sample is 530,395 sales on 337,461 parcels, of which 136,866 parcels sell at least twice (329,800 sales) and so identify the within-property comparison. Single-family homes make up 88 percent of these repeat sales, two-to-four-unit buildings 11 percent, and condominiums 1 percent. Table OA1 reports the construction. Each record carries the property identifier, close date, and close price and the full listing history: original and revised list prices, days on market, and whether the listing ended in sale or withdrawal. The sale-price sample consists of closed transactions; the withdrawal analysis instead uses all MLS listings, whether or not they ended in a sale. That history lets me trace how crime affects asking prices, price revisions, time on market, and eventual transaction outcomes.

Lease listings. The rental analysis uses MLS lease listings subject to the same property-type, location, and parcel-count filters as the sale sample: single-family, condominium, and residential-income units in Chicago, on parcels with a constant parcel count, listed between 2007 and 2025 with monthly asking rents of $500 to $10,000. These restrictions yield 191,155 lease listings. Only 0.1 percent record a closing rent, so the rental price outcome is the asking rent, with crime exposure measured relative to the list date. The design otherwise mirrors the sale analysis, including days on market and withdrawal. Applying the same near–far comparison to leases allows me to estimate how nearby crime affects asking rents.

Property and listing characteristics. Table A1 summarizes both samples. The median sale property has three bedrooms and two bathrooms and closes at $279,000; the median lease is a smaller, two-bedroom unit with a monthly asking rent of $1,950. Physical characteristics (living area, bedrooms, bathrooms, and year built) come from standardized listing fields and are available for the large majority of transactions. Two-thirds of sale listings record at least one asking-price reduction before sale.

Crime incidents. Incident-level crime data come from the Chicago Police Department's public "Crimes, 2001 to present" file. Over 2007–2025, 5,657,404 offenses were reported citywide, of which 98.8 percent carry coordinates for the location of the incident; coverage varies by offense, from 78.8 percent for embezzlement to above 99 percent for most offenses (Table 1). Figure OF1 maps their density across the city. Incident locations are released at block-face resolution: the published point is shifted from the actual location for partial redaction but falls on the same block, so distance between a parcel and an incident is measured with error of up to a block face. For homicide the file records one row per victim rather than per incident, so homicide counts, and the per-incident

homicide estimates below, are per victim record.[6]

I estimate separate effects for 27 of the 29 offense groups, omitting human trafficking and nonforcible sex offenses (222 incidents combined) as too sparse.[7] Of these 27, I report 22 in the main analysis. I set aside the residual "all other offenses" category, which names no specific offense, and four offenses, kidnapping, embezzlement, extortion, and child pornography, whose estimates are too imprecise to be informative.[8] The twenty-two reported offenses appear at every window in Appendix Table A4. Assault combines the department's assault codes (threats without physical contact) and battery codes (physical contact), and is split into domestic and non-domestic incidents using the department's domestic flag.

For each listing I count incidents of each offense type within concentric rings of the parcel centroid over pre-transaction windows of one to twelve months, matching incidents to properties by distance,[9] and time the counts to the listing's close date (to its list date on the lease side). Table 1 reports, for each offense, its citywide count, geocoding rate, and near exposure, together with the raw cross-sectional price gap between listings with and without a nearby incident. These raw gaps are large, exceeding 40 percent for homicide and narcotics, and reflect differences between blocks with and without nearby crime rather than the effect of crime itself. Listings with an incident within 0.05 miles in the three or six months before sale are also cheaper, smaller, and slower to sell (Table OA2).

Neighborhood conditions. To guard against the discount proxying for physical decline or disinvestment rather than crime, I assemble five predetermined measures of neighborhood condition at the parcel: tree canopy, active business licenses, 311 service requests, vacant buildings, and building permits.[10] Each enters with the same near-ring and far-ring structure as crime, differenced within

[6]To protect victim privacy, the Chicago Police Department releases each incident's address "at the block level only" and does not identify the specific location (City of Chicago Data Portal, *Crimes – 2001 to Present*); the recorded point is placed on the correct block, so it can differ from the true location by up to a block face. Chicago blocks are about 330 feet east–west and 660 feet north–south, against a near-ring radius of about 264 feet, so the shift can move an incident into or out of the near ring; it adds measurement error to the near count, which is expected to attenuate δ toward zero.

[7]The pornography/obscene-material group is predominantly child pornography rather than adult material: about two-thirds of the Chicago Police incidents so classified are child pornography (IUCR 1582) or related offenses involving children, and roughly one-quarter is adult obscene material (obscene telephone calls are classified separately, under all other offenses). I therefore label this group "child pornography/obscenity" throughout. It is sparse, returns nulls in every market, and its estimates appear only in the appendix.

[8]Their standard errors run from roughly 0.6 to 1.3 percentage points, too wide to rule out either a null or a large discount.

[9]The match uses a ball-tree spatial join. Distances are great-circle (haversine) distances between each incident's coordinates and the parcel's latitude–longitude centroid (the Cook County Assessor coordinate). A ball-tree is a spatial index that sorts the geocoded incidents by great-circle distance so that all incidents within a given radius of a parcel can be retrieved efficiently; the resulting ring counts are exact, identical to computing every parcel–incident distance directly.

[10]Tree canopy is percent canopy cover from the U.S. Geological Survey National Land Cover Database (NLCD) Tree Canopy Cover product (30 m resolution). Near and far canopy are averages over the 30 m cells within the 0–0.05 mile disk and the 0.20–0.30 mile ring. Because the canopy data are annual and the twelve-month crime window can extend into the previous calendar year, I use the raster from two calendar years before the sale, the latest year that ends before the crime window begins. Business licenses, 311 service requests, and building permits are geocoded records from the City of Chicago Data Portal (`https://data.cityofchicago.org`). Before the City's unified 311

Table 1: Crime Incidence and Near Exposure

Offense	Incidents (city)	Geocoded (%)	Mean near count	% any near	Raw price gap (%)
Theft	1,364,912	97.8	5.56	83.2	13.7
Assault (non-domestic)	739,961	99.7	1.92	56.3	-20.9
Assault (domestic)	670,887	99.7	1.71	55.5	-35.6
Criminal damage/vandalism	632,166	99.6	1.88	67.1	-18.2
Narcotics	439,526	97.9	0.83	25.3	-45.5
Other offenses	360,851	99.0	1.09	49.5	-24.1
Burglary	296,724	99.6	0.97	47.1	-15.5
Motor vehicle theft	292,290	99.6	0.87	46.5	-9.9
Robbery	213,364	99.8	0.55	32.3	-12.2
Trespass	138,862	99.7	0.41	23.8	-1.3
Fraud	136,957	97.5	0.71	33.4	18.0
Weapons	114,818	99.6	0.23	14.4	-36.1
Sex offenses	63,549	89.2	0.18	14.6	-9.8
Disorderly conduct	39,056	99.7	0.09	7.4	-24.2
Forgery	32,711	97.1	0.11	8.9	15.9
Prostitution	31,173	99.6	0.07	2.2	-14.9
Family (nonviolent)	29,131	99.0	0.07	5.9	-35.2
Homicide	10,766	100.0	0.02	2.0	-42.9
Arson	9,488	99.7	0.02	2.1	-35.8
Bad checks	9,424	97.3	0.03	3.0	12.8
Gambling	8,105	99.4	0.02	1.2	-72.6
Liquor violations	7,941	99.5	0.03	2.2	2.5
Kidnapping	5,921	99.5	0.01	1.4	-34.0
Extortion	3,281	98.7	0.01	1.1	4.4
Child pornography/obscenity	2,677	89.8	0.01	0.6	-4.3
Stolen property	1,586	98.6	0.00	0.4	1.3
Embezzlement	1,055	78.8	0.00	0.4	45.4

Notes: Offense groups ordered by citywide incident count (Chicago Police Department, 2007–2025). Near exposure: 0–0.05 miles, twelve months before sale (N = 530,395). Raw gap: cross-sectional log-price difference (percent) between listings with and without a near incident; descriptive only.

parcel and tract×month, but as a cumulative stock of events recorded more than twelve months before the close, that is, before every crime-exposure window used, so it is predetermined relative to the crime and cannot be an outcome of it. Permits, licenses, 311 requests, and vacant buildings are time-varying, counted as of that pre-crime cutoff for each listing; tree canopy is read from the land-cover raster two years before the sale. Foreclosures lower nearby prices and raise nearby crime (Campbell et al., 2011; Ellen et al., 2013; Anenberg and Kung, 2014), so I control for the predetermined vacancy stock near and far.

4 Empirical Strategy

4.1 Design and Identification

The design is a spatial difference-in-differences with two-way fixed effects and continuous treatment. Crime exposure within a narrow ring around the property constitutes the near treatment, while exposure in a far ring around the same property provides the spatial comparison. Identification combines three comparisons: within parcel across transactions, within tract and month, and near relative to farther crime exposure (Figure 1). Parcel fixed effects absorb permanent differences across properties, and tract-by-month fixed effects absorb contemporaneous shocks shared by the surrounding neighborhood. This division of variation is borne out in the data: only 14 percent of far-ring crime exposure varies within tract-months, so the far ring is almost entirely a neighborhood-level quantity that the fixed effects absorb nearly in full, whereas a majority of near-ring exposure survives within tract-months (Section 3). The near-relative-to-far contrast is therefore identified from within-neighborhood differences in exposure. The parameter of interest is the differential price response,

$$\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}.$$

The estimate δ_k corresponds to $-\kappa_k$ in Equation (3) under the linear approximation and the far-ring restriction: it is a regression-weighted average of the per-incident effect across counts.

For property i transacting at date t, let Near_{it} be the count of incidents of a given offense in the near ring, within 0.05 miles of the parcel, in the m months before the sale, and Far_{it} the count in the far ring, 0.20–0.30 miles, over the same window, the same comparison ring as Tang and Le (2023); Appendix Table A2 reports alternative far rings. Stale counts SNear_{it} and SFar_{it}, near- and far-ring incidents in the part of a twelve-month lookback that falls *beyond* the m-month window, and therefore non-overlapping with Near_{it} and Far_{it}, absorb slower-moving local conditions; they are empty when $m = 12$. The window length m is not fixed a priori; I estimate across $m = 1, \ldots, 12$ months and examine the choice in Section 4.2. I report estimates for all twelve exposure windows

system launched in December 2018, the portal releases requests in category-specific historical files; the 311 control combines those files for 2011–2018 (graffiti removal, sanitation code complaints, vacant and abandoned buildings, and abandoned vehicles) with requests of all types from the unified system for 2019–2024, so its composition changes in 2019. Vacant and abandoned buildings are "Vacant and Abandoned Buildings Reported" records from the same portal; because such complaints also enter the City's unified 311 stream from 2019 onward, this measure partly overlaps the total-311 control over the recent period.

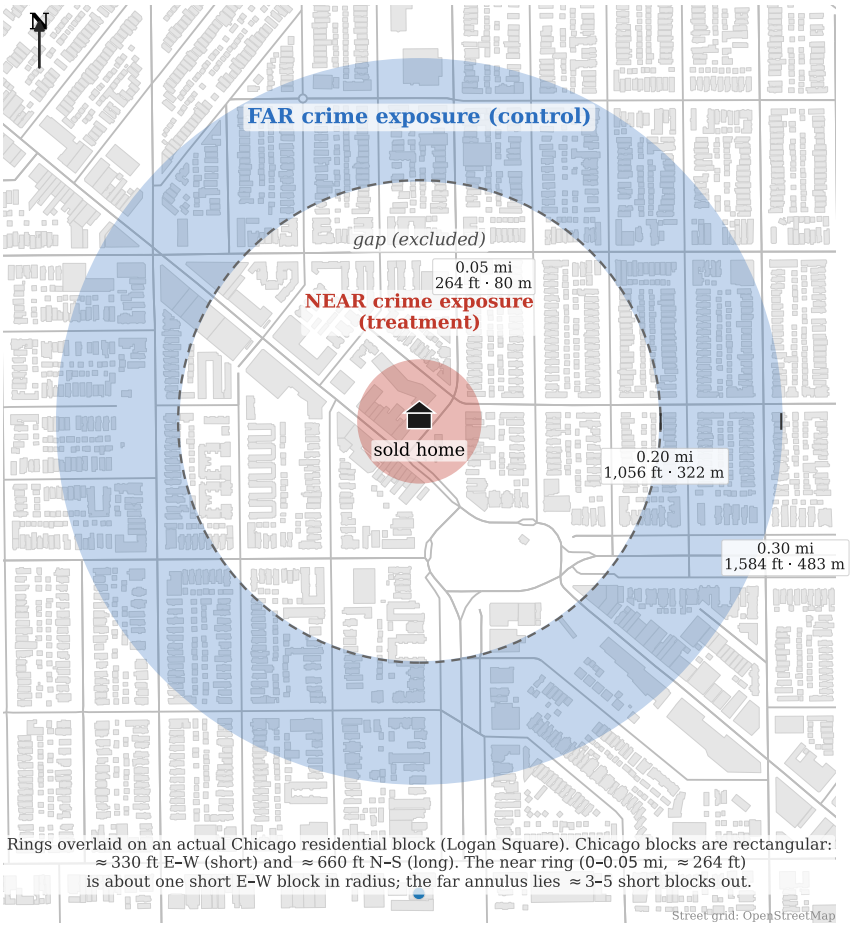


Figure 1: The near–far design. Crime within the near ring (0–0.05 miles, about 260 feet, roughly one short east–west Chicago block) is the treatment; crime in the far ring (0.20–0.30 miles, about three to five short blocks out) is the spatial comparison, separated from the near ring by a gap so the two rings are non-adjacent. The near–far difference $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$ differences out conditions common to the surrounding neighborhood. Near ring in red, far ring in blue; incidents in the gap and beyond the far ring (grey) are excluded.

to show how the results vary with the period over which nearby crime is measured. The estimating equation is

$$\ln P_{it} = \beta_{\text{near}}\text{Near}_{it} + \beta_{\text{far}}\text{Far}_{it} + \gamma_n\text{SNear}_{it} + \gamma_f\text{SFar}_{it} + \mu_i + \lambda_{c(i)t} + \varepsilon_{it}, \tag{5}$$

where μ_i is a parcel fixed effect and $\lambda_{c(i)t}$ a tract×month fixed effect.

Identification requires that, after accounting for parcel and tract-by-month fixed effects and the included controls, the difference in crime exposure between the near ring and the far ring is unrelated to other factors that affect the sale price. This does not require near and far rings to be alike in levels, or unconditional parallel trends across high- and low-crime properties. Parcel fixed effects absorb time-invariant property differences, and tract-by-month fixed effects absorb shocks shared within a tract and month. What remains is block-level variation across a property's own transactions. Formally, let $\mathbf{X}_{it} = (\text{Near}_{it}, \text{Far}_{it})'$. Identification requires

$$E\left[\widetilde{\mathbf{X}}_{it}\,\widetilde{\varepsilon}_{it}\right] = \mathbf{0}, \tag{6}$$

where tildes denote residualization with respect to the fixed effects and controls in Equation (5). Under this condition β_{near} and β_{far} are identified, and so is $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$.

Two threats to this assumption, and the interpretation of δ, are addressed directly.

1. *No shocks correlated with the near–far difference.* The concern is an event that raises crime on the block relative to the far ring and lowers the price for a reason of its own, such as a building abandoned next door. A shock shared by the block and the far ring is differenced out; one confined to the block is not. Such an event is a confounder: it moves both the near–far crime difference and the price, so the estimate would attribute its price effect to crime. Five predetermined neighborhood measures (building permits, vacant buildings, business licenses, tree canopy, and 311 service requests), each entered as its own near–far difference and dated before the crime window, proxy for the block-specific events that can be observed (Section 6, Appendix Table A18).

2. *No reverse causality or mean reversion.* Crime exposure is measured before the sale, so the price cannot mechanically produce it. But a property that sells at a temporarily depressed price may sit on a block where crime was already rising, so the estimate would pick up the block's trajectory rather than the incident. Crime that occurs after the closing cannot affect a price already set, so a significant post-sale placebo would indicate this kind of confounding; a null is consistent with the assumption without establishing it. Every estimate has a mirror placebo that substitutes post-sale for pre-sale crime.

The interpretation requires that the far ring is beyond the effect's reach. δ compares marginal responses to near and far exposure and equals the near-ring effect only under the far-ring restriction, that crime a fifth to three tenths of a mile out has no price effect of its own. Crime at that distance

is the benchmark for what would have happened on the block anyway; if an incident there still moved the price, the contrast would recover a relative effect rather than the full near-ring effect. The spatial decay results are consistent with the restriction: the discount is gone by the adjacent block.

The design does not assume that crime is randomly distributed across the city, across neighborhoods, or over time; only that the residual near–far variation is unrelated to unobserved price shocks. Section 6 reports each check.

The parcel fixed effect restricts identification to the 136,866 parcels that transact more than once (329,800 sales). The tract-by-month fixed effect then drops any transaction that is the only sale in its cell, together with the singletons this creates, leaving the 242,815 transactions that identify the two-way model and form the sample in the results tables (Table OA1).

Enforcement intensity affects recorded crime directly (Levitt, 1998) and can bias the estimate in either direction. Where enforcement deters crime and improves the block, detection may still raise recorded counts, so a block that is getting safer shows more incidents and the discount is attenuated. Where enforcement is aimed at blocks that are already deteriorating, recorded counts rise alongside falling prices and the discount is inflated. Tract-by-month fixed effects absorb enforcement changes shared within each tract and month.[11] Uneven deployment within tracts, including enforcement targeted at particular addresses, remains a concern. This matters for offenses recorded through enforcement rather than victim complaint, which here means narcotics, prostitution, gambling, and liquor violations, and I describe those measures as enforcement-recorded offenses rather than as a census of crime.

4.2 Choice of Spatial Bands and Exposure Windows

The rings and windows in (5) are chosen from the data rather than imposed. I estimate the price effect as a smooth function of distance and time since incident by a tensor-product spline[12] (Wood, 2017; Korolev, 2026). The distance profile is significantly negative within 0.05 miles and returns to zero by the adjacent-block ring, so the near ring sits in the steep part of the profile and the far ring beyond its reach (Figure 2; Online Appendix J). Because administrative units are not the area over which a household experiences crime, aggregating to them would make coefficients shift with the unit chosen, the modifiable areal unit problem (MAUP), so I report estimates across nine near–far ring definitions (Appendix Table A2) and all one-to-twelve-month windows. Tables that report a single number per offense use the main window of the range over which that offense's

[11] A Chicago police beat averages about 0.8 square miles and spans roughly three census tracts; the 791 tracts in the estimation area average about 0.29 square miles. Beats nest within sectors and sectors within the city's roughly two dozen districts. Beat and tract boundaries cross rather than nest, so beat-level deployment is absorbed only in part.

[12] A tensor-product spline models a function of two variables as a weighted sum of products of one-dimensional basis functions, here a basis in distance from the parcel and a basis in months since the incident. Each product term lets the profile in one dimension vary with the other, so the distance profile can differ across lags without imposing a parametric form. The basis sizes are $c(6, 12)$, six in distance and twelve in lag, and the smoothness penalty is chosen by restricted maximum likelihood (Wood, 2017).

discount is significant at five percent (pooled sample, baseline 0–0.05 versus 0.20–0.30 mile ring), taking the lower of the two main windows when that range has even length, and offenses with no significant window are shown at the median window, six months. Summary tables use the main window among those with significant discounts; Table 2 reports estimates across all twelve windows. Significant-window counts are descriptive; the windows are nested, not independent.

Section 6 reports four robustness checks. A post-transaction placebo addresses reverse causality and mean reversion; predetermined near–far measures of neighborhood conditions address hyperlocal confounding; a full-universe model of sale propensity and a complementary selection correction assess endogenous transaction selection; and a mass-point diagnostic following Caetano (2015) and Caetano et al. (2021) addresses selection into zero crime exposure. The full set of diagnostics is reported in the robustness section. The comparisons that follow use incident location and recurrence to distinguish among the mechanisms in the conceptual framework.

The parameter of interest is the effect of a recent incident on the property's block, relative to the surrounding neighborhood in the same month. The spatial scale is not imposed: the distance profile in Figure 2, estimated without rings, locates the response within 0.05 miles, and the rings follow it. The estimates do not capture the long-run co-movement of crime and prices across neighborhoods.

5 Results

5.1 Sale Prices

Appendix Table A4 reports estimates for every offense at all twelve windows.

Table 2 reports sale-price estimates for all twenty-two offenses. Across the twelve windows, the estimates fall into four broad groups: *priced*, *suggestive*, *precise nulls*, and *inconclusive*. Table 2 is ordered accordingly, with classification criteria reported in the table notes.

Homicide, burglary, narcotics, and vandalism are priced. Disorderly conduct and sex offenses are suggestive. Twelve offenses are precise nulls: their intervals rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows, and for larceny, motor vehicle theft, and non-domestic assault they also rule out a discount as large as burglary's (0.24 percent per incident); the estimates for bad checks and family offenses are positive. Tables OA7 and OA8 split assault and the other offenses by domestic status. Weapons, arson, gambling, and stolen property are inconclusive.

The homicide discount of about 3 percent per incident is similar in magnitude to estimates from other studies of individual murders (Table A20). Klimova and Lee (2014) find a 3.9 percent decline in sale prices within 0.2 miles of a murder in Sydney during the following year, while Gautier et al. (2009) find a decline of about 3 percent in asking prices in Amsterdam neighborhoods with large Muslim populations following the van Gogh murder. Discounts are substantially larger for the property where a murder occurs: in Hong Kong, such units sell for roughly a third less, with discounts of about 19 percent for other units on the same floor and 10 percent for units elsewhere in the building, and no statistically significant recovery over time (Bhattacharya et al., 2021). At the neighborhood level, Ihlanfeldt and Mayock (2010) find no detectable effect of murder on house

prices, while effects of aggravated assault and robbery emerge with a lag of two to four years. The contrast is consistent with the scale of measurement: incidents near a home reach prices within the year, while neighborhood-level crime rates capture slower changes in an area's reputation. Fraud, forgery, and bad checks impose direct monetary losses, yet none carries a detectable discount in the pooled estimates (Table OA3); embezzlement has too few incidents to estimate. Bad checks instead carry a positive and significant estimate (0.66, s.e. 0.33), positive at five percent in ten of twelve windows (Appendix Table A4). Splitting each offense's incidents by recorded location (residential, street, and commercial) leaves the picture unchanged (Table A7). Bad checks have no detectable effect in any location category, and forgery's only significant estimate is positive and occurs at commercial addresses. Fraud is associated with a residential discount of 0.40 percent (s.e. 0.15) that survives the post-sale placebo. This estimate is one of sixty-six location-specific comparisons, does not survive a Bonferroni correction, and appears only at the longest exposure windows, so I treat it as suggestive.

Replacing the near count in the baseline specification with indicators for one, two, three, and four or more incidents shows where the discount comes from. A single incident does not significantly lower the price at any window for any priced offense. Four or more burglaries lower it by 1.85 percent (s.e. 0.76) at the main window, significant in 8 of 12 windows, and four or more vandalism incidents by 1.05 percent (s.e. 0.52), significant in 3 of 12. For narcotics the four-or-more estimate is significant at one window and for homicide at none, where the cell holds only 14 listings, against 6,577 for narcotics (Table OA5).

Spatial decay. For burglary and narcotics, the estimated discount falls sharply beyond the near ring. Setting the near ring to each successive ring while holding the far ring at 0.20–0.30 miles, the near-ring discount largely collapses by the 0.05–0.10 ring and stays near zero through 0.15–0.20, the ring just inside the far control, with the rate of decay varying by offense across the intervening rings (Appendix Table A2). Two offenses show discounts beyond the near ring. Burglary's discount remains significant when the near ring is widened to 0–0.10 miles (-0.14, s.e. 0.07; significant in 5 of 12 windows, with no significant post-sale placebo), but the 0.05–0.10 ring alone is not significant, so the wider-ring estimate reflects the near-ring effect averaged over a larger area. Homicide is significant in the 0.10–0.15 mile ring in 7 of 12 windows (months three to nine; -1.16, s.e. 0.64, at its ten-month main window), with no significant post-sale placebo, but not in the 0.05–0.10 ring, so its effect extends a few blocks without a smooth decline in distance. Crime at 0.20–0.30 carries no price effect of its own, so the far ring is untreated. Because $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$, the far-ring effect enters the design as a normalization, and any residual far-ring discount would make the estimate understate rather than overstate the near-ring effect.

Spline estimates. A tensor-product spline in distance and lag, estimated as a fixed-effects signal regression following Korolev (2026), traces the same decay (Figure 2): for the dense offenses, burglary and narcotics, the effect is significantly negative within 0.05 miles and gone by the adjacent-block ring; vandalism is a precise near-zero, consistent with its small per-incident discount (Table 2);

Table 2: Sale Prices

Offense	Identifying parcels	Sig. discount windows	Min δ (s.e.) [mo]	Max δ (s.e.) [mo]	Main-window δ (s.e.) [mo]
Priced					
Homicide	5,701	2/12	-5.86^{*} (3.35) [1]	-1.24 (1.43) [8]	-3.02^{**} (1.38) [10]
Narcotics	53,844	5/12	-0.93 (0.75) [1]	-0.18 (0.19) [6]	-0.29^{**} (0.14) [10]
Burglary	88,094	6/12	-0.34^{**} (0.14) [6]	-0.18^{*} (0.09) [12]	-0.24^{**} (0.12) [8]
Vandalism	104,661	2/12	-0.17^{**} (0.08) [6]	0.26 (0.22) [1]	-0.17^{**} (0.08) [6]
Suggestive					
Disorderly conduct	19,550	1/12	-1.33^{*} (0.78) [2]	-0.46 (0.54) [4]	-0.65^{**} (0.29) [12]
Sex offenses	36,393	1/12	-0.47^{**} (0.23) [12]	0.11 (0.35) [3]	-0.47^{**} (0.23) [12]
Precise nulls					
Larceny/theft	115,548	0/12	0.01 (0.02) [12]	0.08^{***} (0.03) [1]	0.01 (0.02) [12]
Motor vehicle theft	85,781	0/12	-0.02 (0.09) [12]	0.51^{*} (0.30) [1]	-0.02 (0.09) [12]
Assault (non-dom.)	91,783	0/12	-0.05 (0.06) [7]	0.01 (0.11) [3]	-0.04 (0.04) [12]
Bad checks	8,919	0/12	0.66^{*} (0.35) [11]	2.20^{**} (1.03) [1]	0.66^{**} (0.33) [12]
Family (non-violent)	15,928	0/12	1.00^{*} (0.51) [12]	2.16^{***} (0.82) [5]	1.00^{*} (0.51) [12]
Fraud	67,030	0/12	-0.36 (0.23) [1]	-0.04 (0.09) [6]	-0.11 (0.08) [12]
Assault (domestic)	90,500	0/12	-0.19^{*} (0.10) [12]	0.02 (0.15) [5]	-0.19^{*} (0.10) [12]
Trespass	54,025	0/12	-0.15 (0.14) [6]	0.18 (0.22) [3]	-0.14 (0.10) [12]
Robbery	65,876	0/12	-0.06 (0.14) [9]	0.30 (0.42) [1]	-0.03 (0.13) [12]
Forgery	23,614	0/12	-0.07 (0.59) [1]	0.47 (0.45) [2]	0.21 (0.17) [12]
Liquor law	6,393	0/12	0.08 (1.20) [1]	1.34 (0.91) [2]	0.36 (0.35) [12]
Prostitution	6,326	0/12	-1.00 (0.82) [1]	0.08 (0.12) [12]	0.08 (0.12) [12]
Inconclusive					
Weapons	32,294	0/12	-0.62 (0.47) [5]	0.11 (0.58) [3]	0.10 (0.28) [12]
Arson	6,116	0/12	-0.20 (1.06) [11]	1.27 (3.58) [1]	0.07 (1.03) [12]
Gambling	3,125	0/12	-4.77 (4.33) [3]	1.99 (8.32) [1]	-1.94 (1.75) [12]
Stolen property	1,262	0/12	-2.23 (2.63) [2]	0.81 (1.20) [8]	-0.43 (1.05) [12]

Notes. $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$: percent change in sale price per incident within 0–0.05 miles, relative to 0.20–0.30 miles. Parcel and tract × year-month fixed effects; standard errors clustered by tract; N = 242,815 repeat sales, 2007–2025. Estimated at each cumulative window, one to twelve months. Sig. windows: negative and significant at 5%. Main-window δ: estimate at the offense's main window; Min and Max: most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows (standard error; window in brackets). Identifying parcels: exposure varies within parcel, counted at the twelve-month window. Priced: a significant discount at two or more windows, with adjacent windows agreeing in sign. Suggestive: a significant discount at only one window, marginally significant at adjacent windows. Precise nulls: no window shows a significant discount, and the 95 percent intervals rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; for larceny, motor vehicle theft, non-domestic assault, bad checks, and family offenses they also rule out a discount as large as burglary's (0.24 percent), for the last two because their estimates are positive. Inconclusive: no window shows a significant discount, but the intervals cannot rule out a one-percent discount in most windows. Kidnapping, embezzlement, extortion, child pornography, and other offenses have too few incidents to estimate.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

and homicide's profile is imprecise: its band is an order of magnitude wider and includes zero within 0.05 miles, since homicide is too sparse to support a stable two-dimensional surface (Online Appendix J). In the lag direction, the near-ring effect is significantly negative over months 2.5–5.5 for burglary and 2.5–4.5 for vandalism and declines only slowly for narcotics.

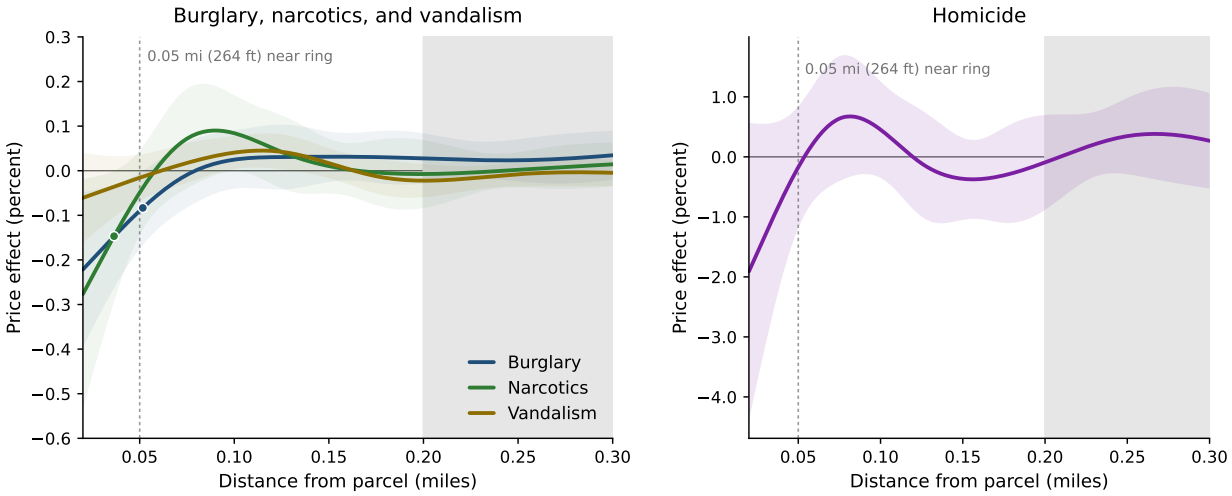


Figure 2: Price response by distance from the parcel. Distance profiles from a tensor-product spline in distance and lag, estimated as a fixed-effects signal regression in `mgcv` following Korolev (2026), fit on 0–0.30 miles and centered on their mean, averaged over the one-to-twelve-month windows; MLS close-date sample, 2007–2025, with 95 percent cluster-robust bands. *Left*: burglary, narcotics, and vandalism. *Right*: homicide, whose band is wider because incidents are rare and includes zero within 0.05 miles. The dotted line marks the 0.05-mile near-ring edge; the shaded band is the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring. The profile locates where the response is negative and where it is flat; its level is not the near–far discount in Table 2. Estimation details in Online Appendix J.

Time horizon of the effects. Estimated jointly, exposure two to six months before the sale and exposure eight to eleven months before carry different weights across offenses. The vandalism discount is concentrated in the recent block and absent from the late one, and the difference is significant ($p = 0.008$); the narcotics discount is concentrated in the late block, with the difference significant at ten percent ($p = 0.09$); for homicide and burglary the point estimates are larger in the late and early block respectively, but the two blocks are not statistically distinguishable ($p = 0.12$ and 0.20; Figure A2).

5.2 Mechanisms

Sixteen of twenty-two offenses carry no detectable discount, and two more (disorderly conduct and sex offenses) are significant only at a single long-horizon window.

Location of the incident Prediction 1 says that, holding the offense fixed, incidents more likely to be observed carry larger discounts. I split incidents of the same offense in two ways: (1) by the type of place where they were recorded (a residential address, the street, or a commercial premises), and (2) among incidents at residential addresses, by whether they occurred inside the dwelling or

at its frontage (the garage, porch, yard, driveway, or entryway).[13]

The homicide and narcotics discounts are significant for incidents on the street (in 4 and 5 of 12 windows) but not for incidents at residential addresses, although the two estimates cannot be statistically distinguished; the vandalism discount is concentrated at residential addresses (8 of 12 windows) and differs significantly from street vandalism in 7 of 12 (Tables A5 and A6).[14] At its main six-month window, residential vandalism is associated with a 0.56 percent lower sale price per incident (significant at one percent), compared with an estimate of −0.01 percent for street vandalism.

The interior–frontage split holds the offense and the address fixed and varies only what is visible from the street.[15] Frontage also includes the porch/hallway and common-area codes, which make up 39 percent of frontage-coded incidents across all offenses (Table OA12). For burglary (Table 3), frontage incidents carry a discount (−0.74, s.e. 0.33), significant in 7 of 12 windows, while interior incidents have no detectable effect (−0.14, s.e. 0.16) at any window. The gap widens with the exposure window and is significant at twelve months ($p = 0.030$; $p = 0.109$ at the main window). The frontage estimate rests on about 45,000 incidents, and its post-sale placebo is null (−0.20, $p = 0.45$). Narcotics, also visible from the street, shows the same pattern: frontage incidents are associated with a discount in 7 of 12 windows and interior incidents in none, the two differ significantly in 6 of 12 windows, and the frontage placebo is significant in none (Table 3). For vandalism, whose channel is damage to the dwelling itself, the discount comes instead from interior incidents (−0.73, s.e. 0.25), significant in 9 of 12 windows, compared with frontage incidents (−0.14, s.e. 0.33; Table 3).[16] As a check that the split does not mechanically produce a difference, larceny shows no discount at either location, and the two estimates do not differ ($p = 0.686$; Table OA13).

Target of the incident Among the priced offenses, only vandalism has detailed police offense codes that record what was targeted, damage to the property and damage to a vehicle; homicide targets a person, and the detailed police offense codes for burglary and narcotics record the method of entry or the drug, not the target. Among frontage vandalism, damage to the house is significant in 6 of 12 windows (−0.49, s.e. 0.47, at the main window) while damage to a car is significant in none (0.21, s.e. 0.45), and the two differ at ten percent (at ten and twelve months, $p = 0.078$ and

[13] Interior incidents are those whose recorded location is a residence, apartment, Chicago Housing Authority apartment, house, coach house, rooming house, or trailer; frontage incidents are those recorded at a residential garage, porch, yard, driveway, or entryway, or in a hallway or common area (Table OA12). The residence and apartment codes record that an incident occurred at the dwelling without a more specific exterior location, so the interior category may include some incidents outside the living space.

[14] The pooled residential burglary estimate has a comparable post-sale placebo estimate (Table 3 note), so the frontage–interior split, whose placebos are clean, provides the relevant test for burglary.

[15] Bhattacharya et al. (2021) similarly find that deaths of residents occurring outside the home carry no discount, while deaths inside the unit do. Their comparison varies whether the event is attached to the property; mine varies whether an incident near the property is observable from the street.

[16] CPD masks each incident to the hundred-block, so an interior record cannot be separated between the sold parcel and a neighbor's. For burglary this matters little, since the loss is the stolen contents and any entry damage is minor; for vandalism an interior record is damage to the property itself, which lowers its value as repair cost rather than through information. For vandalism, the location split therefore separates damage to the dwelling from damage outside it rather than visible from hidden incidents.

Table 3: Two Within-Offense Tests: Observability and Relevance

	Exposure window (months before sale)											
	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Panel A. Observability: residential incidents, frontage versus interior												
Burglary												
Frontage (visible)	−0.37	−0.45	−0.54	−0.68	−0.54	−0.74**	−0.76**	−0.74**	−0.62**	−0.70**	−0.71***	−0.73***
	(0.77)	(0.59)	(0.49)	(0.46)	(0.41)	(0.36)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.29)	(0.27)	(0.25)	(0.24)
Interior (hidden)	−0.17	−0.27	−0.12	−0.11	−0.20	−0.30	−0.22	−0.14	−0.18	−0.19	−0.20	−0.13
	(0.47)	(0.30)	(0.26)	(0.22)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.16)	(0.15)	(0.13)	(0.13)	(0.13)
Frontage = interior (p)	0.824	0.796	0.457	0.258	0.462	0.299	0.183	0.109	0.182	0.098	0.081	0.030
Narcotics												
Frontage (visible)	−7.45	−3.68	−7.08**	−3.94	−4.63**	−4.63**	−3.17*	−3.54**	−2.59*	−2.92**	−2.86**	−2.35**
	(6.31)	(3.57)	(2.97)	(2.69)	(2.07)	(1.93)	(1.83)	(1.70)	(1.52)	(1.29)	(1.12)	(1.01)
Interior (hidden)	−1.20	−0.44	0.42	0.72	0.39	0.92	0.76	0.73	0.31	0.37	0.27	−0.28
	(2.74)	(1.94)	(1.41)	(1.20)	(1.06)	(1.00)	(0.88)	(0.80)	(0.78)	(0.75)	(0.74)	(0.72)
Frontage = interior (p)	0.344	0.424	0.023	0.118	0.035	0.014	0.063	0.025	0.087	0.029	0.025	0.111
Vandalism												
Frontage (visible)	0.76	1.02*	0.70*	0.32	0.15	−0.14	−0.45	−0.54*	−0.54*	−0.60**	−0.54**	−0.48**
	(0.74)	(0.55)	(0.42)	(0.37)	(0.33)	(0.33)	(0.30)	(0.30)	(0.29)	(0.28)	(0.26)	(0.24)
Interior (hidden)	−0.34	−0.70	−0.79*	−0.66**	−0.70**	−0.73***	−0.67***	−0.62***	−0.50**	−0.45**	−0.38**	−0.44**
	(0.67)	(0.51)	(0.40)	(0.31)	(0.28)	(0.25)	(0.23)	(0.23)	(0.22)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)
Frontage = interior (p)	0.246	0.024	0.010	0.047	0.056	0.170	0.557	0.847	0.892	0.671	0.626	0.883
Panel B. Relevance: vandalism, frontage incidents, by target												
Damage to property	0.85	1.06	0.80	0.22	0.03	−0.49	−0.89**	−0.95**	−0.91**	−1.03***	−0.92**	−0.89***
	(1.12)	(0.83)	(0.63)	(0.58)	(0.51)	(0.47)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.39)	(0.36)	(0.34)
Damage to vehicle	0.70	0.89	0.50	0.33	0.20	0.21	0.05	−0.07	−0.13	−0.08	−0.09	0.02
	(0.93)	(0.67)	(0.56)	(0.53)	(0.48)	(0.45)	(0.42)	(0.40)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.37)	(0.34)
Property = vehicle (p)	0.916	0.874	0.724	0.896	0.818	0.298	0.143	0.142	0.168	0.078	0.102	0.057

Notes. δ as in Table 2, at each window; standard errors below. Panel A splits residential burglary, narcotics, and vandalism incidents into frontage (garage, porch, yard, driveway, entryway, porch/hallway and common areas; Table OA12) and interior incidents. Panel B splits frontage vandalism by target. Last row of each panel: Wald p for equal effects. Post-sale placebos for the frontage components are significant in no window for any of the three offenses, and for the interior components in at most one window, except narcotics interior (six windows), which carries no discount; the pooled residential burglary coefficient, by contrast, is matched window-for-window by post-sale crime (Online Appendix C); both fixed-effect designs in Online Appendix D.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

0.057); both post-sale placebos are null (Online Appendix D).[17]

Risk of future crime Prediction 2 asks whether discounts track what an incident reveals about future crime at the property. In the framework this is the updating term $b_k(S_k)$ in $\kappa_k = w_k \times S_k \times b_k(S_k)$, the change in expected future incidents at the property once the buyer learns of an incident (Section 2). The tests below measure the objective risk that the crime data forecast, not buyers' subjective beliefs, which are unobserved; a mismatch therefore shows that prices do not track forecastable risk, not that buyers fail to update. I measure this in two ways and compare each with the discounts: (1) how well crime a few blocks away forecasts future crime within 0.05 miles, and (2) how strongly crime within 0.05 miles predicts its own recurrence at the same parcel.

First, crime a few blocks away forecasts crime within 0.05 miles: in a forecasting regression without fixed effects, past crime in the far ring (0.20–0.30 miles) significantly forecasts future crime in the near ring (0–0.05 miles), at five percent, for twenty-one of the twenty-two offenses at the six-month horizon (all but stolen property) and for all twenty-two at twelve months, priced or not. The forecasting power is modest: once the near ring's own past crime is controlled for, the far ring adds little (partial R^2 at most 0.09 for any offense at either horizon). The far ring thus predicts crime within 0.05 miles but is not itself priced: for the four priced offenses, near-ring crime carries a discount while far-ring crime carries none (Section 5.1). Yet how well an offense is forecast does not line up with its discount. Fraud, weapons, domestic assault, and motor vehicle theft are forecast at least as well as burglary and vandalism but carry no discount, while homicide, which carries the largest discount, is among the least forecastable (Table A11).

Second, I compute recurrence ρ by regressing future near-ring crime (after the sale) on past near-ring crime (before the sale) over windows of the same length, with parcel and tract $\times$ month fixed effects, over the same window as δ (Table A10). If discounts tracked recurrence, offenses with higher ρ would carry larger discounts. They do not. Narcotics is the most self-predicting of the offenses in Table A10 ($\rho = 0.40$) yet carries a discount far below homicide's; homicide's own-recurrence coefficient is small and negative ($\rho = -0.026$, s.e. 0.012) and it carries the largest. Homicide's weak recurrence is consistent with Carrillo and Yezer (2021), who find homicide far less persistent from year to year than other violent crime. That recurrence is real but small and offense-specific is corroborated by Caetano and Maheshri (2018), who find that several Dallas offenses (robbery, burglary, auto theft, and light crime) raise their own future incidence by roughly five to fifteen percent, fading within about a month, with no escalation across offense types.

5.3 Price Formation

Prediction 3 asks where in the transaction the discount appears. I trace the effect of crime through the housing transaction. Boggess et al. (2013) find that higher neighborhood crime is followed by higher rates of housing transactions, with sales inhibited only where crime and vacancy are already

[17] Because the police records mask each incident to the hundred-block, a frontage damage-to-property record can be the sold parcel itself, so this contrast carries an own-property component.

high. I examine asking prices, mid-listing price cuts, the sale-to-list ratio, time on market, and withdrawal, which lets me distinguish effects incorporated when the seller sets the asking price from those that emerge later in the transaction. The housing-market microstructure literature studies asking prices, price revisions, selling time, and transaction prices as jointly determined outcomes of search and bargaining (Knight, 2002; Merlo and Ortalo-Magné, 2004; Han and Strange, 2015).

Table 4: Transaction Outcomes: From Asking Price to Sale

Offense	Ask Price %	Sale-to-list %	Price cut pp	Days on market %	Withdrawal pp	Close %
Homicide	0.38	0.53	$8.24^{**\ddagger}$	14.54^{**}	2.24^{**}	-3.02^{**}
	(0.57)	(0.45)	(3.30)	(6.85)	(0.96)	(1.38)
Narcotics	0.21	-0.16^{**}	0.43	−0.78	0.04	-0.29^{**}
	(0.17)	(0.07)	(0.35)	(0.98)	(0.04)	(0.14)
Burglary	−0.15	−0.01	−0.33	0.23	−0.10	-0.24^{**}
	(0.12)	(0.05)	(0.33)	(1.25)	(0.10)	(0.12)
Vandalism	0.05	0.00	−0.12	−0.10	0.00	-0.17^{**}
	(0.07)	(0.03)	(0.21)	(0.69)	(0.05)	(0.08)
Disorderly conduct	-0.43^{**}	-0.28^{**}	2.55^{***}	−1.97	0.10	-0.65^{**}
	(0.21)	(0.12)	(0.95)	(3.86)	(0.23)	(0.29)
Weapons violations	−0.14	0.11	1.35^{**}	−0.33	0.59^{***}	0.10
	(0.20)	(0.25)	(0.53)	(3.52)	(0.21)	(0.28)
Parcel FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Tract × month FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes. Near–far estimates as in Table 2, pooled 2007–2025. Columns: log asking price, log sale-to-list ratio, mid-listing price cut (percentage points), log days on market, withdrawal (percentage points), and log closing price. Closing price at each offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6, disorderly conduct 12, weapons violations 12 months); listing margins at the median significant window. Days on market uses parcel × era fixed effects; withdrawal uses all listings.

‡The price cut compares the last asking price with the original asking price of the same listing. It does not record when the cut was made, so it cannot show whether the cut followed the crime. Using the dated price-change history of each listing (available from 2015), crime during the listing does not raise the probability of a cut (Table A16). The price-cut column uses crime during the listing, with fixed effects for the number of months listed.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Transaction outcomes For the priced offenses, the discount appears at the close rather than in the asking price (Table 4). None of the four moves the asking price, although for burglary the asking-price estimate is imprecise (−0.15, s.e. 0.12) and its interval includes the closing discount. Disorderly conduct lowers the asking price across all listings, significantly at five percent in 4 of 12 windows with parcel fixed effects and in none with parcel-by-era fixed effects. Narcotics also closes below list (sale-to-list −0.16, s.e. 0.07). A nearby homicide increases time on market: under parcel-by-era fixed effects, the estimate is significant at five percent at seven to nine months, about 15 percent at eight months, or about 2.4 days against a median of 16 in the estimation sample. Time-on-market estimates are predominantly positive under both specifications, but statistically significant at the 5 percent level only in these three windows with parcel-by-era fixed effects. Cumulative time-on-market estimates change sign across specifications and are never statistically

significant (Appendix Table A22). Withdrawal estimates are positive in every window under both specifications, consistent with nearby homicide raising the probability of withdrawal, but they are significant at five percent only at two months (2.2 percentage points, s.e. 0.96). Weapons violations show a particularly consistent withdrawal response. Estimates are positive in all twelve windows under both specifications and statistically significant at the five percent level in eight windows with parcel fixed effects and three with parcel-by-era fixed effects, while the post-off-market placebo is significant in at most one (Table 4; Appendix Table A23). Closing-price estimates show no consistent discount across windows and specifications. Among listings that sell, asking-price estimates are negative in every window with parcel-by-era fixed effects and significant in three. Crime during a live listing does not trigger a price cut: dating each cut from the listing's price-change history (available from 2015), none of the six offenses raises the probability of a cut in the following month (homicide 0.24 percentage points, s.e. 0.35), and, as a placebo, crime in the month after, which cannot have caused the cut, has no effect either (Table A16). Online Appendix E reports the estimates by era.

Agent experience Prior work shows that real estate agents' incentives and information shape transaction outcomes (Rutherford et al., 2005; Levitt and Syverson, 2008; Hendel et al., 2009; Han and Hong, 2011; Barwick and Pathak, 2015; Gilbukh and Goldsmith-Pinkham, 2024). I ask whether the asking price responds differently to nearby crime depending on the listing agent's experience in the tract, and whether the closing price responds differently depending on the buyer's agent's experience (Table 5). I proxy experience by the number of listings the agent has previously handled in the same census tract, in logs. After a nearby homicide, asking prices fall more when the listing agent is more experienced, significantly so in seven of twelve windows. Closing prices also fall more when the buyer's agent is more experienced: comparing the same agent across transactions, a one-standard-deviation increase in the buyer's agent's local experience deepens the homicide discount by 1.93 percent (significant in six of twelve windows; Appendix Table A12). For narcotics, the response appears in the asking price: it falls more with listing-agent experience in seven of twelve windows. For these offenses the discount at mean experience is not statistically significant on the smaller agent-matched sample; the response is concentrated among experienced agents.

Three further checks refine these patterns. First, the asking-price response to listing-agent experience is negative for homicide, narcotics, and vandalism in nearly every window, both with parcel fixed effects and with agent fixed effects added (Appendix Table A12). Second, for narcotics it weakens once agents listing in a tract for the first time are allowed to differ, and for vandalism it comes mainly from those first listings (Table OA15). Third, controlling for the agent's total experience (all prior listings, in any tract), the buyer's-agent homicide result remains (-1.99, s.e. 0.86; significant in five of twelve windows), and total experience has no effect on the buyer side. The listing-agent homicide result is significant only at the main window (-0.79, s.e. 0.35), and total experience lowers the homicide asking price in three of twelve windows. For narcotics, the asking price falls with the listing agent's total experience (-0.21, s.e. 0.05; significant in all twelve

windows), and local experience has no effect once total experience is controlled for (Table A13). Table A14 reports these tests for all twenty-two offenses, and Tables OA9 and OA10 report the estimates at every window. Because agents are not randomly assigned to listings, these estimates are associations rather than causal effects.

Table 5: Agent Local Experience: Ask (Listing) and Close (Buyer)

Offense	Most negative (s.e.)	Most positive (s.e.)	Sig. windows
Panel A. Listing agent, asking price (ln list)			
Homicide	-0.97^{***} (0.34)	-0.03 (0.52)	7/12
Burglary	-0.02 (0.03)	0.06 (0.05)	0/12
Narcotics	-0.11^{**} (0.05)	-0.05 (0.08)	7/12
Vandalism	-0.06^{**} (0.02)	-0.02 (0.07)	3/12
Panel B. Buyer agent, closing price (ln close)			
Homicide	-6.27^{**} (2.60)	-0.95 (0.88)	6/12
Burglary	0.02 (0.15)	0.53^{**} (0.27)	0/12
Narcotics	-0.06 (0.47)	0.38^{*} (0.22)	0/12
Vandalism	-0.04 (0.14)	0.14^{**} (0.06)	0/12

Notes. Near–far effect interacted with agent experience, $E = \ln(1 +$ prior same-agent same-tract listings). Panel A: listing agent, asking price. Panel B: buyer's agent, closing price. Parcel, tract × month, and agent fixed effects; clustered by tract. Gradient: change in the near–far effect per log unit of E (s.d. 1.20) (negative: experienced agents price crime more), shown as the most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows and the number of significantly negative windows. Appendix Table A12 reports the same specification per standard deviation of E at each offense's main window. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

The quantity margin Price is not the only margin on which the market can absorb a local shock. I therefore estimate the effect of each offense on the probability that a parcel is listed and on the probability that it sells (Table OA16). The listing–sale difference is the listing response minus the sale response; a positive difference means crime raises listings more than completed sales. It is not a direct estimate of withdrawal. Ten of the twenty-two offenses show a positive difference, including every offense that is priced, and the offenses that are null on price but show a positive difference, most reliably domestic assault and weapons offenses, show a quantity response without a detectable price response. Theft and motor vehicle theft are null on both margins.

5.4 Rental Prices

I apply the same near–far design to lease listings, with the log asking rent as the outcome (Table 6). Three offenses lower the asking rent, but the estimates are sensitive to the fixed effects: burglary under parcel fixed effects (6 of 12 windows at five percent), sex offenses consistently under parcel-by-era fixed effects (7 of 12 windows), but rarely under parcel fixed effects (1 of 12), and liquor violations only under parcel-by-era fixed effects (4 of 12); all three survive the post-date placebo (0 of 12 windows). Narcotics leaves rents unchanged under parcel fixed effects, where its post-date placebo is clean, though the placebo fails under parcel-by-era fixed effects; homicide is

estimated too imprecisely in the lease sample to sign, in line with Klimova and Lee (2014), who find no effect of nearby murders on Sydney rents. Narcotics instead appears in the leasing frictions of Panel B: it raises the probability a listing is a relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) in 11 of 12 windows under each specification, and the result holds across all twenty-two robustness specifications (Figure OF2), with a null future-crime placebo. The full offense battery is in Table A17.

Table 6: The Rental Market

	PIN			PIN×era		
Offense	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)
A. Asking rent (percent)						
Priced (asking rent lower; identifying FE in note)						
Burglary	-0.34^{***} (0.12)	-0.07 (0.06)	6/12 (0)	-0.30^{**} (0.12)	-0.04 (0.07)	1/12 (0)
Sex offenses	-0.29^{*} (0.15)	-0.21^{*} (0.13)	1/12 (0)	-0.32 (0.27)	-0.16 (0.14)	7/12 (0)
Liquor law	-0.23 (0.26)	-0.01 (0.13)	0/12 (0)	-0.30^{***} (0.07)	0.09 (0.49)	4/12 (0)
Precise nulls (rent effect near zero, tightly estimated)						
Narcotics†	0.01 (0.06)	0.10 (0.08)	0/12 (0)	0.02 (0.17)	0.14 (0.09)	0/12 (4)
Vandalism	-0.06 (0.06)	0.05 (0.07)	0/12 (0)	-0.03 (0.04)	0.09 (0.07)	0/12 (1)
Prostitution	-0.16 (0.10)	0.00 (0.17)	0/12 (1)	-0.33^{***} (0.12)	-0.03 (0.14)	1/12 (0)
Imprecise / underpowered						
Homicide	-0.55 (0.61)	1.03 (1.20)	0/12 (0)	-0.59 (0.59)	1.16 (1.22)	0/12 (0)
B. Leasing frictions						
Narcotics, relisting (pp)	0.18^{**} (0.08)	0.97^{***} (0.34)	11/12 (0)	0.27^{***} (0.08)	1.28^{***} (0.40)	11/12 (0)
Homicide, time on market (%)	1.01 (4.65)	12.19 (11.00)	0/12 (0)	1.54 (3.98)	19.63^{*} (11.70)	4/12 (0)
Burglary, withdrawn (pp)†	-1.06^{**} (0.46)	-0.02 (0.16)	3/12 (0)	-1.12^{**} (0.53)	-0.08 (0.15)	5/12 (2)

Notes. Near–far estimates on lease listings, 2007–2025, tract × listing-month fixed effects, clustered by tract (118,849 listings with parcel fixed effects; 98,813 with parcel × era). For each specification, Min and Max are the most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows, followed by the number significant at 5%; in parentheses, windows with a significant post-listing placebo; †, placebo fails in two or more. Panel A: log asking rent. Panel B: relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) and withdrawal (percentage points), time on market (percent). $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table OA17 shows how the listing agent's experience in the tract moderates the effect of nearby crime on rental listing outcomes. Near narcotics incidents, more experienced agents lease units faster, with days on market about 0.6 percent shorter per standard deviation of experience, and set slightly lower asking rents; the average rental discount stays small. The tenant's agent's experience is unrelated to asking rents or days on market in any window.

5.5 Heterogeneity

The point estimates differ across macroeconomic eras, but the differences are not statistically significant (Table 7). Burglary and vandalism discounts are larger in the 2009–2013 foreclosure crisis, homicide's in the 2014–2025 recovery, and narcotics is negative in each era (crisis -0.33, s.e. 0.23; recovery -0.52, s.e. 0.31). For no priced offense does a Wald test reject equal crisis and recovery discounts ($p = 0.41$ for homicide, 0.26 for burglary, 0.63 for narcotics, and 0.10 for vandalism). The crisis estimates for rare offenses rest on few within-crisis repeat sales and are imprecise, as their standard errors show.

Table 7: Crime Capitalization by Era

Offense	Identifying parcels	Pooled 2007–25	Crisis 2009–13	Recovery 2014–25
Priced				
Homicide	4,950	-3.02^{**}	-0.07	-4.12^{***}
		(1.38)	(4.73)	(1.47)
Narcotics	49,513	-0.29^{**}	-0.33	-0.52^{*}
		(0.14)	(0.23)	(0.31)
Burglary	76,323	-0.24^{**}	-0.49^{*}	-0.18
		(0.12)	(0.25)	(0.14)
Vandalism	88,765	-0.17^{**}	-0.54^{**}	-0.11
		(0.08)	(0.25)	(0.10)
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	19,550	-0.65^{**}	-0.87^{*}	-0.59^{*}
		(0.29)	(0.51)	(0.35)
Sex offenses	36,393	-0.47^{**}	-0.20	-0.36
		(0.23)	(0.72)	(0.23)
Precise nulls				
Larceny/theft	105,610	0.02	0.07	0.02^{**}
		(0.01)	(0.06)	(0.01)
Motor vehicle theft	70,464	0.09	0.00	0.08
		(0.12)	(0.38)	(0.12)
Assault (non-dom.)	89,931	-0.03	-0.07	-0.04
		(0.04)	(0.10)	(0.05)
Family (non-violent)	12,632	1.49^{**}	0.99	2.05^{**}
		(0.60)	(1.08)	(0.86)
Assault (domestic)	77,543	-0.03	0.18	-0.02
		(0.12)	(0.28)	(0.14)
Trespass	9,395	-0.09	-0.49	0.05
		(0.38)	(0.93)	(0.39)
Robbery	46,664	0.02	-0.58	0.06
		(0.18)	(0.45)	(0.19)
Liquor law	3,935	0.61	0.55	0.23
		(0.43)	(0.93)	(0.39)
Parcel FE		Yes	Yes	Yes
Tract × year-month FE		Yes	Yes	Yes
Crime × era interaction		No	Yes	Yes

Notes. δ as in Table 2. Offense groups as in Table 2: *priced*, a significant discount at two or more windows; *suggestive*, a significant discount at only one window; *precise nulls*, no significant discount and intervals that rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; *inconclusive*, no significant discount but intervals too wide to rule out a one-percent discount. Crisis (2009–2013) and recovery (2014–2025) effects come from an era-interacted model with 2007–2008 as the base; the pooled column is the full-sample effect and need not lie between them. Each offense is shown at its own main identifying window (the window differs across offenses, for example trespass at one month), held fixed across the three columns; identifying parcels (exposure varies within parcel) are counted at that window, whereas Table 2 counts them at twelve months. The crisis and recovery columns report per-era near–far levels, not deviations from the pooled column. Era differences are not formally tested.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

The discounts also vary with neighborhood socioeconomic status. I use ten predetermined tract characteristics: median household income, the poverty rate, the share with a college degree, the owner-occupancy rate, median home value, median gross rent, the Black and Hispanic population shares, racial segregation, and the vacancy rate. In separate regressions, I interact each standardized characteristic with the near–far term, controlling for the tract's predetermined crime level (Table OA18).

All four priced offenses carry larger discounts in lower-income and less-educated tracts; burglary and narcotics also carry larger discounts in higher-poverty tracts. A one-standard-deviation increase in tract income reduces the homicide discount by about 2.28 percentage points, with smaller reductions for burglary, narcotics, and vandalism. Discounts are likewise larger in tracts with lower median home values and rents, while neither owner-occupancy nor vacancy shows a consistent pattern. Because income, poverty, education, home values, and rents are strongly correlated, these results are best interpreted as a common socioeconomic gradient rather than separate findings. Table OA18 reports every offense and characteristic.

Discounts are also larger in tracts with a higher Black share. Controlling for predetermined tract crime, this gradient is marginally significant for homicide and burglary and significant for narcotics and vandalism. Hispanic share shows no significant gradient at the five-percent level for any priced offense (Table OA18). Because tracts with a higher Black share also tend to have lower incomes, I include income and racial composition jointly (Table OA19). With income and share Black together, both estimates lose precision for homicide, burglary, and narcotics, leaving their separate contributions unresolved. When income and racial segregation, measured by the divergence index (Roberto, 2016), are included jointly, the income gradient remains significant for burglary and narcotics, and at ten percent for homicide, while segregation shows no significant gradient. Vandalism is the exception: segregation remains significant (-0.56, s.e. 0.22), while income does not. This result may reflect a role for neighborhood stigma in the pricing of visible disorder, although the estimates do not establish that mechanism. Sampson and Raudenbush (2004) find that residents perceive more disorder in neighborhoods with more Black residents, holding observed disorder fixed.

6 Robustness

6.1 Threats to Identification

Reverse Causality and Mean Reversion Prices could drive crime rather than the reverse, or repeat-sales properties transacting at temporarily depressed prices could appreciate mechanically. I test both using a post-date placebo that replaces pre-transaction crime with crime occurring after the transaction, which cannot affect a price already set. The priced offenses pass this placebo at their main windows and in almost all specifications: post-sale crime is significant in none of the 63 specifications for homicide and vandalism, one for narcotics, and four for burglary (bottom panels of Figure 3 and Appendix Figures A3–A5). The exception is burglary, where post-sale crime is

significant at six months (these are the placebo hits in Appendix Figure A5); six months is also where burglary's pre-sale estimate is largest (−0.34, s.e. 0.14; Appendix Table A4), so the placebo does not fully separate burglary's peak discount from post-sale crime.

Predetermined Neighborhood Controls The estimated discounts are not explained by pre-existing neighborhood investment or decline. I add five neighborhood controls, building permits (investment), vacant buildings (disinvestment), business licenses (commercial activity), tree canopy (amenity), and total 311 service requests (disorder), each entered as its own near–far difference alongside crime. Each varies across a parcel's sales and therefore retains identifying variation with parcel fixed effects. All five are predetermined relative to the twelve-month crime window: tree canopy is measured two years before the sale, while permits, vacant buildings, business licenses, and 311 requests are measured as cumulative stocks of events recorded more than twelve months before the close. Predetermined measures are used deliberately: contemporaneous neighborhood conditions may themselves respond to local crime, so conditioning on them could amount to controlling for an outcome of the exposure. These controls instead capture pre-existing neighborhood conditions rather than potential consequences of the crime itself (Appendix Table A18).

Point estimates change little (Appendix Table A18): a nearby homicide still lowers sale prices by about three percent, and the burglary, narcotics, and vandalism estimates move by hundredths of a percent. Precision falls for two offenses: with all five controls together, burglary (−0.22, s.e. 0.12) and narcotics (−0.26, s.e. 0.15) are significant only at ten percent. The priced effects therefore do not appear to reflect the measured physical or economic conditions of the block that are correlated with local crime.

Cross-Crime Confounding A discount attributed to one offense could in principle be capitalizing a spatially correlated neighbor. Homicide, burglary, and narcotics are nearly uncorrelated with the other offenses in the near ring, and entering all twenty-two offenses' near–far terms jointly, at a common twelve-month window, leaves each of their discounts nearly identical to its separate estimate (Online Appendix K; Table OA24). Vandalism is the exception: it correlates moderately with the high-volume nuisance offenses it co-occurs with, and its joint estimate is −0.02. At the common twelve-month window, however, vandalism's separate estimate is already small and insignificant (−0.05, s.e. 0.06), so the joint specification does not test its six-month discount, and part of that discount may reflect the co-occurring offenses. Disorderly conduct, by contrast, retains a discount in the joint specification (−0.58, significant at five percent).

Sample Selection The repeat-sales estimates use only properties that sell, so they would be biased if crime changed which properties sell. I test this in three ways. First, I regress the monthly probability of sale on nearby crime for all residential parcels, including those that never sell. Nearby crime does not change this probability: the estimate is statistically indistinguishable from zero ($p \approx 0.4$) and small relative to a monthly sale rate of about 0.3 percent. Crime does raise listings more than completed sales for several offenses (Table OA16), but it is completed sales that determine

the repeat-sales sample. Second, a Heckman correction, which uses mortgage-rate lock-in to predict whether an owner sells, leaves the crime coefficients largely unchanged (Online Appendix L). Third, a cross-sectional hedonic regression on all sales, including properties that sell only once, replaces the parcel fixed effect with observed characteristics and keeps the four priced discounts negative and significant (Table A19). The hedonic estimates are larger than the repeat-sales estimates for burglary, narcotics, and vandalism and smaller for homicide. Robbery, both assault groups, and motor-vehicle theft also become significantly negative in the hedonic specification but shrink substantially under repeat sales, with comparable or smaller standard errors, consistent with the hedonic estimates picking up the concentration of these offenses near properties with persistently lower values, differences that parcel fixed effects absorb.

Distressed Sales Foreclosures and short sales could drive the discounts if distressed sellers cluster near crime. Allowing the near–far effect to differ for distressed sales (REO, short sale, or foreclosure), the discounts are if anything larger among distressed sales, but that subsample is thin near crime and the two differ significantly only for narcotics (Table OA20). Because distressed status itself lowers prices, this split shows where the discount appears rather than testing a forced-seller mechanism (Campbell et al., 2011; Ellen et al., 2013; Anenberg and Kung, 2014). A predetermined vacancy control, described above, leaves the discounts essentially unchanged.

Reporting Endogeneity Recorded incidents reflect both underlying crime and the chance that a crime is reported or detected, so the estimates could pick up reporting rather than crime if reporting rates move with prices. Two features limit this concern. The largest discount is for homicide, which is almost always recorded. And the near–far comparison within tract and month removes differences in reporting across neighborhoods and over time, so a remaining bias would require reporting to differ between a home's own block and blocks a few hundred yards away.

6.2 Exposure Specification and Inference

Selection into Zero Exposure Properties with no nearby crime could differ systematically from exposed properties along unobserved dimensions. I test for such selection using the zero-exposure test of Caetano (2015); Caetano et al. (2021) for the three priced offenses with sufficient support at zero: narcotics, vandalism, and burglary. For narcotics and vandalism a large discontinuity in the raw data disappears under the baseline parcel and tract×month fixed effects, and explicitly controlling for the zero-exposure indicator leaves the narcotics discount unchanged and, if anything, strengthens the vandalism discount. For burglary the zero-exposure indicator is itself significant (-0.978, s.e. 0.317), so the linear discount is identified partly from the contrast between exposed and unexposed parcels. The discontinuity appears only once parcel fixed effects are included, so it does not reflect burglars targeting more valuable houses, a concern Gibbons (2004) raises for London. The jump does not reflect spillover from the adjacent ring: controlling for burglary at 0.05–0.10 miles leaves it unchanged (-0.99, s.e. 0.32). Because the test jointly detects failures

of exogeneity, functional form, and parallel trends, its rejection does not establish the direction of any bias, and for burglary the baseline linear specification is an approximation, not a bound; adding the zero-exposure indicator moves δ from -0.244 (s.e. 0.117) to -0.552 (s.e. 0.168) (Online Appendix M, Figure OF11). At a 0–0.10 mile near ring (Figure A1), where 27 percent of sales have no nearby burglary and the zero-exposure test does not reject (-0.06, s.e. 0.27), burglary's discount remains significant (-0.14, s.e. 0.07; Appendix Table A2), with no significant post-sale placebo at any window.

Functional Form How nearby crime enters the regression matters differently across offenses (Table OA23). Homicide, rare enough that a single incident is effectively the treatment, is significant under every form at its main window (-3.0 to -3.6), whether exposure enters as a raw count, a presence indicator, or in inverse hyperbolic sine. The burglary, narcotics, and vandalism discounts, by contrast, are significant at five percent only under the raw count: narcotics is negative under every form at its main window (raw -0.29, presence -0.63, IHS -0.30); only the raw count is significant, and burglary and vandalism are not significant under either alternative form. A presence dummy weights one incident like four, and the inverse hyperbolic sine compresses high counts, so both dilute an effect that the dose-response (Table OA5) shows is driven by accumulated exposure rather than an isolated incident. I therefore use the raw count for burglary, narcotics, and vandalism, as an approximation rather than a bound; homicide is significant under every form.

Across all twenty-two offenses (Table OA23), the choice of functional form does not manufacture the priced discounts; some offenses that do not price in the baseline count specification do turn significant under the inverse-hyperbolic-sine or presence transforms, which rescale or redefine exposure. Three offenses outside the priced set are significant under all three forms: disorderly conduct, negative (-0.65, -1.00, and -0.81, the last at ten percent), and bad checks and family offenses, positive (0.66, 1.06, and 1.07; and 1.00, 1.69, and 1.69, the first at ten percent). Homicide is significant at five percent under every form and narcotics at ten percent under the presence and inverse-hyperbolic-sine forms; burglary and vandalism are significant under the raw count maintained above but not under the presence or inverse-hyperbolic-sine transforms.

Spatial Standard Errors In the baseline specification, standard errors are clustered by census tract (Cameron and Miller, 2015), allowing arbitrary correlation among parcels within a tract but not across tract boundaries. To allow for spatial correlation that crosses those boundaries, I also report Conley (1999) standard errors using a uniform kernel with cutoffs of 0.5 and 1.0 km. The 1.0 km cutoff exceeds twice the 0.30-mile outer radius used to construct crime exposure, so parcels with overlapping exposure areas can have correlated residuals. Tract clustering and Conley inference make different assumptions: the former allows unrestricted within-tract correlation regardless of distance, while the latter allows correlation across tracts but downweights it with distance and sets it to zero beyond the cutoff. Conley standard errors at 0.5 and 1.0 km, reported in Table OA21, are close to the clustered ones: homicide ($p = 0.016$ and 0.029), burglary ($p = 0.032$ and 0.045), and vandalism ($p = 0.020$ and 0.045) remain significant at five percent under both cutoffs, and narcotics

is significant at five percent at 0.5 km ($p = 0.027$) and at ten percent at 1.0 km ($p = 0.091$); inference and the significance stars use the clustered ones. Clustering instead by the 77 community areas, homicide ($p = 0.034$) and burglary ($p = 0.043$) remain significant at five percent and vandalism ($p = 0.059$) at ten percent, while the narcotics estimate is less precise ($p = 0.12$).

6.3 Specification Curves and Spatial Checks

Specification curves: sale prices Figure 3 reports the sale-price specification curve for vandalism (narcotics, homicide, and burglary appear in Appendix Figures A3–A5; theft, an offense with no detectable discount, appears in Figure 4 as a comparison: 0 of 63 specifications are significant at five percent); each curve sorts the near–far discount $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$ across 63 specifications. The grid varies the exposure window from six to twelve months, the fixed-effect design (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time). The window begins at six months because shorter windows fall inside the listing and under-contract period, where measured pre-sale exposure is sparse and partly contemporaneous with the sale itself. Nearly all specifications are negative for the four priced offenses; the exceptions are the presence-indicator estimates for burglary (0.54, s.e. 0.98) and vandalism (about 0.46), both imprecise. The discount is significant at five percent in 33 of 63 specifications for vandalism, 29 for narcotics, 29 for burglary, and 15 for homicide, whose point estimates range from about −3.6 percent to about zero with wide intervals. The post-sale placebo is significant in none of the 63 for homicide and vandalism, one for narcotics (the presence indicator at ten months), and four for burglary (the linear count at six months under each of the three far rings, and the inverse hyperbolic sine at eight months).[18] The full curve over all one-to-twelve-month exposure windows (103 specifications) is reported in Figures OF4–OF7.

Spatial Falsification A falsification test that moves the treatment band outward to 0.05–0.20 leaves narcotics, burglary, and vandalism significant in at most 1 of 48 specifications, indicating effects concentrated within 0.05 miles. Homicide behaves differently. It is significant in 11 of 48 specifications outside the near ring, all in the 0.10–0.15 band, with a median estimate (−2.72) essentially identical to the near ring's (−2.78),[19] while the intervening 0.05–0.10 band is null. Homicide is therefore robust at the doorstep but, unlike the other three offenses, not localized to it. This is consistent with Section 5.2, where the homicide discount is significant only for incidents in public space, which may be seen and felt beyond the near ring, although the residential estimate is too imprecise to rule out a similar effect. Because homicide reaches beyond the near ring, it likely raises exposure in the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring as well; since $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$ nets that

[18] The specification curve shows how stable the estimates are across modeling choices. Because the specifications share data and most choices, they are not independent, so the number of significant estimates is not a formal test.

[19] The −2.78 and −2.72 medians are taken over the significant estimates in the band-varying close specification grid (window × fixed effects × far ring), the object common to both bands; the larger near-ring significant count (15) additionally varies the predetermined controls and the functional form.

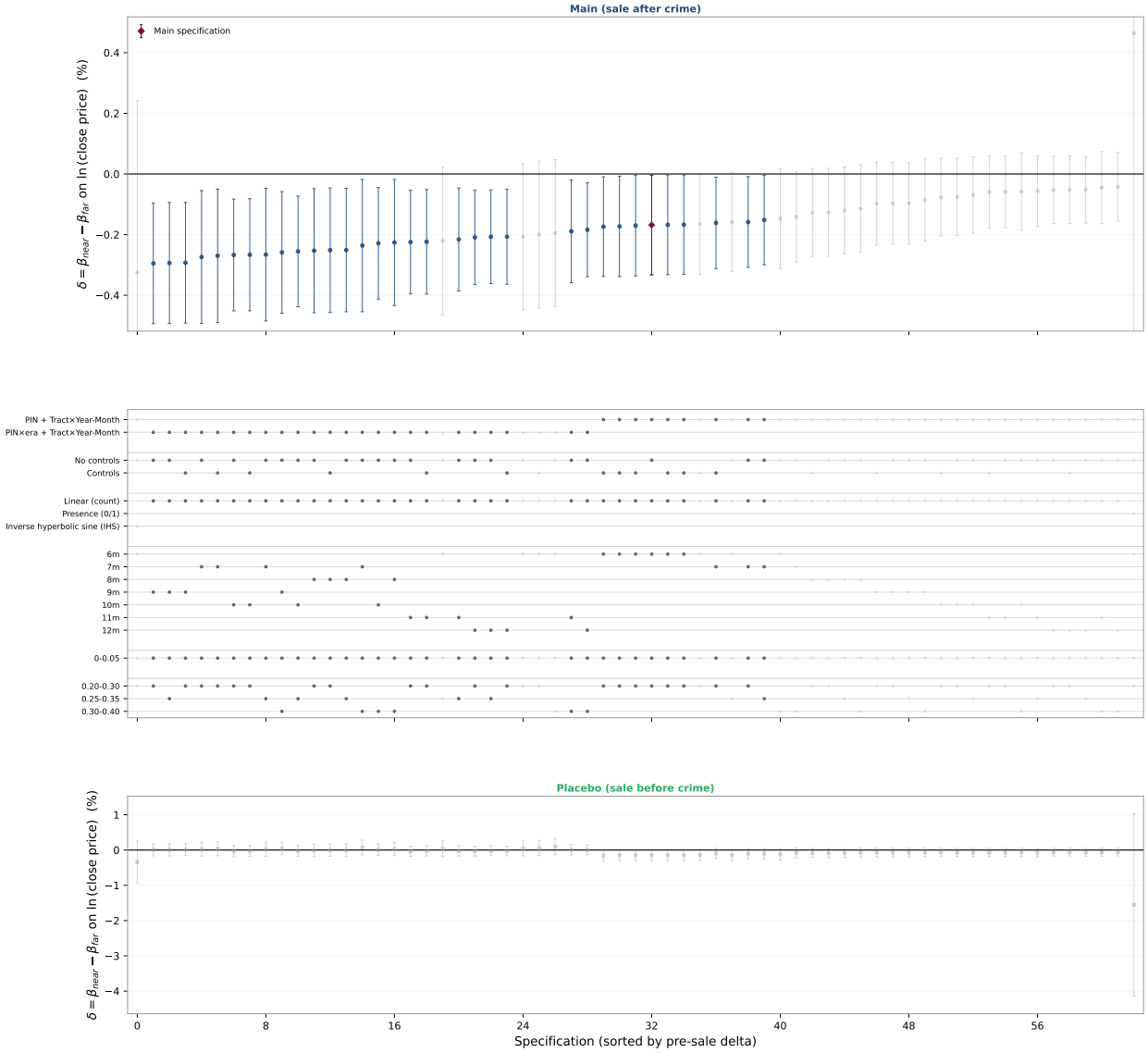


Figure 3: Vandalism: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. Common to this figure, Figure 4, and Appendix Figures A3–A5; specifications as described in Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, and no controls, at each offense's main window: ten months for homicide and narcotics, eight for burglary, and six for vandalism. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: the post-sale placebo, which replaces pre-sale crime with crime after the sale. All years pooled (2007–2025); standard errors clustered by tract. Vandalism: 33/63 significant at five percent; placebo 0/63.

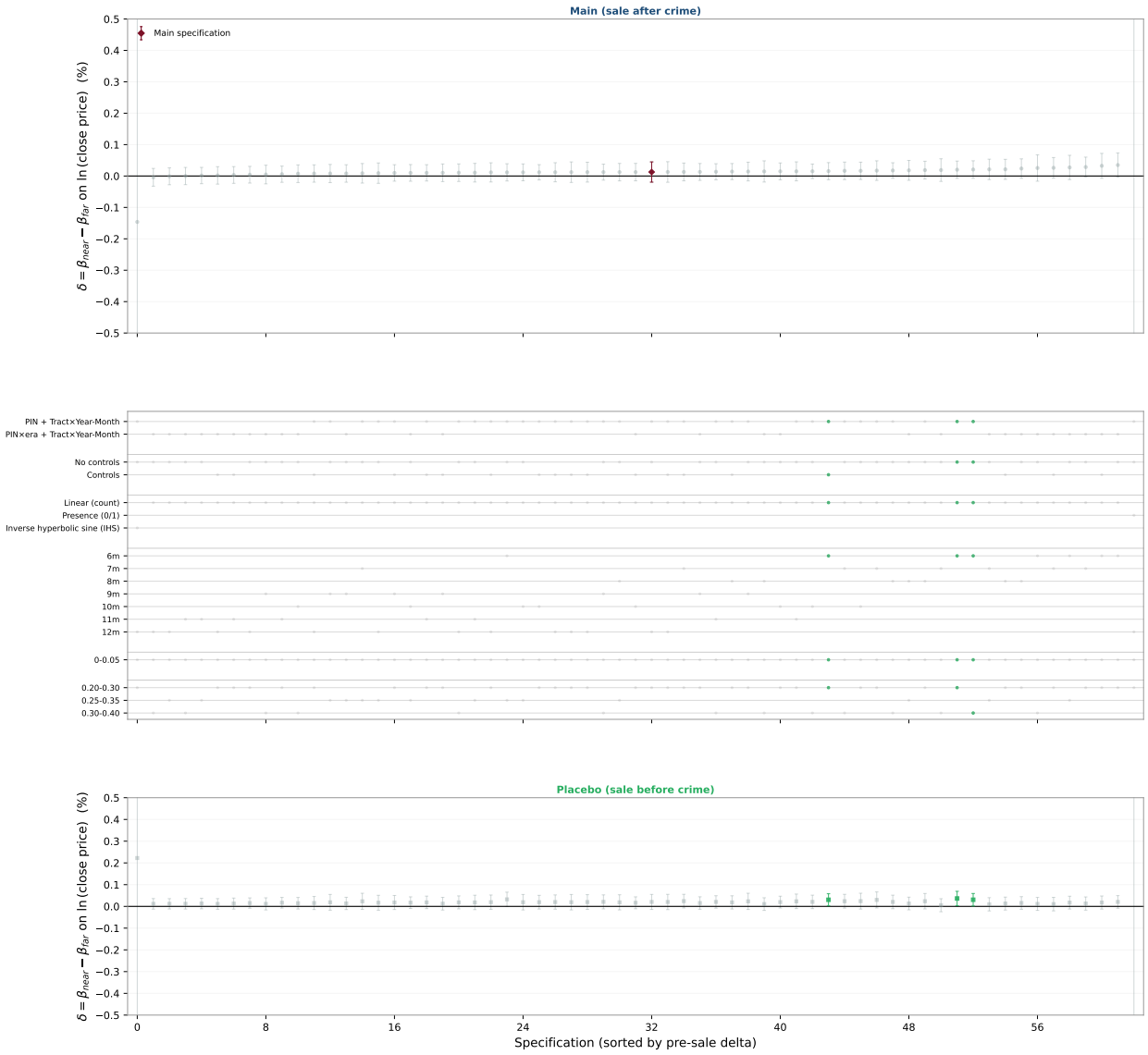


Figure 4: Theft: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and a twelve-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Theft: 0/63 significant at 5%, placebo 3/63. The vertical axis is cut at ±0.5 percent.

ring out, the reported homicide discount is if anything a lower bound on the near-ring effect rather than an overstatement. Significantly negative placebo estimates outside the near ring (3 of 48 for narcotics, 5 of 48 for burglary and vandalism) modestly exceed the 5 percent expected by chance and are concentrated in the wider bands, consistent with the contamination this falsification test is designed to detect rather than with a near-ring effect.

Specification curves: rents The rental specification curves cover twenty-two specifications: eleven exposure windows (two to twelve months) under each of two fixed-effect designs (parcel, and parcel by era). The narcotics estimate on the probability a lease listing is a relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) is positive and significant in all twenty-two, with no significant placebo (Figure OF2). The sex-offense estimate on the asking rent is significant in eight of the same twenty-two specifications, with no significant placebo (Figure OF3).

7 Discussion

7.1 Why most offenses are not priced

Section 2 notes that house prices respond to localized signals of risk, such as a registered offender moving nearby, even without a new crime. My findings suggest the converse: realized crime need not lower prices, even when it predicts future incidents. Together, these results imply that capitalization depends on how risk becomes observable and relevant to buyers.

Neither frequency nor severity alone explains which offenses are priced. Homicide is rare and carries the largest discount, while larceny, motor vehicle theft, and non-domestic assault rule out discounts as large as burglary's. The distinction between offenses anchored to an address, which threaten the house or the place, and offenses that harm a person, money, or a movable item offers one interpretation (Section 2, Table OA14). All four priced offenses are anchored to the address, while among the eleven that harm a person, money, or a movable item, only sex offenses show a suggestive discount. This grouping is my own, however, and the pattern depends on it. Under the FBI's NIBRS classification, which groups offenses by victim type, the priced offenses fall in all three categories: homicide among crimes against persons, burglary and vandalism among crimes against property, and narcotics among crimes against society (Table A15). The relevant distinction is therefore not the type of victim but whether the harm stays with the location a buyer is purchasing. Because the groups also differ in severity, frequency, and visibility, the pattern is consistent with a role for relevance rather than a test of it.

Measured predictability does not explain the pattern either. Crime on surrounding blocks predicts subsequent crime near the property but carries no detectable discount, and the most predictive offenses are not those that are priced (Section 5.2). These findings are consistent with selective attention to crime information (Bordalo et al., 2012; Gabaix, 2014), although recorded-crime forecasts need not match buyers' expectations. Within burglary, frontage incidents lower prices while interior incidents have no detectable effect, with a significant difference at the longest

exposure windows (Table 3). This supports a role for observability and may help explain the contrast with Gibbons (2004), whose burglary measure pools incidents within 250 meters across locations that may differ in visibility.

The evidence therefore points to relevance and observability rather than predictive content, without separately identifying their contributions. An undetected discount may reflect limited awareness, little relevance to the property, unchanged expectations, or limited precision. Changes in crime information displayed by real estate platforms, discussed in Section 8, would provide a more direct test of the information channel.

7.2 Why asking prices respond little

The transaction margins point to information frictions: the asking price, set before the buyer arrives, rarely moves, while the discount appears at closing. A nearby homicide also increases time on market, significantly so at seven to nine months under parcel-by-era fixed effects. The absence of a detectable average asking-price response to homicide, alongside a roughly three-percent closing-price discount, is consistent with the framework's fixed seller reservation value, although asking prices do not directly measure it (Table 4). Several explanations may account for the muted response. Sellers may anchor on their purchase price or a previous valuation: Genesove and Mayer (2001) show that owners facing prospective nominal losses set higher asking prices and sell more slowly. Alternatively, comparative market analyses may rely on nearby sales that predate the incident. The more negative asking-price responses among experienced listing agents are consistent with information or expertise beyond these comparables, but the data do not distinguish between the explanations. Sample composition may also mute the average asking-price response. Among listings that sell, the homicide asking-price estimate is negative in every window, though significant only at one month (Appendix Table A21). If sellers near a homicide who list high and do not adjust are more likely to withdraw, consistent with withdrawal estimates that are positive in every window, the all-listings asking price would understate the response among completed sales. The data do not separate this channel from the others. The weapons-violation results suggest that housing-market adjustment can occur through listing withdrawal as well as transaction prices. A weak closing-price response need not imply an absence of market adjustment. Recorded weapons violations reflect both weapons activity and police enforcement, and may affect withdrawals through the incident itself, visible police activity, or what either reveals about neighborhood safety; the estimates do not distinguish among these channels or establish what buyers and sellers observed.

Closing-price discounts could also reflect changes in sellers' bargaining positions. For burglary, narcotics, and vandalism, discounts do not differ detectably between soft and tight markets ($p > 0.4$ at each offense's main window); homicide estimates are too imprecise for an informative comparison. These results do not rule out bargaining effects, and the contract-timing and distressed-sale tests in Online Appendix N also have limited power.

7.3 Who carries the information

Publicly recorded crime need not become known to buyers: finding and interpreting incident information takes effort (Stigler, 1961). The agent results distinguish local knowledge from general experience. For homicide, the buyer-agent gradient in closing prices remains after controlling for total transactions, while total experience has no detectable gradient. The listing-agent gradient survives this control at only one of twelve windows. For narcotics, the asking-price gradient instead reflects listing agents' total experience, suggesting general pricing expertise. These patterns relate to evidence that agents' information advantages affect transaction outcomes (Levitt and Syverson, 2008), but nonrandom agent assignment prevents a causal interpretation of the gradients.

News coverage may also contribute to information reaching buyers. Homicide receives roughly fifteen times as many stories per incident as the next-highest offense in Media Cloud[20] and the largest article volume in GDELT,[21] and it carries the largest discount. The location split points the same way: the homicide discount is significant only for incidents on the street, in public view, although the residential estimate is too imprecise to rule out a similar effect (Tables A5 and A6). Yet category-level coverage does not measure whether buyers learn of a particular incident, and narcotics is priced despite far less coverage. Klimova and Lee (2014) find no additional house-price effect from more heavily covered murders in Sydney, whereas Moreno-Medina (2026), exploiting variation in local news coverage driven by sports schedules, finds that news coverage of nearby homicides lowers house prices. Coverage can therefore matter, but my data do not distinguish the relative roles of media, agents, and local contacts.

Neighborhood reputation may influence how buyers interpret an incident. Vandalism discounts are larger in more segregated tracts even after controlling for income (Table OA19). This parallels Sampson and Raudenbush (2004), who find greater perceived disorder in neighborhoods with more Black residents, holding observed disorder constant. The result is consistent with stigma amplifying the response to visible disorder, but does not establish that mechanism.

7.4 Welfare and policy

The estimates measure price responses among completed transactions, not average household willingness to pay to avoid crime. Buyers most averse to crime may withdraw from consideration, leaving a selected group of purchasers. Negotiated prices also reflect seller valuations and bargaining positions, while buyers may consider resale consequences as well as current occupancy. The transaction data do not separate these influences.

Evaluations of crime-reduction policies based only on sale prices may therefore omit important benefits. Longer marketing periods can entail carrying costs and search effort; withdrawals may

[20] Media Cloud, an open-source platform for large-scale quantitative news analysis (`https://mediacloud.org`); the measure is the count of news articles mentioning an offense category over the sample period, divided by the number of recorded incidents in that category.

[21] The GDELT Project, a global open database that monitors and indexes news coverage worldwide (`https://www.gdeltproject.org`).

represent forgone moves, postponement, or alternative uses of the property. Their welfare implications depend on what follows. Nor do price effects rank offenses by victim costs (McCollister et al., 2010). A small or undetected discount need not imply a small benefit from preventing an offense, particularly when buyers rarely learn of it.

Information disclosure raises a separate policy question. If observability contributes to price responses, crime maps or disclosure rules may affect property values without changing underlying crime. Illinois imposes no duty to disclose that a property was the site of a crime (225 ILCS 454/15-20), whereas in Hong Kong sellers must disclose unnatural deaths, which carry large and persistent price discounts (Bhattacharya et al., 2021). A resulting price decline need not indicate a welfare loss: buyers may simply be better informed about an existing risk. The analysis motivates this distinction but does not estimate the effects of disclosure on prices or welfare.

7.5 Scope

For offenses recorded through enforcement, price responses may reflect policing as well as underlying crime. Enforcement affects recorded offense counts (Levitt, 1998) and can itself affect local well-being (Ang, 2021; Legewie and Fagan, 2019). If buyers view concentrated drug or vice enforcement as a disamenity, the design cannot separate that response from the response to crime. Among the four priced offenses, this concern applies most directly to narcotics.

The estimates summarize the price effect per additional incident within 0.05 miles. The distance-based design can be applied elsewhere, although the same radius may encompass different numbers of properties and blocks. Whether the magnitudes generalize depends on local density, street layout, housing-market conditions, and how buyers learn about nearby incidents. Responses also vary with neighborhood income within Chicago (Section 5.5), making the local income distribution relevant to comparisons across settings.

The rental and sale estimates differ, in some cases in sign as well as size, for several reasons. The smaller lease sample generally yields less precise estimates and consists of formal, MLS-listed units concentrated in condominiums (Table A1). Differences in property composition may therefore contribute to differences in treatment effects. Renters and buyers also differ demographically and may value safety differently. A lease buys occupancy, whereas a purchase also exposes the owner to future buyers' assessments through resale. Prices also form differently: asking rents reflect landlords' pricing decisions and anticipated demand, while sale prices reflect negotiation between buyers and sellers. These differences prevent attributing the sale–rent gap solely to resale exposure. The rental findings describe posted rents in the formal MLS market, which underrepresents the informal and lower-income rentals where crime exposure is highest, and need not generalize to them.

8 Conclusion

Only about one in five prospective homebuyers is willing to compromise on personal safety to afford a home (Anderson, 2025), yet most types of crime do not measurably lower house prices. Using repeat sales of the same property and comparing crime on its block with crime a few blocks away in the same neighborhood and month, I find sale-price discounts for only four of twenty-two offense categories. Neither severity nor measured recurrence alone explains which offenses are priced.

Three patterns inform this interpretation of why only some offenses are priced. First, price effects are more localized than the predictive relationships in the crime data: crime a few blocks away predicts subsequent crime near the property, yet detectable price effects are confined to the immediate block for burglary and narcotics and extend only a few blocks for homicide. Second, price responses tend to be larger when agents have local experience, most clearly for homicide, where closing discounts are larger when the buyer's agent has more experience in the neighborhood. Third, price effects vary with where an incident occurs: for burglary and narcotics, incidents at the frontage, visible from the street, are associated with lower prices, while those inside the dwelling have no detectable effect; the homicide discount is significant only for street incidents, although residential estimates are too imprecise to rule out a similar effect, and the vandalism discount is significant only for incidents at residential addresses. These patterns are consistent with buyers responding to incidents they learn about and regard as relevant to the property, with where and how incidents become observable differing across offenses.

The response to crime also differs across transaction outcomes. Asking prices respond little on average, while closing prices show discounts; there is some evidence that a nearby homicide lengthens time on market; and weapons violations increase withdrawals despite showing no consistent closing-price discount. Estimates based on completed sales alone can therefore miss part of the market's response.

Taken together, the results are consistent with price responses depending on whether buyers learn of an incident, regard it as relevant to the property, and revise their expectations of future exposure. An absent price discount may therefore reflect limited awareness, limited relevance to the property, no revision in expected exposure, adjustment on other transaction margins, or an effect too small to detect. Under the proposed framework, observed discounts need not equal willingness to pay to avoid crime, and property values need not rank offenses by the harm they impose. Measures of the benefits of crime reduction based on house prices therefore need not capture all of those benefits.

Future research could test how access to crime information affects the price effects of crime. The introduction and subsequent removal of crime maps from online real estate platforms offer one setting for such a test.[22] If access to these maps informs buyers about nearby incidents, discounts should increase when the information becomes available and diminish when it is removed, holding underlying crime fixed. The change should be largest for offenses displayed on the maps. The

[22] Zhang et al. (2022) propose a related design based on the introduction of public crime maps.

framework could also guide research on other local risks, such as flooding, by distinguishing changes in underlying risk from changes in what buyers know about it.

References

Dana Anderson. One in five house hunters is willing to compromise personal safety to afford a home. Redfin News, Aug 2025. Survey fielded May 2025. `https://www.redfin.com/news/survey-homebuyers-compromise-safety/`.

Elliot Anenberg and Edward Kung. Estimates of the size and source of price declines due to nearby foreclosures. *American Economic Review*, 104(8):2527–2551, 2014. doi: 10.1257/aer.104.8.2527.

Desmond Ang. The effects of police violence on inner-city students. *The Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 136(1):115–168, 2021.

Laura A. Bakkensen and Lint Barrage. Going underwater? Flood risk belief heterogeneity and coastal home price dynamics. *The Review of Financial Studies*, 35(8):3666–3709, 2022. doi: 10.1093/rfs/hhab122.

Panle Jia Barwick and Parag A. Pathak. The costs of free entry: An empirical study of real estate agents in Greater Boston. *RAND Journal of Economics*, 46(1):103–145, 2015. doi: 10.1111/1756-2171.12082.

Asaf Bernstein, Matthew T. Gustafson, and Ryan Lewis. Disaster on the horizon: The price effect of sea level rise. *Journal of Financial Economics*, 134(2):253–272, 2019. doi: 10.1016/j.jfineco.2019.03.013.

Utpal Bhattacharya, Daisy Huang, and Kasper Meisner Nielsen. Spillovers in prices: The curious case of haunted houses. *Review of Finance*, 25(3):903–935, 2021.

Kelly C. Bishop and Alvin D. Murphy. Estimating the willingness to pay to avoid violent crime: A dynamic approach. *American Economic Review: Papers and Proceedings*, 101(3):625–629, 2011. doi: 10.1257/aer.101.3.625.

Lyndsay N. Boggess, Robert T. Greenbaum, and George E. Tita. Does crime drive housing sales? Evidence from Los Angeles. *Journal of Crime and Justice*, 36(3):299–318, 2013. doi: 10.1080/0735648X.2013.812976.

Pedro Bordalo, Nicola Gennaioli, and Andrei Shleifer. Salience theory of choice under risk. *Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 127(3):1243–1285, 2012. doi: 10.1093/qje/qjs018.

Pedro Bordalo, Nicola Gennaioli, and Andrei Shleifer. Salience and consumer choice. *Journal of Political Economy*, 121(5):803–843, 2013. doi: 10.1086/673885.

Nils Braakmann. The link between crime risk and property prices in England and Wales: Evidence from street-level data. *Urban Studies*, 54(8):1990–2007, 2017. doi: 10.1177/0042098016634611.

Carolina Caetano. A test of exogeneity without instrumental variables in models with bunching. *Econometrica*, 83(4):1581–1600, 2015. doi: 10.3982/ECTA11231.

Carolina Caetano, Gregorio Caetano, Hao Fe, and Eric Nielsen. A dummy test of identification in models with bunching. Finance and Economics Discussion Series 2021-068, Board of Governors of the Federal Reserve System, 2021.

Gregorio Caetano and Vikram Maheshri. Identifying dynamic spillovers of crime with a causal approach to model selection. *Quantitative Economics*, 9(1):343–394, 2018. doi: 10.3982/QE756.

A. Colin Cameron and Douglas L. Miller. A practitioner's guide to cluster-robust inference. *Journal of Human Resources*, 50(2):317–372, 2015. doi: 10.3368/jhr.50.2.317.

John Y. Campbell, Stefano Giglio, and Parag Pathak. Forced sales and house prices. *American Economic Review*, 101(5):2108–2131, 2011. doi: 10.1257/aer.101.5.2108.

Paul E. Carrillo and Anthony M. Yezer. What do hedonic house price estimates tell us when capitalization rates vary? IIEP Working Paper 2021-03, Institute for International Economic Policy, George Washington University, 2021.

Raj Chetty, Adam Looney, and Kory Kroft. Salience and taxation: Theory and evidence. *American Economic Review*, 99(4):1145–1177, 2009. doi: 10.1257/aer.99.4.1145.

Joshua M. Congdon-Hohman. The lasting effects of crime: The relationship of discovered methamphetamine laboratories and home values. *Regional Science and Urban Economics*, 43(1):31–41, 2013.

Timothy G. Conley. GMM estimation with cross sectional dependence. *Journal of Econometrics*, 92(1):1–45, 1999.

Alexander Dentler and Enzo Rossi. Residents' willingness to pay to avoid crime. *Journal of Housing Economics*, 2024. Earlier version: Swiss National Bank Working Paper 2021-20, "Shooting Up Liquidity: The Effect of Crime on Real Estate".

Stuart Donovan, Thomas de Graaff, Henri L. F. de Groot, and Aaron Schiff. An urban overhead? Crime, agglomeration, and amenity. *Journal of Housing Economics*, 64:101994, 2024. doi: 10.1016/j.jhe.2024.101994.

Ingrid Gould Ellen, Johanna Lacoe, and Claudia Ayanna Sharygin. Do foreclosures cause crime? *Journal of Urban Economics*, 74:59–70, 2013. doi: 10.1016/j.jue.2012.09.003.

Xavier Gabaix. A sparsity-based model of bounded rationality. *Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 129(4):1661–1710, 2014. doi: 10.1093/qje/qju024.

Mark J. Garmaise and Tobias J. Moskowitz. Confronting information asymmetries: Evidence from real estate markets. *The Review of Financial Studies*, 17(2):405–437, 2004. doi: 10.1093/rfs/hhg037.

Pieter A. Gautier, Arjen Siegmann, and Aico van Vuuren. Terrorism and attitudes towards minorities: The effect of the Theo van Gogh murder on house prices in Amsterdam. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 65(2):113–126, 2009.

David Genesove and Christopher Mayer. Loss aversion and seller behavior: Evidence from the housing market. *Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 116(4):1233–1260, 2001.

Stephen Gibbons. The costs of urban property crime. *Economic Journal*, 114:F441–F463, 2004.

Sonia Gilbukh and Paul Goldsmith-Pinkham. Heterogeneous real estate agents and the housing cycle. *The Review of Financial Studies*, 37(11):3431–3489, 2024. doi: 10.1093/rfs/hhae048.

Jesse D. Gourevitch, Carolyn Kousky, Yanjun Liao, Christoph Nolte, Adam B. Pollack, Jeremy R. Porter, and Joakim A. Weill. Unpriced climate risk and the potential consequences of overvaluation in US housing markets. *Nature Climate Change*, 13(3):250–257, 2023. doi: 10.1038/s41558-023-01594-8.

Lu Han and Seung-Hyun Hong. Testing cost inefficiency under free entry in the real estate brokerage industry. *Journal of Business & Economic Statistics*, 29(4):564–578, 2011. doi: 10.1198/jbes.2011.08314.

Lu Han and William C. Strange. The microstructure of housing markets: Search, bargaining, and brokerage. In *Handbook of Regional and Urban Economics*, volume 5, pages 813–886. Elsevier, 2015.

Igal Hendel, Aviv Nevo, and François Ortalo-Magné. The relative performance of real estate marketing platforms: MLS versus FSBOMadison.com. *American Economic Review*, 99(5):1878–1898, 2009. doi: 10.1257/aer.99.5.1878.

Miyuki Hino and Marshall Burke. The effect of information about climate risk on property values. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences*, 118(17):e2003374118, 2021. doi: 10.1073/pnas.2003374118.

Keith Ihlanfeldt and Tom Mayock. Panel data estimates of the effects of different types of crime on housing prices. *Regional Science and Urban Economics*, 40(2–3):161–172, 2010.

Anastasia Klimova and Adrian D. Lee. Does a nearby murder affect housing prices and rents? The case of Sydney. *Economic Record*, 90(S1):16–40, 2014. doi: 10.1111/1475-4932.12118.

John R. Knight. Listing price, time on market, and ultimate selling price: Causes and effects of listing price changes. *Real Estate Economics*, 30(2):213–237, 2002.

Bishwa Koirala, Rik Chakraborti, and Gyan Pradhan. Urban crime and its net implicit price to North Carolina households. *American Business Review*, 26(1):83–94, 2023. doi: 10.37625/abr.26.1.83-94.

Ivan Korolev. Estimating semiparametric and nonparametric fixed effects panel data models with `mgcv`, 2026. Working paper, arXiv:2606.12739.

Nicolai V. Kuminoff and Jaren C. Pope. Do "capitalization effects" for public goods reveal the public's willingness to pay? *International Economic Review*, 55(4):1227–1250, 2014. doi: 10.1111/iere.12088.

Pablo Kurlat and Johannes Stroebel. Testing for information asymmetries in real estate markets. *The Review of Financial Studies*, 28(8):2429–2461, 2015. doi: 10.1093/rfs/hhv028.

Joscha Legewie and Jeffrey Fagan. Aggressive policing and the educational performance of minority youth. *American Sociological Review*, 84(2):220–247, 2019.

Steven D. Levitt. Why do increased arrest rates appear to reduce crime? Deterrence, incapacitation, or measurement error? *Economic Inquiry*, 36(3):353–372, 1998.

Steven D. Levitt and Chad Syverson. Market distortions when agents are better informed: The value of information in real estate transactions. *The Review of Economics and Statistics*, 90(4):599–611, 2008.

Leigh Linden and Jonah E. Rockoff. Estimates of the impact of crime risk on property values from Megan's Laws. *American Economic Review*, 98(3):1103–1127, 2008.

Kathryn E. McCollister, Michael T. French, and Hai Fang. The cost of crime to society: New crime-specific estimates for policy and program evaluation. *Drug and Alcohol Dependence*, 108(1–2):98–109, 2010.

Antonio Merlo and François Ortalo-Magné. Bargaining over residential real estate: evidence from england. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 56(2):192–216, 2004.

Jonathan Moreno-Medina. Crime news bias: Extent and effects on housing markets. Working paper, University of Texas at San Antonio, January 2026.

Jaren C. Pope. Fear of crime and housing prices: Household reactions to sex offender registries. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 64(3):601–614, 2008a.

Jaren C. Pope. Buyer information and the hedonic: The impact of a seller disclosure on the implicit price for airport noise. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 63(2):498–516, 2008b.

Mario J. Rizzo. The effect of crime on residential rents and property values. *The American Economist*, 23(1):16–21, 1979.

Elizabeth Roberto. The divergence index: A decomposable measure of segregation and inequality, 2016. arXiv:1508.01167.

Sherwin Rosen. Hedonic prices and implicit markets: Product differentiation in pure competition. *Journal of Political Economy*, 82(1):34–55, 1974.

Ronald C. Rutherford, Thomas M. Springer, and Abdullah Yavaş. Conflicts between principals and agents: Evidence from residential brokerage. *Journal of Financial Economics*, 76(3):627–665, 2005. doi: 10.1016/j.jfineco.2004.06.006.

Robert J. Sampson and Stephen W. Raudenbush. Seeing disorder: Neighborhood stigma and the social construction of "broken windows". *Social Psychology Quarterly*, 67(4):319–342, 2004.

Amy Ellen Schwartz, Scott Susin, and Ioan Voicu. Has falling crime driven New York City's real estate boom? *Journal of Housing Research*, 14(1):101–135, 2003.

George J. Stigler. The economics of information. *Journal of Political Economy*, 69(3):213–225, 1961.

Johannes Stroebel. Asymmetric information about collateral values. *The Journal of Finance*, 71 (3):1071–1112, 2016. doi: 10.1111/jofi.12288.

Cheng Keat Tang and Thao Le. Crime risk and housing values: Evidence from the gun offender registry. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 134:103526, 2023. doi: 10.1016/j.jue.2022.103526.

Richard Thaler. A note on the value of crime control: Evidence from the property market. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 5(1):137–145, 1978.

Scott A. Wentland, Bennie D. Waller, and Raymond T. Brastow. Estimating the effect of crime risk on property values and time on market: Evidence from Megan's Law in Virginia. *Real Estate Economics*, 42(1):223–251, 2014. doi: 10.1111/1540-6229.12028.

Simon N. Wood. *Generalized Additive Models: An Introduction with R*. Chapman and Hall/CRC, 2 edition, 2017.

Meng Le Zhang, Monsuru Adepeju, and Rhiannon Thomas. Estimating the effect of crime (maps) on house prices using a (un)natural experiment. SocArXiv preprint 9zupw, 2022. Study protocol.

A Appendix

This appendix reports twenty-three supporting tables, the early-versus-late exposure figure, and the sale-price specification curves for narcotics, homicide, and burglary. Unless a note says otherwise, each reports $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$, the percent sale-price change per incident within 0–0.05 miles of the property against 0.20–0.30 miles, with parcel and tract × year-month fixed effects and standard errors clustered by census tract; $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. All other supporting material is in the Online Appendix.

Table A1: Summary Statistics

	Mean	SD	p10	Median	p90	Obs.
A. Sale listings ($N = 530,395$)						
Close price ($)	366,777	382,539	74,000	279,000	700,000	530,395
Log close price	12.44	0.92	11.21	12.54	13.46	530,395
Original list price ($)	384,828	410,804	85,000	289,900	725,000	529,956
Days on market	96	147	5	42	248	529,995
Any list-price cut	0.68	0.47	0.00	1.00	1.00	530,395
Bedrooms	3.0	1.7	1.0	3.0	5.0	517,982
Bathrooms	2.1	1.1	1.0	2.0	3.0	530,395
Living area (sq. ft.)	1,175	1,115	0	1,100	2,483	454,018
Total rooms	7.1	3.2	4.0	6.0	11.0	517,753
Year built	1954	41	1902	1954	2007	453,343
Garage spaces	1.6	0.6	1.0	2.0	2.0	351,747
Fireplaces	0.9	0.7	0.0	1.0	2.0	206,694
B. Lease listings ($N = 191,155$)						
Monthly rent ($)	2,208	1,086	1,250	1,950	3,400	191,155
Log monthly rent	7.61	0.41	7.13	7.58	8.13	191,155
Days on market	43	57	6	25	102	191,122
Bedrooms	1.8	1.0	1.0	2.0	3.0	191,031
Bathrooms	1.6	0.8	1.0	1.0	2.0	191,155
Living area (sq. ft.)	883	675	0	900	1,691	191,041
Total rooms	4.7	1.4	3.0	5.0	6.0	191,032
Year built	1972	37	1912	1982	2008	150,337

Notes: Chicago MLS single-family, condominium, and residential-income listings, 2007–2025, on parcels with a constant parcel count. Panel A: closed sales ($10,000–$10,000,000). Panel B: leases (monthly rent $500–$10,000). Any list-price cut: at least one reduction before sale.

Table A2: The Near–Far Discount Across Nine Ring Definitions

Near vs. far ring (miles)	Homicide	Burglary	Narcotics	Vandalism
0–0.05 vs. 0.20–0.30 *(baseline)*	-3.02 (1.38)	-0.24 (0.12)	-0.29 (0.14)	-0.17 (0.08)
0–0.05 vs. 0.25–0.35	-2.75 (1.39)	-0.24 (0.12)	-0.32 (0.14)	-0.16 (0.08)
0–0.05 vs. 0.30–0.40	-2.66 (1.35)	-0.27 (0.12)	-0.32 (0.14)	-0.15 (0.08)
0–0.10 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.42 (0.67)	-0.14 (0.07)	0.01 (0.06)	-0.06 (0.05)
0–0.15 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.90 (0.54)	-0.05 (0.05)	0.05 (0.04)	0.01 (0.03)
0–0.20 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.74 (0.46)	-0.03 (0.04)	0.02 (0.03)	-0.02 (0.03)
0.05–0.10 vs. 0.20–0.30	0.55 (0.78)	-0.09 (0.07)	0.06 (0.07)	-0.02 (0.05)
0.10–0.15 vs. 0.20–0.30	-1.16 (0.64)	0.04 (0.06)	0.06 (0.05)	0.07 (0.04)
0.15–0.20 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.45 (0.58)	-0.00 (0.05)	-0.02 (0.04)	-0.05 (0.04)

Notes: Each row is one near/far ring pair: the baseline (row 1), the far ring moved out (rows 2–3), the near ring widened (rows 4–6), and an outer ring in place of the near ring (rows 7–9). Windows: homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months. $N = 242{,}815$.

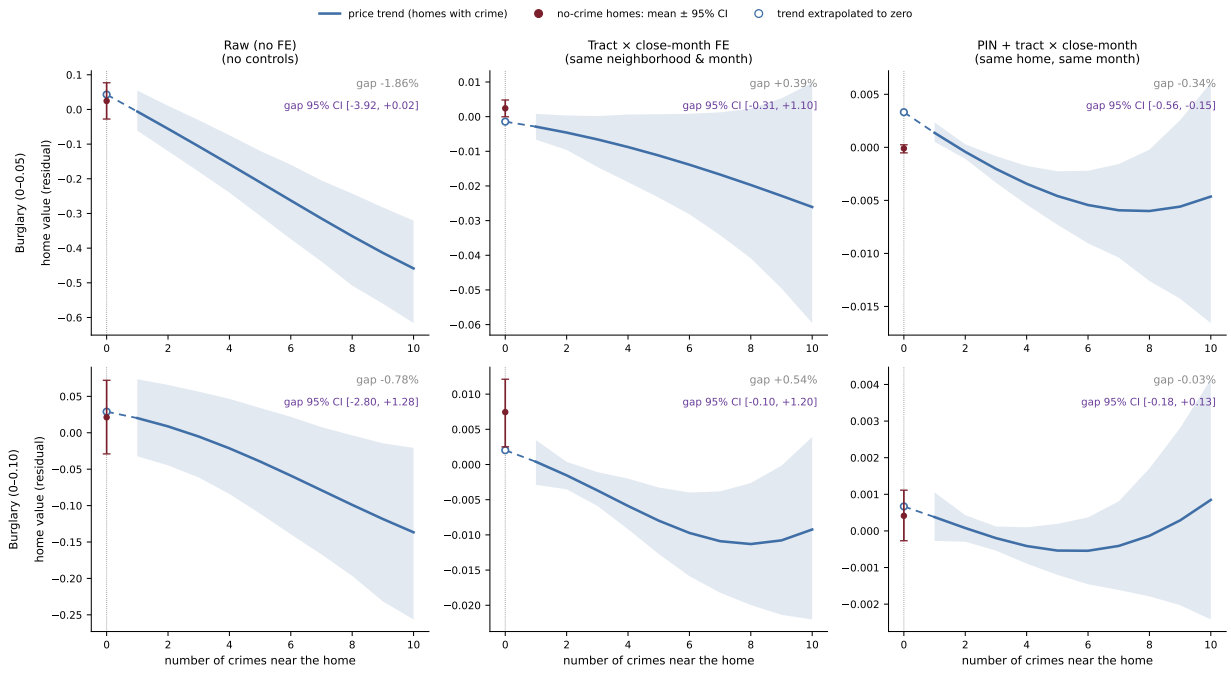


Figure A1: Burglary: Boundary Diagnostic at Two Near Rings

Notes. Top row: near ring 0–0.05 miles; bottom row: 0–0.10 miles. Columns add fixed effects from left to right; the right column is the baseline design (parcel and tract×close-month fixed effects). Blue: price trend for homes with nearby burglary; red: homes with none (mean and 95 percent interval); open circle: the trend extrapolated to zero. The gap shown in each panel is the mean residual price of no-crime homes minus the fitted trend extrapolated to zero; the formal test is the boundary-dummy coefficient in Table OA26 (−0.98, s.e. 0.32 at 0–0.05 miles; −0.06, s.e. 0.27 at 0–0.10 miles). Fewer than one home in ten (9 percent) has more than five incidents within 0.10 miles, so the trend beyond that point is imprecise.

Table A3: Sale-Price Capitalization, All Twenty-Two Estimable Offenses

Offense	Identifying parcels	Sig. discount windows	Min δ (s.e.) [mo]	Max δ (s.e.) [mo]
Priced				
Homicide	5,701	2/12	-5.86^{*} (3.35) [1]	-1.24 (1.43) [8]
Narcotics	53,844	5/12	-0.93 (0.75) [1]	-0.18 (0.19) [6]
Burglary	88,094	6/12	-0.34^{**} (0.14) [6]	-0.18^{*} (0.09) [12]
Vandalism	104,661	2/12	-0.17^{**} (0.08) [6]	0.26 (0.22) [1]
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	19,550	1/12	-1.33^{*} (0.78) [2]	-0.46 (0.54) [4]
Sex offenses	36,393	1/12	-0.47^{**} (0.23) [12]	0.11 (0.35) [3]
Precise nulls				
Theft	115,548	0/12	0.01 (0.02) [12]	0.08^{***} (0.03) [1]
Motor vehicle theft	85,781	0/12	-0.02 (0.09) [12]	0.51^{*} (0.30) [1]
Assault (non-dom.)	91,783	0/12	-0.05 (0.06) [7]	0.01 (0.11) [3]
Bad checks	8,919	0/12	0.66^{*} (0.35) [11]	2.20^{**} (1.03) [1]
Family (nonviol.)	15,928	0/12	1.00^{*} (0.51) [12]	2.16^{***} (0.82) [5]
Fraud	67,030	0/12	-0.36 (0.23) [1]	-0.04 (0.09) [6]
Assault (domestic)	90,500	0/12	-0.19^{*} (0.10) [12]	0.02 (0.15) [5]
Trespass	54,025	0/12	-0.15 (0.14) [6]	0.18 (0.22) [3]
Robbery	65,876	0/12	-0.06 (0.14) [9]	0.30 (0.42) [1]
Forgery	23,614	0/12	-0.07 (0.59) [1]	0.47 (0.45) [2]
Liquor	6,393	0/12	0.08 (1.20) [1]	1.34 (0.91) [2]
Prostitution	6,326	0/12	-1.00 (0.82) [1]	0.08 (0.12) [12]
Inconclusive				
Weapons	32,294	0/12	-0.62 (0.47) [5]	0.11 (0.58) [3]
Arson	6,116	0/12	-0.20 (1.06) [11]	1.27 (3.58) [1]
Gambling	3,125	0/12	-4.77 (4.33) [3]	1.99 (8.32) [1]
Stolen property	1,262	0/12	-2.23 (2.63) [2]	0.81 (1.20) [8]

Notes. All twenty-two estimable offenses under the specification of Table 2; kidnapping, embezzlement, extortion, child pornography, and other offenses have too few incidents to estimate and are excluded; columns as there, with Min δ and Max δ the most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows; offense groups as in Table 2: *priced*, a significant discount at two or more windows; *suggestive*, a significant discount at only one window; *precise nulls*, no significant discount and intervals that rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; *inconclusive*, no significant discount but intervals too wide to rule out a one-percent discount. Sig. discount windows counts windows with a significantly negative estimate at five percent, so positive significant estimates (bad checks, family offenses) count as zero.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A4: Sale-Price Capitalization at All Twelve Exposure Windows

	Exposure window (cumulative months)											
Offense	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Priced												
Homicide	−5.86*	−2.23	−1.45	−2.04	−1.28	−1.30	−1.59	−1.24	−2.54*	−3.02**	−3.15**	−2.49*
	(3.35)	(2.60)	(2.46)	(2.05)	(1.82)	(1.77)	(1.53)	(1.43)	(1.36)	(1.38)	(1.38)	(1.36)
Narcotics	−0.93	−0.37	−0.35	−0.32	−0.28	−0.18	−0.20	−0.38**	−0.31**	−0.29**	−0.35***	−0.33***
	(0.75)	(0.42)	(0.38)	(0.27)	(0.23)	(0.19)	(0.17)	(0.18)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.11)
Burglary	−0.20	−0.23	−0.20	−0.21	−0.25*	−0.34**	−0.30**	−0.24**	−0.22**	−0.22**	−0.22**	−0.18*
	(0.31)	(0.20)	(0.17)	(0.16)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.09)
Vandalism	0.26	0.13	−0.06	−0.11	−0.16*	−0.17**	−0.16**	−0.13*	−0.10	−0.08	−0.06	−0.05
	(0.22)	(0.15)	(0.12)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.07)	(0.07)	(0.07)	(0.06)	(0.06)
Suggestive												
Disorderly conduct	−1.22	−1.33*	−0.65	−0.46	−0.71	−0.66	−0.58	−0.50	−0.63*	−0.60*	−0.57*	−0.65**
	(1.03)	(0.78)	(0.63)	(0.54)	(0.48)	(0.44)	(0.38)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.32)	(0.29)	(0.29)
Sex offenses	−0.08	0.10	0.11	−0.02	−0.29	−0.31	−0.25	−0.20	−0.26	−0.39	−0.43*	−0.47**
	(0.64)	(0.42)	(0.35)	(0.32)	(0.31)	(0.27)	(0.26)	(0.25)	(0.25)	(0.25)	(0.24)	(0.23)
Precise nulls												
Larceny/theft	0.08***	0.04*	0.04*	0.03**	0.03*	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.02	0.01	0.01
	(0.03)	(0.02)	(0.02)	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.01)	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.02)	(0.02)
Motor vehicle theft	0.51*	0.28	0.17	0.10	0.05	0.04	0.09	0.09	0.05	0.06	0.07	−0.02
	(0.30)	(0.22)	(0.18)	(0.16)	(0.14)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.09)
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.05	−0.02	0.01	−0.03	−0.04	−0.04	−0.05	−0.03	−0.02	−0.01	−0.03	−0.04
	(0.20)	(0.14)	(0.11)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.07)	(0.06)	(0.06)	(0.05)	(0.05)	(0.04)	(0.04)
Bad checks	2.20**	2.00***	1.36**	1.38**	1.09**	1.18***	1.08**	0.97**	0.77*	0.72**	0.66*	0.66**
	(1.03)	(0.74)	(0.61)	(0.57)	(0.53)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.39)	(0.37)	(0.35)	(0.33)
Family (non-violent)	1.99	1.07	1.16	1.68*	2.16***	1.77**	1.89***	1.68***	1.49**	1.28**	1.07*	1.00*
	(1.87)	(1.33)	(1.09)	(0.92)	(0.82)	(0.75)	(0.66)	(0.62)	(0.60)	(0.57)	(0.55)	(0.51)
Fraud	−0.36	−0.29*	−0.11	−0.07	−0.06	−0.04	−0.05	−0.05	−0.05	−0.08	−0.11	−0.11
	(0.23)	(0.17)	(0.12)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)
Assault (domestic)	0.02	0.00	−0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	−0.03	−0.09	−0.17	−0.13	−0.18*	−0.19*
	(0.37)	(0.26)	(0.21)	(0.17)	(0.15)	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.10)
Trespass	−0.09	0.16	0.18	0.00	−0.10	−0.15	−0.14	−0.12	−0.06	−0.05	−0.09	−0.14
	(0.38)	(0.29)	(0.22)	(0.18)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.10)
Robbery	0.30	0.15	0.09	0.08	0.04	0.02	−0.02	−0.03	−0.06	−0.01	0.01	−0.03
	(0.42)	(0.30)	(0.24)	(0.22)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.16)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.13)	(0.13)
Forgery	−0.07	0.47	0.12	0.15	0.05	0.38	0.44*	0.39*	0.30	0.30*	0.23	0.21
	(0.59)	(0.45)	(0.38)	(0.32)	(0.28)	(0.24)	(0.22)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.18)	(0.17)
Liquor law	0.08	1.34	0.71	0.72	0.47	0.39	0.61	0.65	0.64*	0.51	0.36	0.36
	(1.20)	(0.91)	(0.81)	(0.60)	(0.52)	(0.48)	(0.43)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.36)	(0.35)	(0.35)
Prostitution	−1.00	−0.43	−0.23	−0.23	−0.18	−0.28	−0.14	−0.04	0.01	0.01	0.05	0.08
	(0.82)	(0.51)	(0.48)	(0.39)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.30)	(0.27)	(0.22)	(0.18)	(0.15)	(0.12)
Inconclusive												
Weapons	−0.47	0.07	0.11	−0.51	−0.62	−0.39	−0.18	−0.12	−0.17	0.04	0.09	0.10
	(0.92)	(0.71)	(0.58)	(0.48)	(0.47)	(0.44)	(0.40)	(0.37)	(0.35)	(0.31)	(0.30)	(0.28)
Arson	1.27	0.32	0.27	0.10	−0.13	0.07	1.07	0.57	−0.15	−0.13	−0.20	0.07
	(3.58)	(2.75)	(2.33)	(2.01)	(1.78)	(1.63)	(1.49)	(1.31)	(1.22)	(1.15)	(1.06)	(1.03)
Gambling	1.99	1.69	−4.77	−1.39	−1.35	−0.76	−1.17	−3.04	−2.84	−2.91*	−1.79	−1.94
	(8.32)	(5.78)	(4.33)	(3.99)	(3.39)	(3.12)	(2.74)	(2.43)	(2.10)	(1.75)	(1.77)	(1.75)
Stolen property	−2.23	−2.23	−1.78	−2.02	−1.14	−0.67	0.26	0.81	0.08	0.19	−0.25	−0.43
	(4.06)	(2.63)	(2.18)	(1.95)	(1.83)	(1.75)	(1.59)	(1.20)	(1.06)	(1.02)	(1.05)	(1.05)

Notes. δ at every cumulative window from one to twelve months, under the specification of Table 2; offense groups as there: *priced*, a significant discount at two or more windows; *suggestive*, a significant discount at only one window; *precise nulls*, no significant discount and intervals that rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; *inconclusive*, no significant discount but intervals too wide to rule out a one-percent discount. Covers the twenty-two estimable categories, including the white-collar offenses, prostitution, gambling, and stolen property. Standard errors in parentheses.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A5: Where the Discount Comes From: Private versus Public Incidents

Offense	Private (residential)	Public (street)	p: priv.=pub.	Windows sig.	N
Homicide	-0.41	-4.59^{***}	0.137	1/12	242,815
	(2.39)	(1.68)			
Burglary	-0.25^{*}	-0.93	0.289	0/12	242,815
	(0.14)	(0.65)			
Narcotics	-0.28	-0.38^{**}	0.897	0/12	242,815
	(0.65)	(0.19)			
Vandalism	-0.56^{***}	-0.01	0.018^{**}	7/12	242,815
	(0.20)	(0.11)			

Notes. Near–far close-price effect (%) of each priced offense's near-ring count, split by whether the incident was recorded at a *residential* address (private: the dwelling and its garage, porch, yard, hallways, and stairwells), in *public space* (street and other public way), or at a commercial address; residential, street, and commercial incidents are entered jointly in one regression under parcel fixed effects, and the commercial estimates are reported in Appendix Table A7. Pooled 2007–2025, parcel and tract×month fixed effects, near 0–0.05 vs. far 0.20–0.30 mi; standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses. Estimates at each offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months); "Windows sig." counts, of the twelve exposure windows, how many reject private=public at five percent. $N = 242{,}815$.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

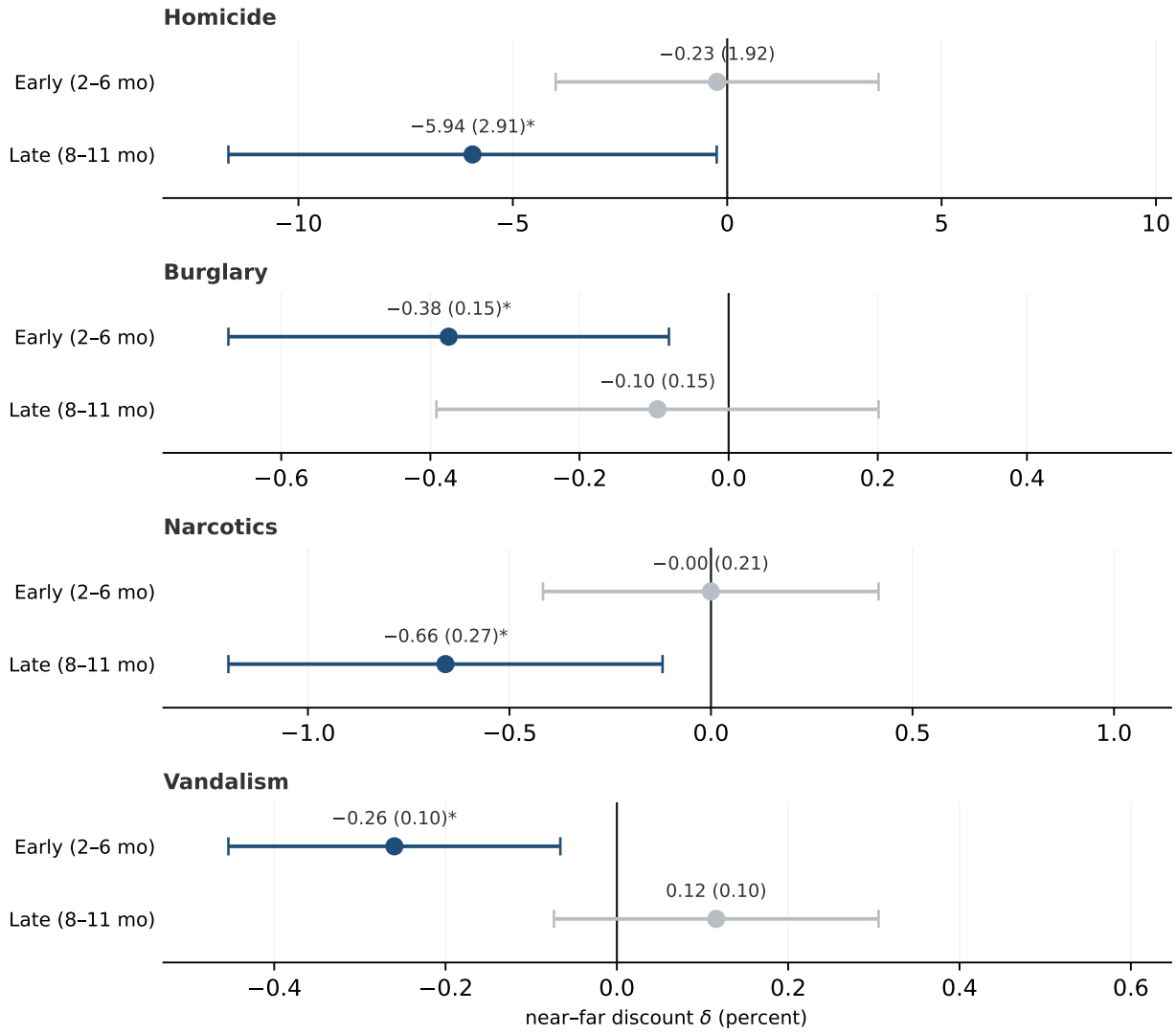


Figure A2: Early versus late exposure, estimated jointly. For each priced offense, the near–far discount δ (%) from one regression that enters an early block (incidents two to six months before the sale) and a late block (eight to eleven months before) as separate counts, each with its far-ring counterpart and separate controls for the omitted months (one, seven, twelve). The two points in each panel are the early-block and late-block estimates (significant at five percent in colour, otherwise grey), shown with 95% confidence intervals and the estimate and standard error beside each point; each panel has its own horizontal scale. The Wald test that the early and late coefficients are equal gives $p = 0.121$ (homicide), 0.200 (burglary), 0.090 (narcotics), and 0.008 (vandalism), so the early and late estimates are individually distinguishable only for vandalism. Parcel and tract×year-month fixed effects, clustered by census tract, $N = 242{,}815$.

Table A6: Residential versus Street Incidents by Exposure Window, Priced Offenses

Panel A

	Homicide			Narcotics		
Window	Residential	Street	p	Residential	Street	p
1	0.19	−8.29*	0.227	−2.61	−0.65	0.447
	(5.62)	(4.29)		(2.63)	(0.81)	
2	3.47	−4.75	0.099	−1.10	−0.26	0.647
	(3.97)	(3.42)		(1.69)	(0.50)	
3	0.80	−2.23	0.526	−1.16	−0.26	0.520
	(3.36)	(3.47)		(1.25)	(0.46)	
4	−0.58	−2.67	0.624	−0.22	−0.30	0.948
	(2.92)	(2.93)		(1.09)	(0.35)	
5	−0.10	−1.72	0.678	−0.70	−0.22	0.647
	(2.64)	(2.65)		(0.92)	(0.30)	
6	0.81	−2.33	0.410	−0.34	−0.16	0.843
	(2.72)	(2.50)		(0.82)	(0.25)	
7	0.79	−2.83	0.297	−0.08	−0.24	0.853
	(2.50)	(2.17)		(0.75)	(0.21)	
8	1.93	−2.89	0.136	−0.14	−0.47**	0.679
	(2.47)	(1.95)		(0.71)	(0.22)	
9	0.35	−4.22**	0.106	−0.24	−0.39**	0.851
	(2.31)	(1.73)		(0.70)	(0.19)	
10	**−0.41**	**−4.59*****	**0.137**	**−0.28**	**−0.38****	**0.897**
	(2.39)	(1.68)		(0.65)	(0.19)	
11	0.00	−5.04***	0.080	−0.32	−0.43**	0.879
	(2.48)	(1.64)		(0.62)	(0.17)	
12	1.16	−4.53***	0.046	−0.62	−0.35**	0.677
	(2.43)	(1.65)		(0.58)	(0.14)	
Sig. windows	0/12	4/12	1/12	0/12	5/12	0/12

Panel B

	Vandalism			Burglary		
Window	Residential	Street	p	Residential	Street	p
1	−0.02	0.39	0.495	−0.21	1.72	0.216
	(0.53)	(0.27)		(0.41)	(1.47)	
2	−0.20	0.29	0.270	−0.30	0.36	0.520
	(0.38)	(0.19)		(0.27)	(1.00)	
3	−0.35	0.07	0.238	−0.19	−0.09	0.916
	(0.31)	(0.15)		(0.22)	(0.89)	
4	−0.37	−0.01	0.182	−0.22	−0.51	0.712
	(0.24)	(0.13)		(0.20)	(0.78)	
5	−0.45**	−0.03	0.090	−0.25	−0.33	0.925
	(0.21)	(0.12)		(0.18)	(0.74)	
6	**−0.56*****	**−0.01**	**0.018**	−0.37**	−0.55	0.810
	(0.20)	(0.11)		(0.16)	(0.72)	
7	−0.62***	0.05	0.002	−0.31**	−0.86	0.425
	(0.18)	(0.10)		(0.15)	(0.69)	
8	−0.61***	0.08	0.001	**−0.25***	**−0.93**	**0.289**
	(0.18)	(0.09)		(0.14)	(0.65)	
9	−0.53***	0.09	0.002	−0.25*	−0.86	0.340
	(0.17)	(0.08)		(0.13)	(0.63)	
10	−0.51***	0.11	0.001	−0.28**	−0.92	0.317
	(0.16)	(0.08)		(0.12)	(0.64)	
11	−0.45***	0.11	0.002	−0.29**	−0.87	0.340
	(0.16)	(0.08)		(0.12)	(0.60)	
12	−0.47***	0.13*	0.000	−0.24**	−0.88	0.287
	(0.15)	(0.07)		(0.11)	(0.59)	
Sig. windows	8/12	0/12	7/12	5/12	0/12	0/12

Notes. Window-by-window version of Table A5: near–far close-price effect (%) per incident of residential and street (public-space) incidents, estimated jointly with commercial incidents in one regression, at every exposure window 1–12 months before the sale; standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses. p: Wald test that the residential and street effects are equal. Each offense's main window is in **bold**. "Sig. windows" counts windows significant at five percent. Pooled 2007–2025, parcel and tract×month fixed effects, $N = 242{,}815$. The pooled residential burglary estimate is matched by post-sale crime (Table 3 note); the frontage–interior split in Table 3 is the relevant test for burglary.

*$p < 0.10$, **$p < 0.05$, ***$p < 0.01$.

Table A7: Incident-Location Split, All Estimable Offenses

Offense	Residential	Street	Commercial	p res=str	p str=com	p all eq.	N
Homicide	−0.41	−4.59***	−0.77	0.137	0.247	0.269	242,815
	(2.39)	(1.68)	(2.76)				
Burglary	−0.25*	−0.93	0.00	0.289	0.151	0.243	242,815
	(0.14)	(0.65)	(0.16)				
Narcotics	−0.28	−0.38**	−0.10	0.897	0.766	0.951	242,815
	(0.65)	(0.19)	(0.91)				
Vandalism	−0.56***	−0.01	−0.23	0.018**	0.338	0.054*	242,815
	(0.20)	(0.11)	(0.20)				
Theft	−0.03	0.04***	0.00	0.326	0.040**	0.105	242,815
	(0.07)	(0.01)	(0.02)				
Motor-vehicle theft	0.86**	−0.04	−0.62	0.042**	0.308	0.069*	242,815
	(0.42)	(0.09)	(0.56)				
Robbery	0.47	−0.06	−0.06	0.480	0.994	0.777	242,815
	(0.75)	(0.15)	(0.21)				
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.28*	0.01	0.03	0.110	0.849	0.219	242,815
	(0.16)	(0.08)	(0.07)				
Assault (dom.)	−0.26**	0.04	0.10	0.296	0.892	0.453	242,815
	(0.12)	(0.24)	(0.35)				
Disorderly conduct	−1.58*	−0.21	−0.85	0.145	0.625	0.340	242,815
	(0.84)	(0.41)	(1.09)				
Trespass	−0.43**	−0.24	0.09	0.478	0.210	0.071*	242,815
	(0.19)	(0.21)	(0.14)				
Prostitution	0.80	0.02	0.27	0.612	0.294	0.551	242,815
	(1.54)	(0.16)	(0.18)				
Fraud	−0.40***	0.24	0.02	0.010**	0.324	0.007***	242,815
	(0.15)	(0.24)	(0.08)				
Sex offenses	−0.64**	−0.05	−0.71	0.284	0.305	0.498	242,815
	(0.32)	(0.47)	(0.47)				
Forgery	−0.39	0.39	0.95***	0.155	0.289	0.044**	242,815
	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.29)				
Weapons	−1.10	0.19	1.54	0.311	0.338	0.376	242,815
	(1.21)	(0.28)	(1.37)				
Arson	−1.90	2.21	2.52	0.072*	0.897	0.164	242,815
	(1.96)	(1.40)	(1.95)				
Stolen property	−0.82	−1.58	1.93	0.858	0.093*	0.231	242,815
	(3.81)	(1.60)	(1.51)				
Liquor	3.24	0.60	0.31	0.408	0.812	0.601	242,815
	(2.94)	(1.14)	(0.36)				
Gambling	−5.64	−1.69	−1.95	0.706	0.957	0.931	242,815
	(9.72)	(2.03)	(4.27)				
Bad checks	0.76	2.40	0.41	0.605	0.533	0.768	242,815
	(0.62)	(3.14)	(0.44)				
Family offenses	1.00	0.78	2.36	0.879	0.484	0.742	242,815
	(0.68)	(1.26)	(1.68)				

Notes. Three-category incident-location split (residential / street / commercial) for all 22 estimable offenses, at each priced offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6) and a 12-month window otherwise; entered jointly, pooled 2007–2025, parcel and tract×month fixed effects, standard errors clustered by tract. The last three columns are Wald p-values that residential equals street, that street equals commercial, and that all three are equal. This three-category detail underlies the private/public summary in Table A5. $N = 242{,}815$.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A8: Forecast of Future Near-Ring Crime by Incident Location, All Windows

	Homicide		Burglary		Narcotics		Vandalism	
Win.	Res	St.	Res	St.	Res	St.	Res	St.
1	0.000	0.000	0.032	0.015	0.007	0.099	0.020	0.021
2	0.000	0.001	0.069	0.024	0.014	0.156	0.050	0.049
3	0.000	0.002	0.100	0.029	0.023	0.186	0.079	0.073
4	0.000	0.003	0.126	0.033	0.029	0.205	0.104	0.093
5	0.000	0.004	0.149	0.035	0.036	0.218	0.127	0.109
6	0.000	0.005	0.169	0.037	0.042	0.232	0.148	0.125
7	0.000	0.006	0.189	0.038	0.049	0.241	0.167	0.141
8	0.000	0.008	0.208	0.037	0.054	0.251	0.185	0.155
9	0.000	0.009	0.226	0.036	0.060	0.258	0.200	0.168
10	0.001	0.011	0.240	0.034	0.066	0.263	0.214	0.178
11	0.001	0.012	0.253	0.033	0.071	0.267	0.227	0.188
12	0.001	0.014	0.265	0.031	0.077	0.271	0.238	0.196

Notes. Forecast R^2 from regressing future near-ring crime (0–0.05 mi, after the sale) on past surrounding crime (far ring 0.20–0.30 mi, before the sale), estimated separately for residential (Res) and street (St.) incidents, no fixed effects (the informational benchmark available to a buyer at sale), all geocoded closed MLS sales before the constant-parcel and repeat-sales filters, $N = 923{,}730$, at each exposure window (Win., months). For *vandalism*, residential and street incidents forecast future near-ring crime comparably at six months, yet only residential vandalism is priced, so the capitalization difference cannot reflect a difference in objective recurrence. Homicide and narcotics forecast from the street and burglary from residential incidents, as expected from where those offenses physically occur.

Table A9: Vandalism by Target: Damage to Property versus Vehicle

	Exposure window (months before sale)											
	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Panel A. Parcel + tract×year-month fixed effects (baseline)												
Damage to property	0.85	1.06	0.80	0.22	0.03	−0.49	−0.89**	−0.95**	−0.91**	−1.03***	−0.92**	−0.89***
	(1.12)	(0.83)	(0.63)	(0.58)	(0.51)	(0.47)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.39)	(0.36)	(0.34)
Damage to vehicle	0.70	0.89	0.50	0.33	0.20	0.21	0.05	−0.07	−0.13	−0.08	−0.09	0.02
	(0.93)	(0.67)	(0.56)	(0.53)	(0.48)	(0.45)	(0.42)	(0.40)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.37)	(0.34)
Property = vehicle (p)	0.916	0.874	0.724	0.896	0.818	0.298	0.143	0.142	0.168	0.078	0.102	0.057
Panel B. Parcel×era + tract×year-month fixed effects												
Damage to property	−0.23	2.49*	1.17	0.02	0.33	0.11	−0.59	−0.65	−0.66	−1.22*	−0.99	−0.91
	(1.97)	(1.47)	(1.17)	(1.02)	(0.92)	(0.80)	(0.73)	(0.68)	(0.64)	(0.62)	(0.60)	(0.56)
Damage to vehicle	0.52	0.29	0.11	0.16	0.20	−0.09	−0.30	−0.37	−0.62	−0.80*	−0.86*	−0.81*
	(1.20)	(0.80)	(0.65)	(0.67)	(0.65)	(0.60)	(0.56)	(0.52)	(0.53)	(0.48)	(0.46)	(0.42)
Property = vehicle (p)	0.759	0.208	0.447	0.914	0.918	0.849	0.764	0.753	0.962	0.602	0.869	0.895

Notes. Full twelve-window version of Table 3, Panel B: vandalism frontage incidents split by target, damage to the property versus damage to a vehicle, each as its own near–far difference $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$ in one regression, pooled 2007–2025, clustered by tract; standard errors below the estimates. The "Property = vehicle" row is the Wald p-value for equality of the two arms. *Panel A* is the baseline design (parcel and tract×year-month fixed effects, $N = 242{,}815$). *Panel B* absorbs parcel×era instead of parcel ($N = 123{,}133$), which drops parcels that do not resell within an era.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A10: Crime Recurrence and Capitalization

Offense	Recurrence ρ (parcel + tract FE)	ρ, no parcel FE	δ (Table 2) [mo]
Homicide†	-0.026^{**}	0.070^{***}	-3.02^{**} [10]
	(0.012)	(0.006)	(1.38)
Burglary†	0.067^{***}	0.362^{***}	-0.24^{**} [8]
	(0.009)	(0.011)	(0.12)
Narcotics†	0.397^{***}	0.685^{***}	-0.29^{**} [10]
	(0.038)	(0.013)	(0.14)
Vandalism†	0.093^{***}	0.389^{***}	-0.17^{**} [6]
	(0.018)	(0.013)	(0.08)
Theft	0.237	–	0.01 [12]
	(0.158)		(0.02)
Motor-vehicle theft	0.140^{***}	–	-0.02 [12]
	(0.031)		(0.09)
Robbery	0.038^{***}	–	-0.03 [12]
	(0.012)		(0.13)
Assault (non-domestic)	0.280^{***}	–	-0.04 [12]
	(0.029)		(0.04)
Assault (domestic)	0.118^{***}	–	-0.19^{*} [12]
	(0.012)		(0.10)
All crime	0.314^{***}	–	–
	(0.113)		

Notes. Own-recurrence ρ of near-ring crime: the 0–0.05 mi incident count over the window *after* the sale regressed on the count over the matching window *before*, standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses; $N = 242{,}815$. For the four priced offenses ρ is measured over the same exposure window as δ (homicide and narcotics ten months, burglary eight, vandalism six; shown in the δ bracket); for the remaining offenses ρ is measured over six months and δ is shown at the twelve-month window (Appendix Table A4). The first ρ column uses parcel and tract × sale-month fixed effects; the second omits parcel fixed effects and is shown for the priced offenses. Parcel fixed effects bias ρ toward zero in short panels, whereas the no-fixed-effect estimate includes permanent level differences across properties and overstates recurrence, so the two bracket the within-parcel persistence; for homicide the within-parcel estimate is slightly negative while the no-fixed-effect estimate is positive. $\rho > 0$ means the offense recurs at the same property. δ is each offense's near–far close-price discount at its main window (Table 2; window length in brackets), unpriced offenses at the twelve-month reference window. †Priced offenses.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A11: Rational Forecast: The Discount Does Not Track Forecastable Risk

	0–6 months		0–12 months	
Offense	Joint F	Partial R^2	Joint F	Partial R^2
Homicide†	127.3^{***}	0.004	237.0^{***}	0.009
Burglary†	1580.8^{***}	0.047	1871.1^{***}	0.062
Narcotics†	411.1^{***}	0.038	251.5^{***}	0.037
Vandalism†	711.6^{***}	0.045	627.5^{***}	0.054
Theft	6.8^{***}	0.035	9.1^{***}	0.017
Motor-vehicle theft	789.0^{***}	0.047	721.1^{***}	0.052
Robbery	357.2^{***}	0.045	365.8^{***}	0.060
Assault (non-dom.)	103.6^{***}	0.030	99.3^{***}	0.025
Assault (domestic)	696.5^{***}	0.062	497.1^{***}	0.058
Arson	80.3^{***}	0.001	204.3^{***}	0.002
Bad checks	27.4^{***}	0.002	34.0^{***}	0.005
Disorderly conduct	129.5^{***}	0.012	132.0^{***}	0.020
Family offenses	109.4^{***}	0.002	148.8^{***}	0.004
Forgery	82.3^{***}	0.012	91.1^{***}	0.018
Fraud	102.1^{***}	0.087	75.4^{***}	0.075
Gambling	170.2^{***}	0.013	261.6^{***}	0.029
Liquor	30.3^{***}	0.001	34.5^{***}	0.003
Prostitution	18.0^{***}	0.007	10.9^{***}	0.007
Sex offenses	75.8^{***}	0.008	45.2^{***}	0.014
Stolen property	3.2^{*}	0.000	5.8^{**}	0.000
Trespass	22.4^{***}	0.019	20.2^{***}	0.022
Weapons	251.0^{***}	0.054	348.9^{***}	0.067

Notes. Estimated without fixed effects. Outcome: crime within 0.05 miles after the sale. Predictor: crime 0.20–0.30 miles away before the sale, controlling for the near ring's own prior crime. Windows: 0–6 and 0–12 months. F tests that the far-ring term is zero; partial R^2 is the share of the remaining variation the far ring explains. A predictive benchmark, not a causal estimate.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. † priced offense.

Table A12: Agent Experience Gradient on Price

Offense	Discount (mean agent)	Experience gradient (per SD) no agent FE	agent FE	Sig. windows (noFE/FE)
A. Asking price (listing agent)				
Narcotics	−0.01 (0.04)	-0.15^{***}	-0.09^{**}	9/7
		(0.05)	(0.04)	
Vandalism	0.02 (0.03)	-0.11^{***}	-0.07^{**}	8/3
		(0.03)	(0.03)	
Homicide	0.18 (0.59)	−0.82	-1.01^{**}	0/7
		(0.63)	(0.49)	
Burglary	−0.05 (0.10)	−0.04	0.02	0/0
		(0.11)	(0.08)	
B. Closing price (buyer's agent)				
Homicide	−0.94 (0.79)	−0.01	-1.93^{**}	0/6
		(1.70)	(0.89)	
Narcotics	−0.09 (0.12)	-0.52^{**}	0.13	3/0
		(0.25)	(0.15)	
Vandalism	−0.13 (0.11)	−0.04	0.10	0/0
		(0.17)	(0.15)	
Burglary	−0.07 (0.08)	0.25^{*}	0.12	0/0
		(0.15)	(0.13)	

Notes. Gradient per standard deviation of agent experience ($E = \ln(1 +$ prior same-agent same-tract listings), s.d. 1.20), each offense at its main window. Panel A: listing agent, asking price. Panel B: buyer's agent, closing price. Discount: near–far effect at mean experience. Gradients are estimated without and with agent fixed effects; Sig. windows counts significant windows of twelve, without/with. Sample: listings with an agent identifier.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A13: Agent Local versus Total Experience, All Twenty-Two Offenses

Offense	Window	Local experience gradient (s.e.)	Total experience gradient (s.e.)	Sig. windows local / total
Panel A. Listing agent, asking price (N = 972,629)				
Priced				
Homicide	10	−0.79** (0.35)	−0.45 (0.48)	1/12 / 3/12
Burglary	8	0.02 (0.04)	−0.06 (0.09)	0/12 / 0/12
Narcotics	10	−0.02 (0.03)	−0.21*** (0.05)	0/12 / 12/12
Vandalism	6	−0.04 (0.03)	0.04 (0.04)	3/12 / 0/12
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	12	−0.02 (0.10)	−0.22 (0.18)	0/12 / 0/12
Sex offenses	12	−0.04 (0.06)	−0.15* (0.09)	0/12 / 0/12
Precise nulls				
Theft	12	−0.01 (0.00)	0.00 (0.01)	0/12 / 0/12
Motor vehicle theft	12	0.00 (0.02)	0.04 (0.05)	0/12 / 0/12
Robbery	12	−0.17*** (0.04)	0.00 (0.06)	9/12 / 1/12
Assault (non-domestic)	12	−0.05*** (0.01)	−0.04* (0.02)	7/12 / 2/12
Assault (domestic)	12	−0.06** (0.03)	−0.01 (0.04)	7/12 / 0/12
Criminal trespass	12	0.03 (0.03)	−0.06 (0.05)	0/12 / 0/12
Fraud	12	−0.05** (0.02)	0.05 (0.04)	9/12 / 0/12
Prostitution	12	−0.06** (0.03)	0.30** (0.15)	1/12 / 5/12
Forgery	12	−0.14 (0.09)	−0.02 (0.08)	0/12 / 1/12
Family offenses	12	−0.01 (0.15)	−0.20 (0.31)	0/12 / 0/12
Bad checks	12	−0.12 (0.10)	−0.17 (0.22)	0/12 / 0/12
Liquor law	12	−0.10 (0.13)	−0.14 (0.22)	0/12 / 0/12
Inconclusive				
Weapons	12	0.10* (0.06)	0.04 (0.11)	0/12 / 0/12
Arson	12	0.03 (0.30)	0.03 (0.41)	0/12 / 1/12
Gambling	12	−0.65 (0.49)	−0.11 (0.73)	0/12 / 0/12
Stolen property	12	−0.41 (0.43)	0.33 (0.58)	0/12 / 0/12
Panel B. Buyer's agent, closing price (N = 186,510)				
Priced				
Homicide	10	−1.99** (0.86)	0.41 (0.46)	5/12 / 0/12
Burglary	8	0.15 (0.12)	−0.07 (0.05)	2/12 / 1/12
Narcotics	10	0.10 (0.11)	−0.05 (0.07)	1/12 / 0/12
Vandalism	6	0.15* (0.08)	−0.01 (0.05)	1/12 / 0/12
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	12	−0.64*** (0.20)	0.26* (0.16)	5/12 / 0/12
Sex offenses	12	−0.01 (0.14)	0.05 (0.11)	0/12 / 0/12
Precise nulls				
Theft	12	0.01* (0.01)	−0.01*** (0.00)	1/12 / 11/12
Motor vehicle theft	12	−0.03 (0.08)	0.03 (0.03)	1/12 / 0/12
Robbery	12	0.12 (0.09)	−0.08 (0.05)	1/12 / 0/12
Assault (non-domestic)	12	0.03 (0.03)	−0.01 (0.01)	3/12 / 0/12
Assault (domestic)	12	−0.10* (0.06)	0.06* (0.04)	3/12 / 0/12
Criminal trespass	12	0.05 (0.07)	0.00 (0.05)	1/12 / 0/12
Fraud	12	0.03 (0.05)	−0.04 (0.03)	0/12 / 0/12
Prostitution	12	−0.15* (0.09)	0.03 (0.24)	0/12 / 0/12
Forgery	12	−0.09 (0.13)	−0.15 (0.11)	0/12 / 0/12
Family offenses	12	−0.10 (0.29)	0.40 (0.43)	0/12 / 0/12
Bad checks	12	−0.35 (0.28)	0.20 (0.18)	0/12 / 3/12
Liquor law	12	0.19 (0.51)	0.13 (0.27)	0/12 / 1/12
Inconclusive				
Weapons	12	0.07 (0.17)	0.03 (0.09)	0/12 / 0/12
Arson	12	2.74*** (1.01)	−0.97 (0.66)	7/12 / 1/12
Gambling	12	−0.65 (1.91)	−0.74 (0.82)	0/12 / 1/12
Stolen property	12	0.48 (1.39)	−0.55 (0.64)	0/12 / 0/12

Notes. Local experience E (prior same-agent listings in the tract) and total experience T (all prior listings) enter the same equation, each interacted with near and far exposure. Gradients are $(\text{near}\times E - \text{far}\times E)\times 100$ and $(\text{near}\times T - \text{far}\times T)\times 100$ per standard deviation, at each offense's main window; last column counts windows significant at five percent. Design as in Table 5. Correlation of E and T: 0.36 (listing), 0.37 (buyer).
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A14: Agent Local Experience, All Twenty-Two Offenses

		Listing agent, asking price				Buyer's agent, closing price			
		Local only		+ Total experience		Local only		+ Total experience	
Offense	Window	Gradient	Sig. windows	Gradient	Sig. windows	Gradient	Sig. windows	Gradient	Sig. windows
Priced									
Homicide	10	−0.97***	7/12	−0.79**	1/12	−1.61**	6/12	−1.99**	5/12
		(0.34)		(0.35)		(0.75)		(0.86)	
Burglary	8	0.00	0/12	0.02	0/12	0.09	1/12	0.15	2/12
		(0.04)		(0.04)		(0.10)		(0.12)	
Narcotics	10	−0.08***	7/12	−0.02	0/12	0.08	1/12	0.10	1/12
		(0.03)		(0.03)		(0.10)		(0.11)	
Vandalism	6	−0.03	3/12	−0.04	3/12	0.14**	2/12	0.15*	1/12
		(0.03)		(0.03)		(0.06)		(0.08)	
Suggestive									
Disorderly conduct	12	−0.07	0/12	−0.02	0/12	−0.47**	4/12	−0.64***	5/12
		(0.09)		(0.10)		(0.21)		(0.20)	
Sex offenses	12	−0.08	0/12	−0.04	0/12	0.03	0/12	−0.01	0/12
		(0.06)		(0.06)		(0.14)		(0.14)	
Precise nulls									
Theft	12	−0.01	0/12	−0.01	0/12	0.00	0/12	0.01*	1/12
		(0.00)		(0.00)		(0.01)		(0.01)	
Motor vehicle theft	12	0.02	1/12	0.00	0/12	0.00	4/12	−0.03	1/12
		(0.02)		(0.02)		(0.06)		(0.08)	
Robbery	12	−0.16***	10/12	−0.17***	9/12	0.03	0/12	0.12	1/12
		(0.04)		(0.04)		(0.07)		(0.09)	
Assault (non-domestic)	12	−0.07***	9/12	−0.05***	7/12	0.01	3/12	0.03	3/12
		(0.01)		(0.01)		(0.03)		(0.03)	
Assault (domestic)	12	−0.06**	8/12	−0.06**	7/12	−0.05	0/12	−0.10*	3/12
		(0.03)		(0.03)		(0.05)		(0.06)	
Criminal trespass	12	0.01	0/12	0.03	0/12	0.05	1/12	0.05	1/12
		(0.03)		(0.03)		(0.06)		(0.07)	
Fraud	12	−0.04**	9/12	−0.05**	9/12	0.01	0/12	0.03	0/12
		(0.02)		(0.02)		(0.04)		(0.05)	
Prostitution	12	−0.03	0/12	−0.06**	1/12	−0.13	1/12	−0.15*	0/12
		(0.03)		(0.03)		(0.08)		(0.09)	
Forgery	12	−0.14	0/12	−0.14	0/12	−0.21*	0/12	−0.09	0/12
		(0.09)		(0.09)		(0.12)		(0.13)	
Family offenses	12	−0.07	0/12	−0.01	0/12	0.11	0/12	−0.10	0/12
		(0.15)		(0.15)		(0.30)		(0.29)	
Bad checks	12	−0.15	2/12	−0.12	0/12	−0.25	0/12	−0.35	0/12
		(0.10)		(0.10)		(0.27)		(0.28)	
Liquor law	12	−0.13	0/12	−0.10	0/12	0.28	0/12	0.19	0/12
		(0.11)		(0.13)		(0.42)		(0.51)	
Inconclusive									
Weapons	12	0.11*	3/12	0.10*	0/12	0.11	0/12	0.07	0/12
		(0.06)		(0.06)		(0.08)		(0.17)	
Arson	12	0.05	0/12	0.03	0/12	1.93**	6/12	2.74***	7/12
		(0.29)		(0.30)		(0.84)		(1.01)	
Gambling	12	−1.00**	3/12	−0.65	0/12	−0.82	0/12	−0.65	0/12
		(0.49)		(0.49)		(1.80)		(1.91)	
Stolen property	12	−0.33	0/12	−0.41	0/12	0.12	0/12	0.48	0/12
		(0.39)		(0.43)		(1.16)		(1.39)	

Notes. Local-experience gradient, $(\text{near} \times E - \text{far} \times E) \times 100$, at each offense's main window, with standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses. E is the agent's prior listings in the same tract; "+ Total experience" adds the agent's total prior listings in any tract, interacted with near and far exposure. "Sig. windows" counts the exposure windows (of twelve) in which the local-experience gradient is significant at five percent, as in Table 2; every window is reported in Online Appendix Tables OA9 and OA10. Design as in Table 5: parcel, tract×month, and agent fixed effects; $N = 972{,}629$ listings (listing agent) and 186,510 sales (buyer's agent). Offense groups as in Table 2.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A15: Priced Offenses under Two Classifications

Offense	Priced	What is threatened	NIBRS crimes against
Homicide	Yes	Place (violent event)	Persons
Burglary	Yes	Dwelling	Property
Narcotics	Yes	Place (environment)	Society
Vandalism	Yes	Structure or land	Property
Disorderly conduct	Suggestive	Place (environment)	Group B (none)
Sex offenses	Suggestive	Person	Persons
Assault (domestic)	No	Person	Persons
Assault (non-domestic)	No	Person	Persons
Robbery	No	Person	Property
Theft	No	Portable asset	Property
Motor vehicle theft	No	Portable asset	Property
Stolen property	No	Portable asset	Property
Fraud	No	Financial	Property
Forgery	No	Financial	Property
Bad checks	No	Financial	Group B (none)
Arson	No	Structure or land	Property
Trespass	No	Structure or land	Group B (none)
Prostitution	No	Place (environment)	Society
Weapons	No	Place (environment)	Society
Gambling	No	Place (environment)	Society
Liquor law	No	Place (environment)	Group B (none)
Family offenses	No	Person	Group B (none)

Priced offenses by group

Anchored to the address: 4 of 11; harms a person, money, or a movable item: 0 of 11

NIBRS (Group A): persons 1 of 4; property 2 of 9; society 1 of 4; Group B offenses (5) have no crime-against category.

Notes. "What is threatened" follows Table OA14. "NIBRS crimes against" is the Federal Bureau of Investigation's National Incident-Based Reporting System category for each offense. "Priced" follows Table 2. NIBRS assigns a crime-against category only to Group A offenses.

Table A16: Crime During the Listing and Price Cuts

Offense	Last month	Since listing	Next month (placebo)
Priced			
Homicide	0.24	−0.22	0.06
	(0.35)	(0.20)	(0.34)
Narcotics	0.02	−0.02	−0.02
	(0.03)	(0.01)	(0.02)
Burglary	−0.10*	−0.03	−0.06
	(0.05)	(0.03)	(0.05)
Vandalism	−0.03	−0.03	−0.01
	(0.03)	(0.02)	(0.04)
Suggestive			
Disorderly conduct	0.00	−0.21	0.04
	(0.21)	(0.16)	(0.20)
Sex offenses	−0.18	−0.27**	0.00
	(0.15)	(0.13)	(0.14)
Precise nulls			
Theft	−0.01	−0.01	−0.01
	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.02)
Motor vehicle theft	0.00	−0.03	−0.07
	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.08**	−0.08***	−0.05
	(0.04)	(0.02)	(0.04)
Bad checks	0.06	−0.18	−0.17
	(0.23)	(0.21)	(0.22)
Family (nonviol.)	−0.25	−0.08	0.08
	(0.17)	(0.09)	(0.18)
Fraud	−0.04	−0.01	−0.07
	(0.08)	(0.05)	(0.07)
Assault (domestic)	0.04	0.00	0.00
	(0.04)	(0.02)	(0.04)
Trespass	−0.02	−0.02	−0.01
	(0.08)	(0.05)	(0.08)
Robbery	−0.06	−0.17***	0.00
	(0.07)	(0.05)	(0.07)
Forgery	−0.21	−0.16*	0.03
	(0.16)	(0.09)	(0.13)
Liquor	−0.52*	−0.12	−0.04
	(0.27)	(0.13)	(0.26)
Prostitution	−0.01	−0.04	−0.05
	(0.06)	(0.05)	(0.04)
Inconclusive			
Weapons	−0.24*	−0.29***	−0.15
	(0.13)	(0.07)	(0.12)
Arson	−0.14	−0.05	0.08
	(0.30)	(0.17)	(0.32)
Gambling	−0.31**	0.05	−0.21*
	(0.15)	(0.06)	(0.11)
Stolen property	−2.15**	−0.16	1.29
	(0.91)	(0.45)	(0.88)

Notes. One row per listing per month on the market, until the first price cut (dated from the MLS listing change history) or the end of the listing. The outcome is an indicator for a price cut in that month (mean $\approx 6.8\%$ per month); each cell is the near–far effect $(\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$ in percentage points, with tract × calendar-month and months-since-listing fixed effects, clustered by tract. "Last month" is crime in the month before; "Since listing" is crime from the listing date through the month before; "Next month" is crime in the *following* month, which the seller cannot yet observe (placebo). The change history begins in 2015, so the sample covers 2015–2025. Standard errors in parentheses.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A17: The Rental Market: Full Offense Battery

	PIN			PIN×era		
Offense	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)
A. Asking rent (percent)						
Priced (asking rent lower; identifying FE in note)						
Burglary	−0.34*** (0.12)	−0.07 (0.06)	6/12 (0)	−0.30** (0.12)	−0.04 (0.07)	1/12 (0)
Sex offenses	−0.29* (0.15)	−0.21* (0.13)	1/12 (0)	−0.32 (0.27)	−0.16 (0.14)	7/12 (0)
Liquor law	−0.23 (0.26)	−0.01 (0.13)	0/12 (0)	−0.30*** (0.07)	0.09 (0.49)	4/12 (0)
No consistent rent effect (near zero; prostitution's parcel×era minimum is significant at one window)						
Narcotics†	0.01 (0.06)	0.10 (0.08)	0/12 (0)	0.02 (0.17)	0.14 (0.09)	0/12 (4)
Vandalism	−0.06 (0.06)	0.05 (0.07)	0/12 (0)	−0.03 (0.04)	0.09 (0.07)	0/12 (1)
Larceny/theft†	−0.01** (0.00)	0.00 (0.01)	6/12 (2)	−0.02 (0.01)	0.00 (0.01)	0/12 (0)
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.06 (0.04)	−0.03 (0.02)	2/12 (0)	−0.05 (0.04)	−0.01 (0.02)	0/12 (0)
Motor-vehicle theft	−0.12 (0.08)	−0.01 (0.04)	0/12 (0)	−0.13 (0.09)	−0.01 (0.03)	0/12 (0)
Robbery	0.01 (0.04)	0.07 (0.06)	0/12 (0)	0.04 (0.05)	0.12 (0.11)	0/12 (0)
Assault (dom.)†	−0.03 (0.05)	0.02 (0.09)	0/12 (5)	−0.06 (0.11)	0.03 (0.08)	0/12 (0)
Fraud	−0.01 (0.04)	0.08 (0.06)	0/12 (0)	0.03 (0.04)	0.07*** (0.03)	0/12 (1)
Trespass	−0.17* (0.10)	0.01 (0.09)	0/12 (0)	−0.13 (0.10)	0.05 (0.10)	0/12 (0)
Forgery	−0.08 (0.15)	0.12 (0.10)	0/12 (0)	0.06 (0.16)	0.22 (0.16)	0/12 (0)
Prostitution	−0.16 (0.10)	0.00 (0.17)	0/12 (1)	−0.33*** (0.12)	−0.03 (0.14)	1/12 (0)
Imprecise / underpowered (too sparse near leases to sign)						
Homicide	−0.55 (0.61)	1.03 (1.20)	0/12 (0)	−0.59 (0.59)	1.16 (1.22)	0/12 (0)
Disorderly conduct	−0.40 (0.30)	0.15 (0.25)	0/12 (0)	−0.25 (0.16)	0.40 (0.29)	0/12 (0)
Weapons	0.02 (0.26)	0.17 (0.22)	0/12 (0)	−0.08 (0.23)	0.22 (0.22)	0/12 (0)
Arson	−0.21 (0.47)	0.20 (0.47)	0/12 (0)	−0.27 (0.43)	0.54 (0.85)	0/12 (0)
Bad checks†	−0.03 (0.18)	0.82** (0.37)	0/12 (3)	−0.16 (0.17)	0.67 (0.43)	0/12 (0)
Family (non-violent)	0.07 (0.22)	0.36* (0.21)	0/12 (0)	0.11 (0.38)	0.68 (0.50)	0/12 (0)
Kidnapping†	−0.70* (0.36)	−0.30 (0.27)	0/12 (3)	−0.62 (0.72)	0.05 (0.29)	0/12 (0)
Embezzlement	−0.39 (0.34)	0.96 (0.94)	0/12 (0)	−0.06 (0.48)	0.94 (0.83)	0/12 (0)
Child pornography/obscenity	−0.02 (0.56)	0.40 (0.74)	0/12 (0)	−0.34 (1.06)	0.34 (0.51)	0/12 (0)
Extortion†	−1.30* (0.70)	−0.28 (0.33)	2/12 (3)	−1.13** (0.51)	−0.19 (0.26)	2/12 (5)
Gambling†	−1.50 (1.44)	3.54 (2.25)	0/12 (4)	−1.25 (1.51)	2.88 (4.05)	0/12 (12)

Notes. Asking-rent near–far estimates on lease listings for the full offense battery, the near ring against the 0.20–0.30 mile far ring, pooled 2007–2025 with tract×listing-month fixed effects, clustered by tract (118,849 listings under parcel fixed effects; 98,813 under parcel×era). Under each fixed-effect specification, parcel (PIN) and parcel×era, Min and Max are the most negative and most positive estimate across the twelve exposure windows (standard error in parentheses), and Sig. counts windows significant at five percent; the parenthetical is the number of windows in which the post-date placebo (crime after the listing) is significant. A dagger (†) marks an offense whose placebo fails in two or more windows, shown only for completeness. Priced: asking rent lower, two or more significant windows under an identifying fixed-effect specification with a clean placebo. The compact version is Table 6. "Child pornography/obscenity" is predominantly child pornography (IUCR 1582). Non-domestic assault meets the window rule (2/12, clean placebo), but its estimates are small (about −0.06%) and it is not counted as priced.

*$p < 0.10$, **$p < 0.05$, ***$p < 0.01$.

Table A18: Priced Discounts with Predetermined Neighborhood Controls

	Homicide	Burglary	Narcotics	Vandalism
δ, baseline (no neighborhood control)	-3.02^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.29^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
Adding each predetermined control alone (near & far, stock to 12 months before close):				
+ Building permits (investment)	-3.03^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.29^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ Vacant buildings (disinvestment)	-3.06^{**}	-0.23^{**}	-0.25^{*}	-0.17^{*}
	(1.40)	(0.12)	(0.15)	(0.08)
+ Business licenses (commercial)	-2.95^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.39)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ Tree canopy (amenity)	-3.02^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.29^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ 311 service requests, all types (disorder)	-3.00^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
δ, all five controls together	-2.97^{**}	-0.22^{*}	-0.26^{*}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.40)	(0.12)	(0.15)	(0.08)

Notes. δ at each offense's main window. Row 1 is the baseline; the middle rows add one neighborhood control at a time; the last row adds all five. Each control is a near–far cumulative stock of events recorded more than twelve months before the close, except tree canopy, which is the near–far difference in average canopy share two years before the sale; 311 data begin in 2011 and change composition in 2019 (Section 3).
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A19: Hedonic Estimates on All Sales

Offense	δ (%)	(s.e.)	Window
Priced offenses			
Homicide	-1.86^{***}	(0.71)	10
Burglary	-0.47^{***}	(0.13)	8
Narcotics	-0.52^{***}	(0.09)	10
Vandalism	-0.62^{***}	(0.11)	6
No discount under repeat sales			
Theft	0.01	(0.08)	12
Motor-vehicle theft	-0.46^{**}	(0.20)	12
Robbery	-0.72^{***}	(0.20)	12
Assault (non-dom.)	-0.52^{***}	(0.09)	12
Assault (dom.)	-0.70^{***}	(0.10)	12

Notes. Cross-sectional hedonic near–far regression on all sold listings (N = 490,563), replacing the parcel fixed effect with observed characteristics (bedrooms, bathrooms, ln living area, ln lot size, age, stories, property type, new construction, and units, with missing indicators) plus tract×month fixed effects, clustered by tract. Regressors are the 0–0.05 and 0.20–0.30 mi counts in the w months before sale and the same-ring counts in months (w+1)–12. Each cell reports $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$ at the offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months; 12 for the other offenses).
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A20: Prior Estimates of Sale Prices

Study	Setting	Design	Offense	Spatial unit of crime	Estimate as reported	This paper, same offense
Sale prices, aggregate crime rates						
Thaler (1978)	Rochester, NY	Cross-sectional hedonic	Property crime	Census tract	$\approx 3\%$ per SD†	Burglary -0.24; theft 0.01
Gray & Joelson (1979)	Minneapolis	Cross-sectional hedonic, tract	Eight offense types	Tract	Only vandalism and burglary significant: +1% burglary $-\$336$; +1% vandalism $-\$117^{\dagger}$	Vandalism -0.17; burglary -0.24
Burnell (1988)	Chicago suburbs	IV, community fiscal and demographic instruments	Property crime	Community (71)	Elasticity $-0.10^{\dagger}$	Burglary -0.24; theft 0.01
Gibbons (2004)	London	Hedonic, deviations from district means, IV	Criminal damage	250 m radius	$\approx 1\%$ per 0.1 SD	Vandalism -0.17
Gibbons (2004)	London	Hedonic, deviations from district means, IV	Burglary	250 m radius	Null	Burglary -0.24
Schwartz, Susin & Voicu (2003)	New York City	Hedonic and repeat-sales price models	Violent (murder, rape, robbery, assault)	Precinct (74)	Elasticity 0.13; $\approx$ one third of the post-1994 boom	Homicide -3.0; robbery, assault ≈ 0
Schwartz, Susin & Voicu (2003)	New York City	Hedonic and repeat-sales price models	Property (burglary, larceny, auto theft)	Precinct (74)	Negative, insignificant	Burglary -0.24; theft, MVT ≈ 0
Tita, Petras & Greenbaum (2006)	Columbus, OH	Hedonic, IV (murder rate), by neighborhood income	Violent, property, total	Tract (189)	Violent crime most costly; effects vary by income	Homicide -3.0; robbery, assault ≈ 0
Ihlanfeldt & Mayock (2010)	Miami-Dade	First differences of tract repeat-sales index, IV	Murder, assault, robbery	Tract	Assault -0.15, robbery -0.11 (elasticities); murder null	Homicide -3.0; robbery, assault ≈ 0
Ihlanfeldt & Mayock (2010)	Miami-Dade	First differences of tract repeat-sales index, IV	Property	Tract	Small or null	Burglary -0.24; MVT -0.02
Bishop & Murphy (2011)	San Francisco Bay Area	Dynamic hedonic (structural)	Violent (homicide, rape, robbery, assault)	City (79), distance-weighted	WTP $\approx \$472$/yr per 10% less	Homicide -3.0; robbery, assault ≈ 0
Pope & Pope (2012)	$\approx$3,000 U.S. zip codes	Zip-code fixed effects and IV, 1990s crime drop	Violent and property	Zip code	Elasticity -0.15 to -0.35	Homicide -3.0; burglary -0.24
Sale prices, point-located events						
Linden & Rockoff (2008)	Mecklenburg Co., NC	DiD, neighborhood-year FE	Sex-offender arrival	0.1 mile	$\approx -4\%$	Sex offenses -0.47 (suggestive)
Pope (2008a)	Hillsborough Co., FL	DiD around offender arrival and departure	Sex-offender arrival	0.1 mile	-2.3%	Sex offenses -0.47 (suggestive)
Wentland, Waller & Brastow (2014)	Central Virginia	3SLS (price and time on market jointly)	Sex-offender proximity	0.1 mile	Price $\approx -7\%$; time on market +88 days ($\approx +80\%$)	Sex offenses -0.47 (suggestive)

Continued on next page

Table A20, continued

Study	Setting	Design	Offense	Spatial unit of crime	Estimate as reported	This paper, same offense
Congdon-Hohman (2013)	Akron, OH	DiD, near vs. slightly farther	Methamphetamine-lab discovery	1/8 mile (vs. 1/8–1/4)	−10% to −19%	Narcotics −0.29
Dealy, Horn & Berrens (2017)	Linn County, OR	Spatial difference-in-differences	Meth-lab discovery and decontamination	0.1 mile (near vs. far)	−6.5% on discovery; +5% after decontamination	Narcotics −0.29
Gautier, Siegmann & van Vuuren (2009)	Amsterdam	DiD on asking prices	Murder (van Gogh)	Neighborhood (Muslim share > 25%)	≈ −3% within 10 months	Homicide −3.0
Bhattacharya, Huang & Nielsen (2021)	Hong Kong	Unit FE (repeat sales), before/after death	Murder in unit	Unit, floor, building	Murder: unit ≈ −34%; floor −19%; building −10% (Table VI); all unnatural deaths: unit −20%	Homicide −3.0 (nearby, not own unit)
Tang & Le (2023)	Baltimore	Before/after offender arrival	Ex-gun-offender arrival	0.1 mile	−8.0% ($12,632); no rise in crime	Homicide −3.0 (closest offense); weapons inconclusive
Braakmann (2017)	England and Wales	Street FE, regional time trends	Six categories (anti-social behaviour, violent, other, burglary, robbery, vehicle)	Street	Violent −0.6 to −1.6%, anti-social −0.6 to −0.8% per case per 10 residents; robbery, burglary, vehicle ≈ 0 or positive	Burglary −0.24; robbery, assault ≈ 0
Dentler & Rossi (2021)	Rochester, NY	Discontinuity in time (±30–60 days) within a distance band	Robbery	0.3–0.6 km	−8 to −10%	Robbery ≈ 0
			Aggravated assault		−7 to −9%	Assault ≈ 0
			Burglary		≈ −6%	Burglary −0.24
			Shootings		Insignificant	Homicide −3.0 (closest offense)
Rents						
Rizzo (1979)	Chicago	Cross-section, IV	Total crime	Community area	Value elasticity ≈ −1.67†; rent elasticity −0.24†	Rents: sex −0.22, prostitution −0.15, liquor −0.30
Koirala, Chakraborti & Pradhan (2023)	North Carolina cities	Seemingly unrelated regressions of wages and rents	Violent and property rates	City	≈ $52/month net compensation	Rents: sex −0.22, prostitution −0.15, liquor −0.30
Donovan et al. (2024)	New Zealand	Cross-section of urban areas, spatial equilibrium, control-function IV	Victimizations per 1,000	Urban area (134)	Rent elasticity −0.15 to −0.44	Rents: sex −0.22, prostitution −0.15, liquor −0.30
Klimova & Lee (2014)	Sydney	Hedonic DiD	Murder	0.1–0.3 mile	Rents: no effect; values −3.9% within 0.2 mile	Homicide: sale −3.0, rent too imprecise to sign
Carrillo & Yezer (2021)	Washington, DC	Rent and value hedonics, tract FE	Homicide, violent	0.25 mile	Not directly comparable	Homicide: sale −3.0; rent too imprecise to sign

Continued on next page

Table A20, continued

Study	Setting	Design	Offense	Spatial unit of crime	Estimate as reported	This paper, same offense
This paper						
	Chicago	Repeat sales, near–far, parcel + tract×month FE	22 offense categories	0.05 mile vs. 0.20–0.30 mile far ring	Homicide −3.0, narcotics −0.29, burglary −0.24, vandalism −0.17 (priced); disorderly conduct −0.65, sex offenses −0.47 (suggestive); remaining offenses small or ≈ 0	

Notes. Estimates are in the units of the original study and are not on a common scale. "This paper, same offense" gives the near–far discount δ (percent per near-ring incident) at each offense's main window, for the offense closest to the one the prior study measures; for composite measures, the components are listed. Distance bands for Pope (2008a) are inferred from the design. Dentler & Rossi (2021): Model (4) of their Table 3; their simpler models are mostly insignificant. Outcomes are sale prices except asking prices (Gautier, Siegmann & van Vuuren, 2009), a tract repeat-sales price index (Ihlanfeldt & Mayock, 2010), owner-reported values and rents (Rizzo, 1979), owner-estimated median values (Gray & Joelson, 1979; Burnell, 1988), sale prices and asking rents (Klimova & Lee, 2014), rents and wages (Koirala, Chakraborti & Pradhan, 2023; Donovan et al., 2024), rents and values (Carrillo & Yezer, 2021), and housing values (Tang & Le, 2023); Bishop & Murphy (2011) estimate willingness to pay from sale prices in a dynamic model. This paper uses sale prices, asking rents, and transaction margins. †Reported in a secondary source.

Table A21: Homicide and the Asking Price, Every Window

	Sold listings		All listings	
Window (months)	Parcel	Parcel×era	Parcel	Parcel×era
1	−10.28**	−11.69*	0.02	0.12
	(4.44)	(6.84)	(1.39)	(1.40)
2	−2.49	−5.32	1.05	0.73
	(3.55)	(5.60)	(1.12)	(1.17)
3	−0.90	−0.42	0.10	−0.33
	(2.97)	(4.22)	(0.99)	(1.03)
4	−2.38	−3.47	0.24	−0.09
	(2.43)	(3.29)	(0.87)	(0.92)
5	−1.70	−4.25	0.00	−0.25
	(1.97)	(2.72)	(0.79)	(0.90)
6	−0.95	−3.36	0.40	0.13
	(1.88)	(2.45)	(0.74)	(0.87)
7	−0.44	−2.38	0.49	0.41
	(1.77)	(2.36)	(0.68)	(0.79)
8	−0.89	−1.27	0.45	0.50
	(1.67)	(2.10)	(0.64)	(0.75)
9	−1.04	−1.05	0.16	0.41
	(1.49)	(1.86)	(0.60)	(0.71)
10	−0.31	−0.88	0.51	0.76
	(1.38)	(1.74)	(0.58)	(0.67)
11	−0.44	−1.63	0.38	0.51
	(1.24)	(1.59)	(0.57)	(0.65)
12	−0.35	−1.46	0.50	0.64
	(1.17)	(1.53)	(0.55)	(0.62)
Listings	235,030	119,425	985,586	820,301

Notes. Near–far estimate δ (percent) of homicide on the ln original asking price: incidents within 0–0.05 miles against 0.20–0.30 miles in the given number of months before the list date, with controls for incidents in the remaining months up to twelve. Sold listings ended in a sale; all listings add those withdrawn. Parcel: parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects; parcel×era: parcel-by-era and tract × list-month fixed effects. Standard errors clustered by census tract. Listings: estimation sample (largest across windows). Each listing counts separately, so a home relisted after a withdrawal contributes several listings; the sample is 1,140,708 listings (523,916 sold, 616,792 withdrawn). Parcel fixed effects identify from homes with more than one listing in the sample (singletons are dropped), and parcel×era from homes listed more than once within an era.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A22: Homicide and Time on Market, Every Window

	Days on market		Cumulative days on market	
Window (months)	Parcel	Parcel×era	Parcel	Parcel×era
1	6.46	−8.97	2.61	12.49
	(11.91)	(16.44)	(13.39)	(18.83)
2	8.97	5.74	2.54	19.55
	(8.87)	(12.42)	(10.09)	(14.64)
3	4.38	8.43	−2.97	9.66
	(7.79)	(10.95)	(8.63)	(12.35)
4	3.08	13.63	−3.13	7.21
	(6.49)	(9.35)	(7.71)	(10.56)
5	−2.45	9.70	−5.41	4.82
	(6.31)	(8.82)	(7.27)	(9.51)
6	1.99	13.51	−2.56	5.24
	(5.70)	(8.43)	(6.59)	(9.06)
7	3.43	17.33**	−3.35	4.40
	(5.52)	(8.13)	(5.98)	(8.74)
8	2.36	14.54**	−2.22	6.68
	(5.13)	(6.85)	(5.58)	(7.48)
9	1.64	11.77**	−2.18	3.18
	(4.74)	(5.95)	(5.17)	(6.63)
10	0.35	9.05	−1.86	1.67
	(4.64)	(5.49)	(4.94)	(6.47)
11	0.06	10.58*	−1.34	3.37
	(4.44)	(5.56)	(4.87)	(6.31)
12	−0.20	8.43	−1.55	1.38
	(4.35)	(5.43)	(4.74)	(6.19)
Listings	235,655	119,296	235,978	119,617

Notes. Near–far estimate δ (percent) of homicide on ln days on market, sold listings: incidents within 0–0.05 miles against 0.20–0.30 miles in the given number of months before the list date, with controls for incidents in the remaining months up to twelve. Days on market: the current listing (median 24 days; 16 in the parcel×era estimation sample); cumulative: summed across relistings of the same home (median 41; 27 in the parcel×era estimation sample). Parcel: parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects; parcel×era: parcel-by-era and tract × list-month fixed effects. Standard errors clustered by census tract. Listings: estimation sample (largest across windows). Each listing counts separately, so a home relisted after a withdrawal contributes several listings; the sample is 1,140,708 listings (523,916 sold, 616,792 withdrawn). Parcel fixed effects identify from homes with more than one listing in the sample (singletons are dropped), and parcel×era from homes listed more than once within an era.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A23: Weapons Violations: Every Window

Outcome	FE	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	Placebo
Ask (all listings)	Parcel	−0.13	−0.38	−0.26	−0.25	−0.19	−0.13	−0.16	−0.14	−0.11	−0.11	−0.09	−0.14	1/12
		(0.41)	(0.33)	(0.28)	(0.26)	(0.24)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.17)	(0.17)	
	Parcel×era	0.50	0.08	0.15	−0.02	0.02	−0.04	−0.09	−0.08	−0.04	−0.04	−0.06	−0.09	0/12
		(0.38)	(0.30)	(0.26)	(0.23)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.19)	(0.18)	
Ask (sold listings)	Parcel	−1.45	−0.73	−0.13	−0.30	−0.24	−0.15	−0.23	−0.18	0.19	0.37	0.11	−0.02	0/12
		(0.97)	(0.75)	(0.62)	(0.56)	(0.47)	(0.40)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.32)	(0.29)	(0.29)	(0.28)	
	Parcel×era	−2.88**	−1.85*	−1.29	−1.26*	−0.97*	−1.12**	−1.22**	−1.05*	−0.72	−0.34	−0.50	−0.54	0/12
		(1.23)	(1.05)	(0.81)	(0.67)	(0.57)	(0.57)	(0.60)	(0.58)	(0.51)	(0.46)	(0.48)	(0.45)	
Sale-to-list	Parcel	0.21	0.11	0.17	0.11	0.15	0.13	0.09	0.08	0.13	0.06	0.03	0.06	0/12
		(0.34)	(0.25)	(0.20)	(0.16)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	
	Parcel×era	0.19	0.34	0.14	0.07	0.02	0.10	−0.01	−0.04	0.06	0.05	0.03	0.04	2/12
		(0.41)	(0.30)	(0.23)	(0.17)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.14)	(0.14)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	
Price cut (pp)	Parcel	−2.56**	−0.99	−0.71	−0.55	−0.02	−0.09	0.02	0.15	−0.01	−0.03	0.05	0.05	0/12
		(1.25)	(0.89)	(0.73)	(0.62)	(0.61)	(0.54)	(0.48)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.41)	(0.37)	
	Parcel×era	−2.02	−1.17	−0.63	−0.28	0.06	−0.19	0.39	0.40	0.08	−0.07	0.00	0.02	0/12
		(1.61)	(1.19)	(0.93)	(0.76)	(0.66)	(0.57)	(0.56)	(0.52)	(0.49)	(0.43)	(0.43)	(0.40)	
Days on market	Parcel	−5.96*	−2.61	−2.12	−0.62	0.13	−0.78	−0.53	−0.52	−1.27	−1.10	−0.87	−0.79	0/12
		(3.21)	(2.64)	(1.94)	(1.59)	(1.28)	(1.18)	(1.08)	(1.04)	(0.95)	(0.87)	(0.79)	(0.79)	
	Parcel×era	−2.86	−0.33	0.33	0.98	1.32	−0.23	0.91	−0.12	−0.61	−0.67	−0.54	−0.91	2/12
		(3.90)	(3.52)	(2.28)	(2.08)	(1.72)	(1.67)	(1.74)	(1.54)	(1.43)	(1.39)	(1.22)	(1.17)	
Withdrawal (pp)	Parcel	0.94**	0.59*	0.66***	0.59***	0.69***	0.63***	0.50***	0.42**	0.34**	0.28*	0.24*	0.25*	1/12
		(0.41)	(0.31)	(0.24)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.18)	(0.17)	(0.18)	(0.17)	(0.15)	(0.15)	(0.14)	
	Parcel×era	0.91*	0.56	0.67**	0.44*	0.55**	0.46**	0.31	0.27	0.18	0.11	0.09	0.13	0/12
		(0.47)	(0.35)	(0.27)	(0.24)	(0.22)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.17)	(0.17)	(0.16)	
Close	Parcel	−0.47	0.07	0.11	−0.51	−0.62	−0.39	−0.18	−0.12	−0.17	0.04	0.09	0.10	0/12
		(0.92)	(0.71)	(0.58)	(0.48)	(0.47)	(0.44)	(0.40)	(0.37)	(0.35)	(0.31)	(0.30)	(0.28)	
	Parcel×era	−0.99	−0.38	−0.51	−0.93*	−1.11**	−0.72	−0.59	−0.32	−0.32	−0.10	0.02	0.12	0/12
		(1.20)	(0.84)	(0.69)	(0.55)	(0.47)	(0.45)	(0.40)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.30)	(0.29)	(0.27)	

Notes. Near–far estimate δ for weapons violations (incidents within 0–0.05 miles against 0.20–0.30 miles) in the w months before the list date (w = column), with controls for incidents in the remaining months up to twelve; percent for log outcomes, percentage points for the price cut and withdrawal. Close: repeat sales, crime before the sale date. Parcel: parcel and tract × month fixed effects; parcel×era: parcel-by-era and tract × month fixed effects; standard errors clustered by tract. Placebo: windows (of twelve) significant at 5% when crime after the outcome is fixed replaces crime before it (after the list date for the ask, after the close date for sale-to-list, price cut, days on market and close, after the off-market date for withdrawal). The price cut in Table 4 is a separate specification: crime during the listing (list date to close date), sold listings, with fixed effects for the number of months listed (one to twelve), parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects: 1.35** (0.53); its placebo, crime in the same number of months after the close date with tract × close-month fixed effects, is 0.49 (0.60).
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

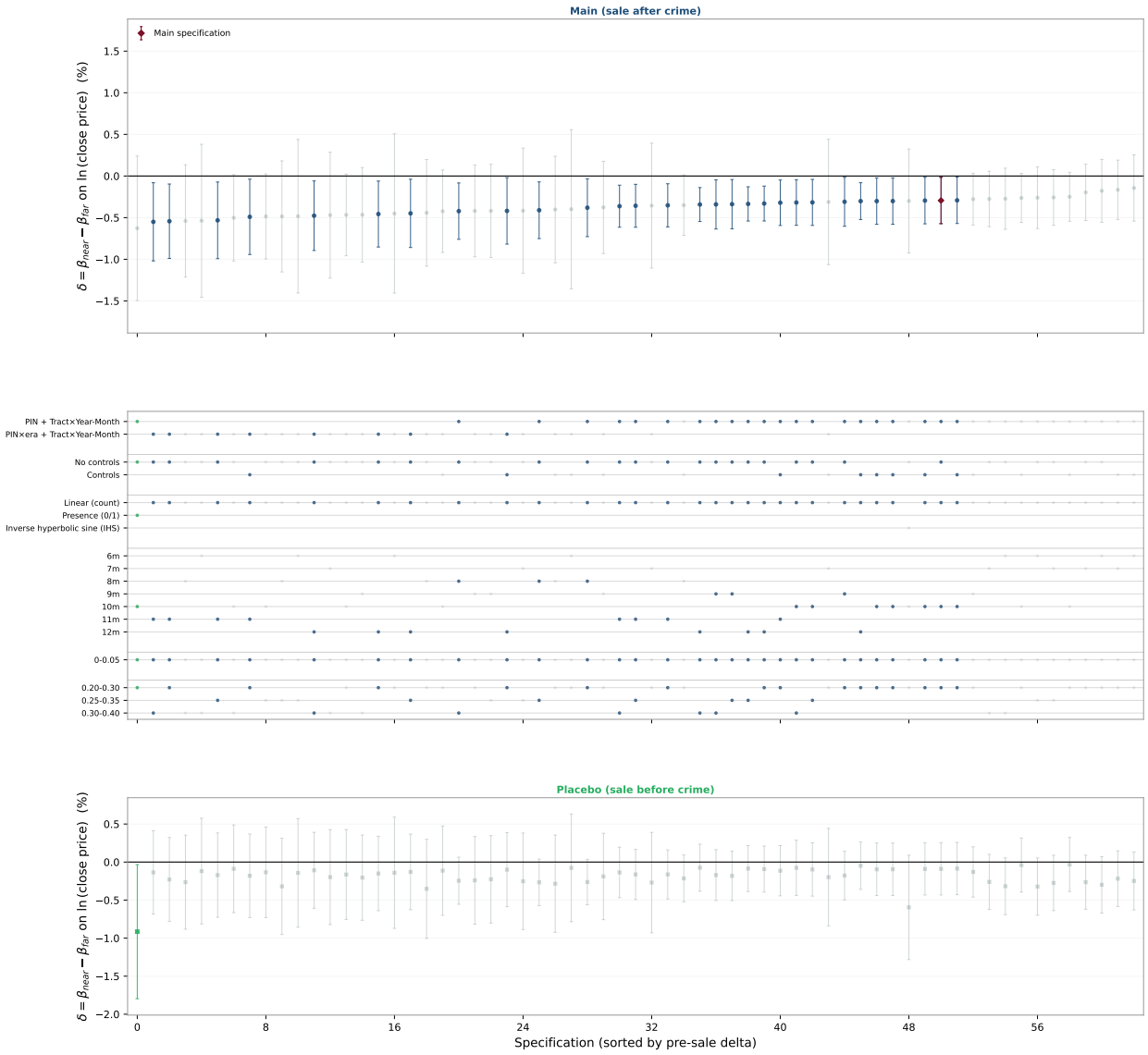


Figure A3: Narcotics: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and a ten-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Narcotics: 29/63 significant at 5%, placebo 1/63.

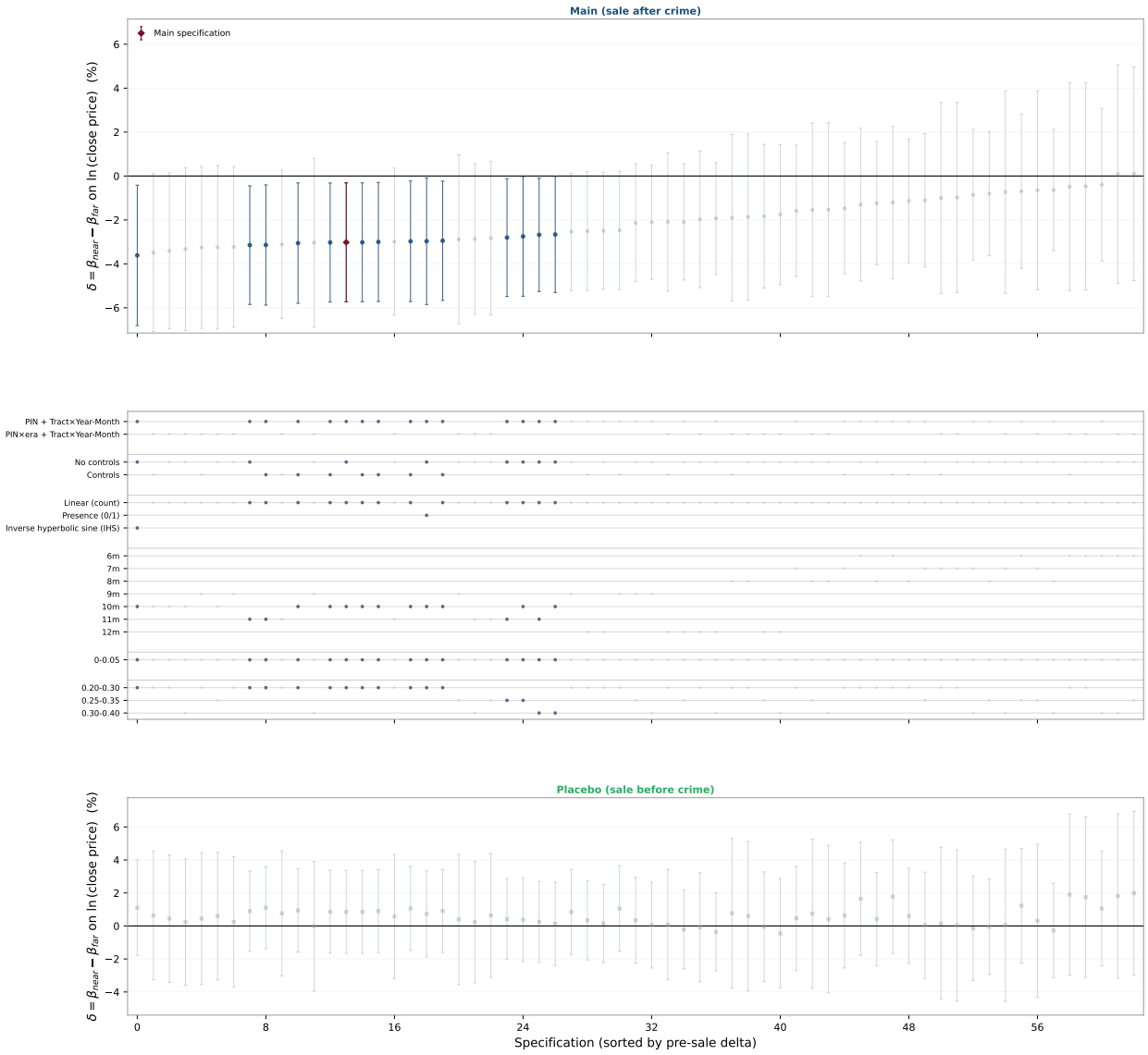


Figure A4: Homicide: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and a ten-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Homicide: 15/63 significant at 5%, placebo 0/63.

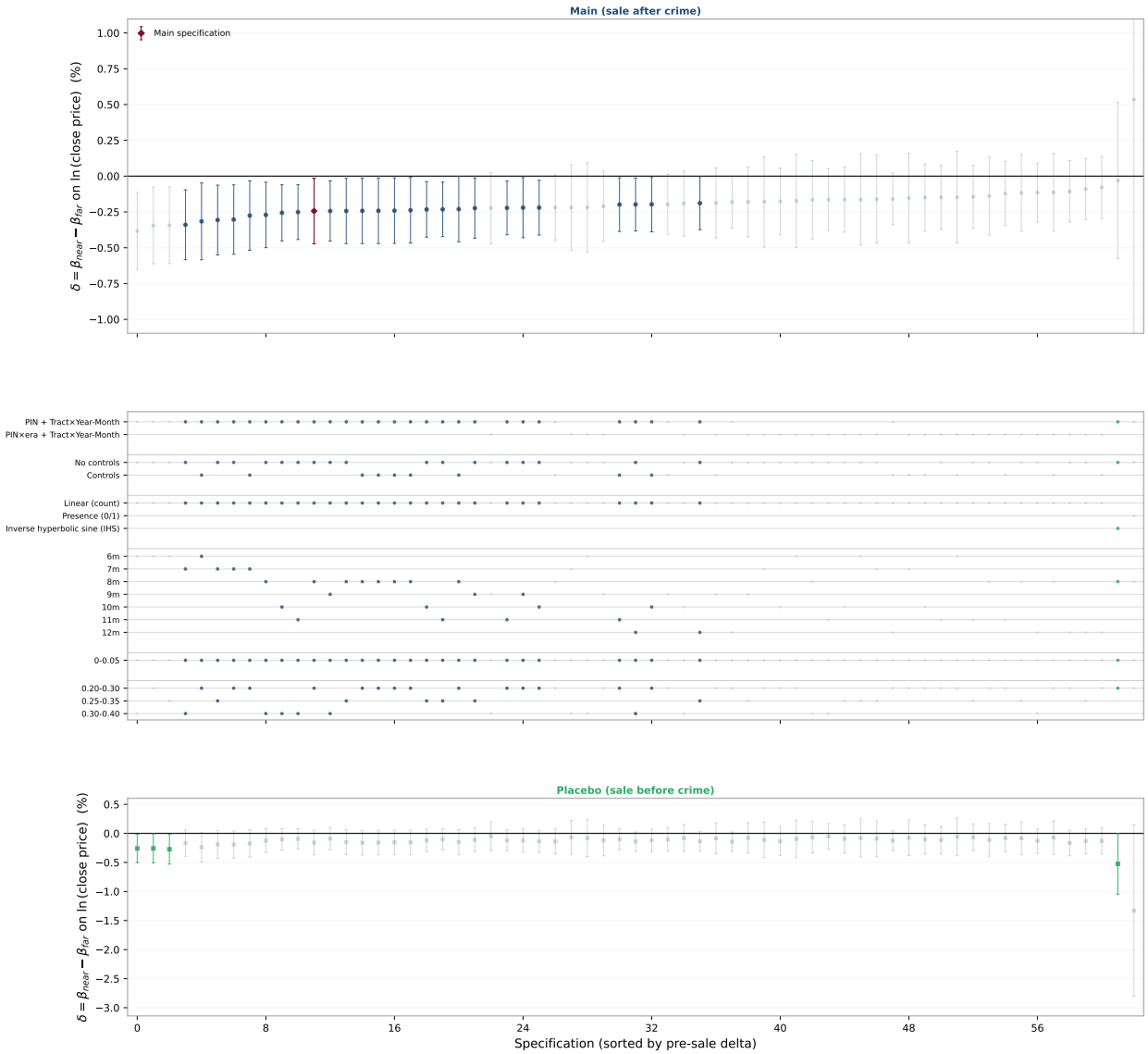


Figure A5: Burglary: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and an eight-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Burglary: 29/63 significant at 5%, placebo 4/63.

Supplementary Material

The *Online Appendix* contains additional tables, figures, and data details.